

Lectures on General Relativity

“To understand the universe we must understand how space and time bend”

Saturday 19th September, 2026



LECTURES ON GENERAL RELATIVITY

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Abstract

These notes build the theory of general relativity from the ground up. After tracing how our understanding of gravity evolved from the ancient Greeks to Einstein's own revolution, the book develops the differential geometry needed to speak of curved space-time: manifolds, charts, tangent vectors and the metric tensor. With that language in hand, it turns to the theory itself, deriving the geodesic equation, the Riemann curvature tensor and the Einstein field equations that relate the curvature of space-time to the matter and energy within it. The final chapter linearises these field equations around a flat background to obtain the wave equation for gravitational waves, and studies their propagation and polarisation properties.

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Chapter 1

The History of General Relativity

Every revolution in physics begins as a quiet correction to the certainties of the age before it.

“If I have seen further it is by standing on the shoulders of Giants.”

– Isaac Newton

Before we bend space and curve time we must first understand why anyone would ever have thought to try. **The history of general relativity is not the history of a lone genius working in isolation, it is the history of nearly twenty five centuries of argument about a single, deceptively simple question:** why do bodies move the way they do? Every civilisation that has looked up at the night sky or dropped a stone from a height has had to answer this question in its own way, and the theory we are about to build in this book is, in a very real sense, the latest instalment of that argument rather than its final word. In this chapter we are going to walk through that argument from the Greeks to the physics of today, and along the way we will meet the geometers whose abstract mathematics quietly waited, sometimes for decades, for a physicist to notice that it was exactly what nature needed.

1.1 Motion in the Ancient World

1.1.1 The Aristotelian Cosmos

For the better part of two thousand years the Western understanding of motion belonged to Aristotle (384 to 322 B.C.), whose *Physics* divided all motion into two families. *Natural motion* was the motion a body underwent when left alone, and it depended entirely on what the body was made of: earth and water naturally fell towards the centre of the cosmos, while air and fire naturally rose away from it, and the heavenly bodies, made of a fifth incorruptible element he called *aether*, naturally moved in perfect eternal circles. *Violent motion*, by contrast, was any motion imposed on a body against its nature, and Aristotle's central postulate about it is one every student of mechanics eventually collides with: **a body moves only while something is in contact with it and pushing it**, so that the moment the pushing stops the motion must stop too (Aristotle, 1984). This is why a thrown spear troubled him so much. If the hand that threw it is no longer touching it, what keeps it moving through the air after it leaves the fingers? Aristotle's answer, the doctrine of *antiperistasis*, was that the air parted by the spear's tip rushes around to its rear and pushes it onwards, a mechanism that is elegant on paper and hopeless the moment one actually thinks about throwing something, and it would take the better part of two millennia and the combined efforts of Alexandria, Baghdad and Paris to finally dismantle it.

Underneath this physics of pushes and pulls lay a much grander architecture, the geocentric cosmos, in which a stationary Earth sat at the centre of a finite universe and everything else, the Moon, the Sun, the planets and the fixed stars, was carried around it on nested, concentric, crystalline spheres. It is worth pausing on how seriously this was meant: for Aristotle the centre of the cosmos was not merely a convenient coordinate origin, it was the natural resting place towards which heavy matter was drawn, so that geometry and physics were one and the same fact.

1.1.2 Ptolemy and the Mathematics of the Heavens

The trouble with perfect circles around a stationary Earth is that the planets simply refuse to move on them, drifting faster and slower across the year and occasionally, most embarrassingly

of all, reversing direction in the sky entirely, a phenomenon we now call retrograde motion and understand as nothing more than the view from a moving Earth overtaking a slower outer planet. Claudius Ptolemy, working in Alexandria around 150 A.D., inherited several centuries of Greek attempts to rescue the circles (Apollonius and Hipparchus among them) and assembled them into the *Almagest*, the most complete and mathematically serious astronomical text the ancient world produced (Ptolemy, 1998). Ptolemy kept the philosophical commitment to circular motion but smuggled in three devices to make the mathematics fit the sky: the *epicycle*, a small circle whose centre rides upon a larger circle called the *deferent*; the *eccentric*, which quietly moves the Earth slightly off the true centre of the deferent; and, most cunning of all, the *equant*, an empty point in space from which the planet's motion *appears* uniform even though it is uniform nowhere else. The equant in particular is a fascinating piece of intellectual dishonesty dressed up as rigour, because it abandons the very principle of uniform circular motion it was invented to save, and it is precisely this point, as we shall see in a moment, that the astronomers of Islam would spend centuries trying to repair.

1.2 The Arabic Custodians of Motion

When the intellectual centre of gravity of the ancient world shifted from Alexandria towards Baghdad, Damascus and later Maragha and Samarkand, it carried Aristotle and Ptolemy with it, but it did not simply preserve them, it interrogated them. The crucial bridge figure is not, strictly speaking, an Arab at all: John Philoponus, a Christian philosopher working in sixth century Alexandria, wrote a commentary on Aristotle's *Physics* in which he attacked antiperistasis directly, proposing instead that the thrower impresses onto the projectile itself a finite, internal quantity of motive power, an *incorporeal kinetic force*, which then dissipates gradually as the projectile travels, explaining why a spear eventually falls without needing the air to conspire behind it. Philoponus's Greek text was largely forgotten in Byzantium but survived and was studied intensely by scholars writing in Arabic, and it is through that transmission, not through the Latin West, that his idea re-entered the mainstream of physics.

The Persian polymath Ibn Sina, known in Latin as Avicenna (980 to 1037), sharpened Philoponus's idea considerably in his encyclopaedic *Kitab al-Shifa* (The Book of Healing). He argued that the impressed force, which he called *mayl* (inclination), is a genuine, quantifiable property of the moving body itself rather than of the medium around it, and, in a passage that reads almost eerily like a draft of Newton's first law, he claimed that in a void this *mayl* would never be consumed and the body would continue moving forever, since nothing in a true vacuum could exist to wear it down (Rashed, 1996). This is not yet inertia in the modern sense, because Ibn Sina still thought of *mayl* as a cause that must be continuously present to sustain motion rather than as the mere absence of a cause to stop it, but the intuition that unresisted motion is self-perpetuating had, for the first time, been stated clearly and defended on physical grounds rather than dismissed as an impossible thought experiment about an empty universe Aristotle himself had declared could not exist.

Astronomy saw an even more consequential development. Frustrated by the equant's abandonment of true uniform circular motion, the mathematicians of the Maragha observatory in thirteenth century

Persia, led by Nasir al-Din al-Tusi, invented a purely geometrical device, now called the *Tusi couple*, a small circle rolling inside a larger one, whose combined motion can reproduce a straight line oscillation using only uniformly rotating circles, with no equant required. A century later in Damascus, Ibn al-Shatir used exactly this device to rebuild the entire Ptolemaic planetary system without a single equant, producing models that were mathematically superior to Ptolemy's own (Saliba, 1987). What makes this genuinely remarkable, and worth pausing on for a student of physics rather than only of history, is that when Nicolaus Copernicus published *De Revolutionibus Orbium Coelestium* in 1543, the geometrical diagrams he used to eliminate the equant from his own, now heliocentric, system are mathematically identical to Ibn al-Shatir's, down to the labelling of points in some manuscripts. Historians still debate exactly how the Maragha school's mathematics reached Copernicus, whether through Byzantine Greek intermediaries in Italy or some now lost channel, but the technical debt is not seriously disputed, and it is a useful reminder that the Copernican revolution did not spring from nowhere: it stood, quite literally, on Islamic geometrical shoulders.

1.3 The Latin West Breaks with Aristotle

1.3.1 Buridan's Impetus

The idea of an impressed motive force crossed into Latin Europe through translations of Arabic and Greek texts flooding into the universities of the thirteenth century, and it found its sharpest medieval expression in Jean Buridan, rector of the University of Paris in the 1340s. Buridan proposed that the mover impresses upon the projectile a genuine, permanent quantity he called *impetus*, proportional to the amount of matter in the body and to its speed (a description that should already sound suspiciously familiar to anyone who has met the word *momentum*), and that this impetus would in principle persist forever were it not continuously eroded by air resistance and by the body's own natural tendency to fall (Clagett, 1959). Buridan went further than Ibn Sina in one crucial respect: he applied impetus theory to the heavens themselves, suggesting that God, at the Creation, might simply have impressed upon the celestial spheres an impetus that meets no resistance in the frictionless heavens and therefore never decays, a proposal that quietly detaches the eternal circular motion of the planets from any need for a continuously acting mover, Aristotle's prime mover included. His student Nicole Oresme pushed the mathematics further still, inventing a graphical method of plotting a body's speed against time as a geometrical figure and showing that the area under such a figure gives the distance travelled, a genuinely startling anticipation, two and a half centuries early, of the mean speed theorem that Galileo would later use to characterise uniformly accelerated fall.

1.3.2 Copernicus and Kepler

Copernicus's 1543 relocation of the Sun to the centre of the cosmos was, in itself, primarily a mathematical and aesthetic argument (he found the resulting system simpler and more harmonious), and it would take Johannes Kepler, working with the extraordinarily precise naked eye observations

that Tycho Brahe had spent a lifetime accumulating, to turn heliocentrism into a genuinely predictive physical theory. Between 1609 and 1619 Kepler announced three laws that any general relativity student should keep close at hand, because they are the observational bedrock that Newton, and much later Einstein, would both have to reproduce: planets move on ellipses with the Sun at one focus, they sweep out equal areas in equal times, and the square of their orbital period is proportional to the cube of their orbit's semi-major axis. Kepler arrived at the ellipse only after years of fighting his own preference for circles, famously calling his discovery a *cartload of dung* in a fit of frustration with the messy, imperfect shape nature had apparently chosen over the geometrical perfection he had hoped for, and it is a nice historical irony that this same ellipse would reappear, itself only an approximation, when Einstein finally explained in 1915 why Mercury's own elliptical orbit slowly, stubbornly, refuses to close.

1.3.3 Galileo and the First Principle of Relativity

It is with Galileo Galilei that impetus theory finally becomes something closer to modern inertia. In his *Two New Sciences* of 1638, written under house arrest and smuggled out of Italy for publication in the Protestant Netherlands, Galileo established through careful (and, for the tools available to him, remarkably precise) experiments with balls rolling down inclined planes that a freely falling body accelerates uniformly, covering distances in the ratio of the odd numbers one, three, five and so on in successive equal intervals of time, and he reasoned that a body moving on a perfectly smooth horizontal surface, meeting no resistance and no incline either to speed it up or slow it down, would continue moving forever at constant speed (Galilei, 1974). This is, for all practical purposes, Newton's first law stated half a century early.

Just as important for our story, though, is an idea Galileo had already set out six years earlier, in 1632, in the *Dialogue Concerning the Two Chief World Systems*. There he asks the reader to imagine themselves below decks on a smoothly sailing ship, with no portholes, watching fish swim in a bowl, butterflies fly and drops of water fall from a bottle, and he argues that not one of these phenomena would betray to the observer whether the ship is standing still in harbour or sailing at constant velocity across a perfectly calm sea (Galilei, 1953). **No mechanical experiment performed entirely inside a closed cabin can distinguish uniform motion from rest**, and this is the first clean statement of what we now call the *principle of relativity*, the very principle that, generalised first to electromagnetism by Einstein in 1905 and then to accelerated frames by the equivalence principle we shall meet in chapter 3, becomes the seed from which the entire theory of general relativity eventually grows. Tradition, almost certainly apocryphal but too delicious to leave out, has Galileo muttering *E pur si muove* ("and yet it moves") under his breath after being forced by the Roman Inquisition in 1633 to formally recant the Copernican system his own physics had done so much to defend.

1.4 Newton and the Absolute Stage

Isaac Newton's *Philosophiae Naturalis Principia Mathematica*, published in 1687, is the book that finally welded Galileo's terrestrial kinematics to Kepler's celestial geometry into a single mechanics. Newton's three laws of motion, and above all his law of universal gravitation, showed that the very same force that pulls an apple to the ground also holds the Moon in its orbit and drives the planets along Kepler's ellipses, a genuinely staggering unification for its time (Newton, 1999). But Newton needed a stage on which this mechanics could play out, and he built one deliberately: *absolute space*, an unmoving, featureless, infinite container existing independently of anything inside it, and *absolute time*, flowing uniformly and identically for every observer everywhere in the universe. He even offered an experimental argument for taking absolute space seriously, the famous rotating bucket: spin a bucket of water and its surface climbs the sides into a concave shape, and since this happens whether or not the bucket is rotating relative to any other nearby matter, Newton argued that the water must be rotating relative to something, namely space itself.

What is often forgotten by students who only encounter Newton through the tidy inverse square law is how deeply uncomfortable Newton himself was with one consequence of his own theory: gravity, as he had written it down, acts instantaneously at a distance across empty space, with no mediating mechanism whatsoever, and this troubled him far more than it troubles most introductory textbooks today. In a 1693 letter to the theologian Richard Bentley he wrote, with striking force, that

“that gravity should be innate, inherent and essential to matter, so that one body may act upon another at a distance through a vacuum, without the mediation of any thing else, by and through which their action and force may be conveyed from one to another, is to me so great an absurdity that I believe no man who has in philosophical matters a competent faculty of thinking can ever fall into it.” (Newton, 1958)

Newton had no candidate mechanism to offer in its place, and so, with characteristic caution, he famously declined to speculate publicly, writing in the General Scholium he added to later editions of the *Principia* that *hypotheses non fingo*, “I feign no hypotheses” (Newton, 1999). It would take more than two centuries, and an entirely new branch of geometry that did not yet exist in Newton's lifetime, before anyone could offer a mechanism at all: general relativity's answer, that gravity is not a force transmitted through space but the curvature of space-time itself, is in a very real sense the belated reply to Newton's own unease.

1.5 The Geometers Who Prepared the Ground

1.5.1 Gauss and the Curvature Hidden Inside a Surface

For gravity to become geometry, geometry first had to learn how to describe curvature without appealing to anything outside itself, and this is exactly what Carl Friedrich Gauss achieved in 1827

in his *Disquisitiones Generales circa Superficies Curvas* (General Investigations of Curved Surfaces) (Gauss, 1828). Gauss showed that the curvature of a surface, a quantity that seems at first to depend entirely on how that surface bends through the three dimensional space surrounding it, can in fact be computed using only measurements made *within* the surface itself, lengths and angles as measured by an ant living on it, with no reference whatsoever to the ambient space. He was so struck by this fact that he named it his *Theorema Egregium*, the “remarkable theorem”, and remarkable it is: it is the very first proof that curvature is an *intrinsic* property of a space, not something a space merely borrows from a higher dimensional stage on which it happens to sit. This is precisely the property that will let us, in chapter 2, speak of the curvature of space-time without ever having to ask what space-time is supposedly curving *into*.

It is often repeated, and worth mentioning with the appropriate degree of caution, that Gauss was not only a mathematician but also, in his day job, the director of a two decade long geodetic survey of the Kingdom of Hanover, and that he measured the angles of an enormous triangle formed by the peaks of the Brocken, the Hohenhagen and the Inselsberg, partly to test whether the angles of a very large physical triangle really do sum to exactly 180 degrees, as flat Euclidean geometry demands, or whether the physical space we live in might, just possibly, be very slightly curved. Whether Gauss genuinely intended this as a test of the geometry of physical space, or whether the story has been embellished by later admirers eager to cast him as a prophet of general relativity, remains disputed among historians, and no deviation from 180 degrees was in any case ever detected, the curvature of space-time being far too gentle at the scale of a mountain range for eighteenth century theodolites to have any hope of catching it. What is beyond dispute is that Gauss had, at the very least, begun to entertain the question of whether Euclidean geometry is a truth of pure reason or an empirical fact about our particular universe, and that question is the hinge on which this entire chapter, and indeed this entire book, turns.

1.5.2 Riemann’s Prophecy

Gauss’s intrinsic geometry described curved surfaces, objects with only two dimensions. The decisive generalisation, to spaces of any number of dimensions whatsoever, was the achievement of Gauss’s own student, Bernhard Riemann, and it arrived in a single lecture. In 1854, required by University of Göttingen custom to deliver a probationary lecture (a *Habilitationsvortrag*) before the assembled faculty in order to earn the right to teach, the shy and sickly Riemann chose, on Gauss’s own suggestion, the topic “Über die Hypothesen, welche der Geometrie zu Grunde liegen” (On the Hypotheses which lie at the Bases of Geometry). Gauss himself, by then an old man near the end of his life and famously difficult to impress, sat in the audience, and by every surviving account he was profoundly moved by what he heard.

In that lecture Riemann introduced what we would now call an n -dimensional manifold, a space that need only look locally like ordinary flat Euclidean space, and he showed how to equip such a space with a quantity, the *metric*, encoding the distance between any two infinitesimally close points, from which a notion of curvature at every point could then be built by pure calculation, generalising Gauss’s Theorema Egregium to any dimension and to spaces nobody could ever hope to visualise by

embedding them in something larger. This is the mathematical object we will meet formally as $g_{\mu\nu}$ in chapter 2, and without it there simply is no general relativity to write down. But Riemann did something else that evening, something far stranger for a lecture ostensibly about pure mathematics, something translated from the German by the English mathematician William Kingdon Clifford two decades later and read ever since by physicists with a peculiar chill of recognition: he wondered aloud, in the lecture's closing paragraphs, whether the geometry of physical space might not be fixed and given after all, but might instead be determined by the matter distributed within it.

“we must seek the ground of its metric relations outside it, in binding forces which act upon it” (Riemann, 1873)

is how Clifford rendered Riemann's own conjecture, and Riemann explicitly named this a question for physics, not mathematics, to eventually answer, adding that the answer could only come from experience and observation of the actual physical world. Riemann died of tuberculosis in 1866, at only thirty nine years old, on the shores of Lake Maggiore in Italy, sixty years before anyone would show that he had, in that single lecture, more or less written down the mathematical vessel into which Albert Einstein would one day pour a physical theory of gravity.

1.6 Einstein's Long Road to General Relativity

Albert Einstein's 1905 theory of special relativity had already overthrown Newton's absolute time, welding space and time together into a single four dimensional structure and showing that simultaneity itself depends on the observer's motion. But special relativity, as its name honestly admits, is special: it applies only to unaccelerated, inertial observers, and it could offer no account whatsoever of gravity, since Newtonian gravity's instantaneous action at a distance is flatly incompatible with special relativity's insistence that no signal, gravitational or otherwise, can outrun the speed of light.

The idea that would eventually resolve this came to Einstein in 1907, while he was still working at the Swiss patent office in Bern, and he later called it, in a 1922 lecture in Kyoto, *der glücklichste Gedanke meines Lebens*, “the happiest thought of my life”: a person falling freely from a rooftop feels no gravity whatsoever, their own weight vanishing entirely for as long as the fall lasts. From this simple, almost childlike observation Einstein extracted his *equivalence principle*, the proposal that being at rest in a gravitational field is locally indistinguishable from accelerating through empty space with no gravity at all, a principle that, as we shall see explicitly in chapter 3, is nothing less than Galileo's shipboard relativity extended from uniform motion to acceleration itself, and it is the true conceptual seed of everything that follows in this book.

Turning that seed into a working theory took Einstein eight more gruelling years. He understood by around 1912, while teaching in Prague, that a theory built on the equivalence principle would need a gravitational field capable of bending the paths of light rays and of clocks running at different rates in different places, and that flat Minkowski space-time (the space-time of special relativity) simply could not accommodate this. What he needed was some kind of curved geometry, and he had no idea such a thing already existed in full generality, sitting in the mathematics literature

since 1854, until his old university classmate from Zurich, the mathematician Marcel Grossmann, came to his rescue. According to Einstein's own later recollection, and as reported by his biographer Abraham Pais, Einstein turned to Grossmann in something close to desperation with the words "*Grossmann, du musst mir helfen, sonst werd' ich verrückt!*" ("Grossmann, you must help me or I shall go crazy!") (Pais, 1982). Grossmann answered by introducing Einstein to precisely Riemann's geometry, together with the *absolute differential calculus* that the Italian mathematicians Gregorio Ricci-Curbastro and Tullio Levi-Civita had spent the intervening decades building on top of it, the very tensor calculus this book will spend the whole of chapter 2 constructing from scratch.

In 1913 Einstein and Grossmann published together a first attempt, the so called *Entwurf* (draft) theory, which used Riemann's curved metric but, out of a mixture of genuine physical worry and outright mathematical error, stopped short of demanding that the field equations hold in every coordinate system (Einstein and Grossmann, 1913). The *Entwurf* theory predicted the wrong value for the century old, already precisely measured anomaly in the precession of Mercury's perihelion, and Einstein knew it. The final months, in Berlin during the autumn of 1915, were by his own account among the most intense of his life: in a sequence of four papers delivered to the Prussian Academy of Sciences on four successive Thursdays in November, he corrected his errors in full public view, week by week, until on 25 November 1915 he presented the field equations essentially in the form we use today (Einstein, 1915), and applied them almost immediately to recover Mercury's precession exactly, a moment he later described as having given him heart palpitations severe enough to worry he might be physically unwell.

1.7 Riemann, Hilbert and the Question of Theft

It is sometimes claimed, in the looser corners of popular science writing, that Einstein "stole" general relativity from Riemann, and it is worth being precise about why this particular accusation does not survive contact with the historical record, even though a genuine and fascinating priority dispute does sit at the heart of this story, just with a different antagonist. Riemann died in 1866, forty nine years before Einstein wrote down a single field equation, and he never worked on gravity, never proposed a field equation, and never claimed to have solved the problem this chapter has been tracing since Aristotle: Riemann supplied a mathematical *language*, the geometry of curved manifolds, not a physical theory of gravitation, and Einstein always said so plainly and gratefully, both in his 1913 paper with Grossmann and later in his own *Autobiographical Notes* (Einstein, 1949). Crediting Riemann with the mathematics he actually built, generously and by name, is simply accurate history, not theft.

The real, and rather more dramatic, priority dispute concerns not Riemann but David Hilbert, the towering Göttingen mathematician who was, quite independently, hunting for the same field equations in the very same autumn of 1915. Einstein had visited Göttingen that summer and lectured on his still unfinished theory, and Hilbert, characteristically supremely confident (he is reported to have remarked, only half in jest, that "*every boy in the streets of Göttingen understands more about four dimensional geometry than Einstein*"), so thoroughly had David Hilbert's own city absorbed the mathematics Einstein was still struggling to apply), set to work on the problem from a different

direction entirely, a variational principle built from the very Einstein-Hilbert action we shall derive in chapter 3. Hilbert submitted a paper to the Göttingen Academy titled “Die Grundlagen der Physik” on 20 November 1915, five days before Einstein’s own final, decisive paper of 25 November (Hilbert, 1915), and for decades afterwards a persistent rumour circulated that Einstein had somehow seen and silently borrowed from Hilbert’s unpublished proofs, or conversely that Hilbert had quietly lifted the final covariant equations from Einstein’s own Göttingen lecture.

The matter was only properly settled in 1997, when the historians of science Leo Corry, Jürgen Renn and John Stachel tracked down the actual surviving galley proofs of Hilbert’s paper, printer’s proofs dated December 1915, sitting quietly in the Göttingen archive (Corry et al., 1997). Those proofs, it turned out, did *not* yet contain the fully generally covariant field equations that appeared in Hilbert’s paper when it was finally published, months later, in 1916: Hilbert had revised his own manuscript after that publication date, almost certainly after seeing Einstein’s completed November papers, to bring it into line with Einstein’s result. **Einstein reached the correct, generally covariant field equations first, and independently**, while Hilbert arrived at essentially the same equations by a beautiful and genuinely independent variational route, close behind him and very possibly influenced, in the final polish of his own paper, by Einstein’s success. Hilbert himself, to his considerable credit, never once publicly disputed Einstein’s priority and always referred to the result as “Einstein’s equations”, and the two men remained on entirely cordial, mutually respectful terms for the rest of their lives. If there is a lesson here for a student just beginning this subject, it is that the discovery of general relativity was not a single flash of individual genius but the convergence of an entire community, Gauss’s intrinsic curvature, Riemann’s manifolds, Ricci and Levi-Civita’s calculus, Grossmann’s tutoring, and Hilbert’s own parallel and generous rivalry, all funnelled through Einstein’s singular physical insight that gravity simply *is* the shape of space-time.

1.8 Confirmation: From the Trenches to the Eclipse

Extraordinary claims of this kind demand to be tested, and their testing produced two of the most romantic episodes in the whole history of physics. The first came almost immediately. Karl Schwarzschild, a distinguished German astrophysicist who had volunteered for military service and was at the time calculating artillery trajectories on the Russian front, read Einstein’s November 1915 papers and, within a matter of weeks, working between his military duties, found the first exact, non approximate solution to Einstein’s notoriously difficult field equations, the solution describing the curved space-time around a single spherical, non rotating mass, which we will study closely in chapter 3 and which today bears his name (Schwarzschild, 1916). Schwarzschild mailed his solution to Einstein directly from the front; Einstein, visibly delighted, presented it to the Prussian Academy on Schwarzschild’s behalf in January 1916. Schwarzschild had, tragically, already contracted a rare and painful autoimmune skin disease at the front, and he died only a few months later, in May 1916, never learning that his solution would one day predict the existence of black holes.

The second episode made Einstein a global celebrity almost overnight. General relativity predicted that starlight passing close to the Sun should be deflected by the Sun’s gravity by twice the amount Newtonian gravity alone would predict, an effect only observable during a total solar eclipse, when the

Sun’s own overwhelming brightness is briefly blotted out and stars that ordinarily hide directly behind it become visible. On 29 May 1919, two expeditions organised chiefly by the British astronomers Arthur Eddington and Frank Dyson, one to the island of Príncipe off the coast of West Africa and one to Sobral in northern Brazil, photographed the stars around the eclipsed Sun and found, after months of careful measurement, a deflection matching Einstein’s relativistic prediction and decisively ruling out the smaller Newtonian value (Dyson et al., 1920). When the results were announced at a joint meeting of the Royal Society and the Royal Astronomical Society in London that November, the news spread with astonishing speed: the *New York Times* greeted it on 10 November 1919 with the headline “Lights All Askew in the Heavens”, and within weeks Einstein, until then a name known chiefly to physicists, had become the most famous scientist on Earth.

1.9 Beyond General Relativity

The theory did not stop working once it was confirmed, and it has continued, ever since, to reveal consequences even its own author found hard to accept. In 1917 Einstein had inserted an extra term, the *cosmological constant*, into his own field equations purely to force them to describe a static, unchanging universe, since a static cosmos was simply what everyone, Einstein included, assumed the real universe to be. The Russian mathematician Alexander Friedmann in 1922 (Friedmann, 1922) and, independently, the Belgian priest and astronomer Georges Lemaître in 1927 (Lemaître, 1927), showed that Einstein’s own unmodified equations naturally describe an expanding, evolving universe instead, a result Einstein initially, and famously, resisted. It took Edwin Hubble’s 1929 observation that distant galaxies are indeed systematically receding from us, and at a rate proportional to their distance, exactly as Friedmann and Lemaître had predicted, to settle the matter (Hubble, 1929), and Einstein is widely (if perhaps not entirely reliably) reported to have called his own cosmological constant the biggest blunder of his career.

General relativity’s most extreme prediction took even longer to be taken seriously. In 1939 J. Robert Oppenheimer and his student Hartland Snyder showed mathematically that a sufficiently massive star, having exhausted its nuclear fuel, must collapse without limit under its own gravity, its surface eventually crossing a point of no return beyond which not even light can climb back out (Oppenheimer and Snyder, 1939), but the paper was largely ignored for nearly three decades, overshadowed by the Second World War and by a lingering, widely shared conviction among physicists, Einstein among them, that nature would surely find some way to forbid so pathological an outcome. It was the physicist John Archibald Wheeler who, in a 1967 lecture, popularised a short, vivid name for these collapsed objects, *black holes*, a term that stuck instantly where more cumbersome earlier phrases such as “gravitationally completely collapsed object” never had (Wheeler and Ford, 1998), and it was Wheeler, too, who gave us the aphorism already quoted on this chapter’s own title page: spacetime tells matter how to move, and matter tells spacetime how to curve.

Einstein’s 1916 prediction of gravitational waves, tiny ripples of curvature radiating outward from accelerating masses, waited even longer for its confirmation, precisely one century, until on 14 September 2015 the two detectors of the Laser Interferometer Gravitational Wave Observatory (LIGO) simultaneously registered the unmistakable signature of two black holes, thirty six and

twenty nine times the mass of the Sun, spiralling into one another and merging over a billion years ago, a discovery announced to the world in February 2016 and one we shall return to properly in chapter 4 (Abbott, B. P. et al., 2016).

And there the story remains genuinely, actively unfinished. General relativity describes gravity magnificently at the scale of planets, stars and galaxies, yet it still refuses to speak the same language as quantum mechanics, the theory that governs the very small, and no one yet possesses a fully working theory of *quantum gravity* capable of describing, for instance, what truly happens at the very centre of a black hole or in the first unimaginably brief instant of the universe's own existence. String theory, loop quantum gravity and a handful of other, still more speculative approaches are today's competing attempts to write the next chapter, each borrowing, in one way or another, from the very same geometrical inheritance that runs through this one: Gauss's intrinsic curvature, Riemann's manifolds, and Einstein's insight that geometry itself can be physics. It is worth carrying this long procession of names in mind as we turn, in chapter 2, to build the mathematics properly from first principles, because every symbol we are about to write down, the metric, the connection, the curvature tensor, was earned by someone, often across a lifetime and occasionally at real personal cost, and general relativity is best understood not as a single flash of individual genius but as the latest, and very probably not the last, chapter in humanity's long and stubborn argument about why things fall.

Chapter 2

Differential Geometry

*Before space-time could bend, mathematics first
had to learn how a surface curves upon itself.*

“Geometry is not true, it is advantageous.”

– Henri Poincaré

2.1 A brief history of geometry

Differential geometry is the language in which general relativity is written, and like every language it was not designed in advance for the use we are about to make of it, it grew slowly, over more than four thousand years, out of problems that had nothing to do with gravity. Before we start defining manifolds and tangent spaces it is worth spending a few pages on where these ideas came from, because **almost every object we are going to construct in this chapter was invented by someone who had no idea that physics would one day need it**, and knowing that history makes the definitions feel far less arbitrary than they otherwise might.

2.1.1 Geometry as the measurement of the earth

The word itself confesses the origin: *geometry* comes from the Greek *γεωμετρία*, built from *γῆ* (earth) and *μέτρον* (measure), so that the name of the discipline literally means *earth measurement*. Herodotus, writing in the fifth century B.C., tells us in the second book of his *Histories* that geometry was invented in Egypt for an entirely practical reason: the Nile flooded every year, washing away the boundary markers of the fields along its banks, and since the pharaoh taxed each landholder in proportion to the area he held, somebody had to go out after every flood and measure the land again (Herodotus, 2003). The men who did this were the *harpedonaptai*, the rope stretchers, and they worked with knotted cords that let them lay out right angles in the field by the simple trick of forming a triangle with sides in the ratio three, four and five.

The Babylonians were, if anything, further ahead. The clay tablet catalogued as Plimpton 322, dated to roughly 1800 B.C., lists what we would now call Pythagorean triples, several centuries before Pythagoras was born, and the Egyptian Rhind papyrus of about 1650 B.C. contains worked recipes for the areas of triangles and circles together with a remarkably good approximation to π . What none of these documents contain, however, is a single proof. **Geometry began as an empirical and practical science, a catalogue of recipes that worked**, with no axioms, no deductive structure and no claim whatsoever to necessary truth, and it would take the Greeks to change that.

2.1.2 Euclid and the tyranny of the fifth postulate

Around 300 B.C., in the Alexandria we already visited in chapter 1, Euclid gathered essentially everything the Greek world knew about geometry into the thirteen books of the *Elements*, and in doing so he invented something far more valuable than any individual theorem: the axiomatic method itself (Euclid, 1908). Euclid begins with definitions, five common notions and five postulates, and from that small seed he deduces four hundred and sixty five propositions, each one following from what came before with a logical necessity that had never been demanded of mathematics before. For the next two thousand years the *Elements* was not merely a textbook of geometry, it was the model of what secure knowledge was supposed to look like, and Newton's *Principia*, as we saw, is written deliberately in its style.

There was, however, a splinter in this perfect structure, and everybody could feel it. Euclid's first four postulates are short, obvious and almost embarrassingly modest: a straight line can be drawn between any two points, a finite line can be extended indefinitely, a circle can be drawn with any centre and radius, and all right angles are equal. The fifth is nothing like them. In Euclid's own formulation it states that if a straight line falling on two straight lines makes the interior angles on the same side less than two right angles, then those two lines, extended far enough, will meet on that side, a statement so long, so conditional and so manifestly *unobvious* that it reads like a theorem somebody failed to prove and quietly promoted. Euclid himself seems to have been uneasy about it, because he avoids using it for as long as he possibly can, delaying its first appearance until Proposition 29. By the fifth century A.D. Proclus was already arguing openly that the fifth postulate ought to be struck from the list of assumptions and derived from the other four, and **the attempt to do exactly that became the longest running unsolved problem in the history of mathematics.**

2.1.3 The long assault on the parallel postulate

The assault was genuinely international and it lasted the better part of two millennia. Working in the same Islamic mathematical tradition we met in chapter 1, Ibn al-Haytham attacked the problem in the eleventh century using a quadrilateral with three right angles, the Persian poet and mathematician Omar Khayyam (1048 to 1131) refined the approach considerably, and Nasir al-Din al-Tusi (1201 to 1274), whose Tusi couple we have already encountered, produced a treatment careful enough that it eventually reached Europe and was discussed by John Wallis at Oxford in the seventeenth century (Kline, 1972).

The decisive attempt, and the most poignant, came from the Italian Jesuit Girolamo Saccheri, who published in 1733, the year of his death, a book with the triumphant title *Euclides ab omni naevo vindicatus*, Euclid freed of every flaw (Saccheri, 1733). Saccheri's strategy was *reductio ad absurdum*: he assumed the fifth postulate to be false, and then set out to derive a contradiction. He worked with enormous patience and skill, deducing theorem after theorem from the negated postulate, and what he found was that the consequences were strange (triangles whose angles sum to less than two right angles, no similar figures of different sizes, an absolute unit of length built into space itself) but that they were also, maddeningly, perfectly consistent with one another. No contradiction ever came. At the end, unable to produce the absurdity his whole book was built to produce, Saccheri simply declared that the resulting propositions were *repugnant to the nature of the straight line* and announced the job done. **Saccheri had derived, theorem by theorem, a substantial part of hyperbolic geometry, and then refused to believe what he was looking at.** Johann Heinrich Lambert went further still a few decades later, and came even closer to accepting the conclusion, but he too stopped short of publishing it as a discovery rather than a failure.

2.1.4 The birth of non-Euclidean geometry

The break, when it finally came, came three times at once. Gauss had convinced himself privately, somewhere in the 1810s and 1820s, that a perfectly consistent geometry could be built in which the parallel postulate fails, and he never published a word of it. His reason, given in a letter to Bessel of January 1829, is one of the more human documents in the history of mathematics: he feared, he wrote, *das Geschrei der Bötier*, the clamour of the Boeotians, the Boeotians being the Greek byword for provincial stupidity, and he had no appetite for the controversy that publication would bring down on him (Kline, 1972).

Nikolai Ivanovich Lobachevsky, working at the University of Kazan far out on the Russian frontier, had no such caution and published his account of what he called imaginary geometry in 1829 (Lobachevsky, 1829). Independently, in Hungary, the young army officer János Bolyai reached the same conclusions and published them in 1832 as a twenty four page appendix to a mathematics textbook written by his father Farkas (Bolyai, 1832). Bolyai had written to his father about the discovery nine years earlier, in November 1823, with a line that every student of geometry should know: *out of nothing I have created a strange new universe*. Farkas, who had himself wasted years on the parallel postulate and who happened to be an old friend of Gauss, proudly forwarded the appendix to Göttingen for an opinion. Gauss's reply was, by any reasonable standard, a disaster: he explained that he could not praise the work, because to praise it would be to praise himself, since he had held the same views for thirty or thirty five years already. János Bolyai, twenty nine years old and convinced he had been robbed, never published mathematics again.

Set aside the human wreckage and the mathematical content is this: **the parallel postulate is independent of the other four, so Euclidean geometry is not the only possible geometry, it is merely one of several**, and therefore the question of which geometry describes the physical space we actually inhabit stops being a matter of pure logic and becomes an empirical question, to be settled by measurement. That single shift in status is what eventually made general relativity thinkable at all.

2.1.5 Gauss, Riemann and the turn inwards

The second decisive step was Gauss's, and we have already met it in chapter 1, though it is worth restating here from the mathematician's side rather than the physicist's. In the *Disquisitiones generales circa superficies curvas* of 1827 Gauss proved his *Theorema Egregium*, showing that the curvature of a surface can be computed entirely from measurements made within the surface itself (Gauss, 1828). The consequence is philosophical as much as technical: a two dimensional creature confined to a curved surface, with no access whatsoever to a third dimension, could still determine that its world is curved, simply by measuring the angles of triangles or the circumferences of circles and comparing them with what flat geometry predicts. **Curvature stopped being something a space is seen to have from outside, and became something a space possesses in itself.**

Bernhard Riemann's 1854 habilitation lecture, delivered before Gauss himself, then took this intrinsic point of view and released it from the restriction to two dimensional surfaces sitting in

ordinary space (Riemann, 1873). Riemann introduced what we would now call an n dimensional manifold, a space that need only look like $\mathbb{R}^n$ in the neighbourhood of each of its points, and he showed how to put a *metric* on such a space, a rule assigning a length to every infinitesimal displacement, from which curvature could then be computed at every point by pure calculation. Every single object in the remainder of this chapter, the manifold, the chart, the tangent space, the metric and ultimately the curvature tensor, descends directly from that one lecture, and Riemann's closing suggestion that the metric of physical space might be determined by the matter within it is the prophecy we discussed at length in chapter 1.

2.1.6 From absolute differential calculus to the modern theory

Riemann had the ideas but not yet a usable calculus, and supplying one occupied the next half century. Elwin Bruno Christoffel worked out in 1869 how the derivatives of the metric combine into the symbols that now bear his name and that we shall meet in chapter 3 (Christoffel, 1869), and Gregorio Ricci-Curbastro, together with his student Tullio Levi-Civita, spent the 1880s and 1890s systematising the whole subject into what they published in 1900 under the name *absolute differential calculus* (Ricci-Curbastro and Levi-Civita, 1900). Their central concern was exactly the one that matters to a physicist: how to write equations whose form does not depend on the coordinate system used to express them, which is to say, how to do calculus with tensors. This is the paper, and this the machinery, that Marcel Grossmann put into Einstein's hands in 1912. Levi-Civita then added the missing geometrical idea in 1917, the notion of *parallel transport*, which finally explained what it means to compare vectors at different points of a curved space (Levi-Civita, 1917).

Alongside this ran a second, more structural current. Felix Klein's Erlangen programme of 1872 proposed that a geometry is best understood not through its objects but through its symmetries, as the study of those properties left invariant by a group of transformations (Klein, 1872), a point of view that runs straight into modern physics and that we shall use implicitly every time we demand that a physical law be invariant under Lorentz transformations. Élie Cartan rebuilt the subject again in the 1920s with his moving frames and his exterior calculus of differential forms, Hermann Weyl wrote the first genuinely geometrical textbook treatment of relativity in *Raum, Zeit, Materie* in 1918 (Weyl, 1918), and it was only in 1936 that Hassler Whitney finally proved the theorems that let us treat an abstract manifold as an object in its own right rather than as a surface embedded in some larger Euclidean space (Whitney, 1936). That date is worth pausing on, because it is twenty one years *after* the field equations were published: **Einstein built general relativity out of mathematics that was still being invented around him**, and the clean, coordinate free formulation that we now teach to students was largely assembled afterwards, in response to the theory rather than in preparation for it.

2.1.7 Why differential geometry is the language of relativity

It remains to say plainly why a physicist should care about any of this, and the answer is that every structural feature of general relativity is already a demand for differential geometry. The equivalence

principle, which we shall state carefully in chapter 3, says that a freely falling observer detects no gravitational field in a sufficiently small neighbourhood of themselves, which is to say that *space-time looks flat locally even when it is curved globally*, and this is precisely and exactly the defining property of a manifold, a space that is locally $\mathbb{R}^n$ without being globally anything of the sort. The principle of general covariance, that the laws of physics cannot depend on the coordinates chosen to write them down, forces us to work with objects defined independently of any chart, which is to say with tensors, and it is the reason we shall spend so much of this chapter on how components transform. Gauss's theorem that curvature is intrinsic is what allows us to speak of the curvature of space-time at all without embarrassing ourselves by having to ask what higher dimensional space it is supposedly curving into, since there is none and none is needed. Tidal forces, the one part of Newtonian gravity that genuinely cannot be transformed away by falling freely, turn out to be nothing other than the curvature tensor acting on a family of neighbouring geodesics, as we shall prove when we reach the equation of geodesic deviation. And the metric tensor, Riemann's rule for measuring infinitesimal distances, does double duty in relativity as both the ruler that measures space-time intervals and the gravitational potential itself, so that **in general relativity geometry and gravitation are not analogous to one another, they are the same thing described in two vocabularies**. What follows in this chapter is the construction of that vocabulary, from the ground up.

2.2 Differentiable manifolds

This is one of the most attractive theories in physics and mathematics, because it allowed physicists to arrive at one of the most important theories of modern physics, general relativity, a geometrical theory of space and time bound together into a single entity called *space-time*, with all the implications for our reality that this carries, since the theory allowed us to see beyond our planet, to dream of travelling beyond this earth and to describe genuinely strange systems, galaxies or universes. Here we are going to study briefly the foundations of differential geometry and of differentiable manifolds.

If we wanted to make a completely rigorous study of differential geometry we should begin with set theory, then topology, then manifolds, and only then arrive at differentiable manifolds. We shall take a shorter road, but it is worth knowing which stations we are skipping.

2.2.1 A dictionary for the physicist

Before we start it is worth confronting a difficulty which has nothing to do with the mathematics itself and everything to do with the fact that mathematicians and physicists have spent a century describing the very same objects with different words. A student arriving here from a physics degree already knows most of these objects perfectly well and has been computing with them since the second year, so what makes the first encounter with differential geometry so uncomfortable is usually not that the content is new but that the names are. Because of that, and before writing down a single definition, we are going to lay out a small dictionary in table 2.1, which the reader should feel entirely free to come back to as often as necessary, since almost everything appearing in it will only be properly defined in the pages that follow.

Geometrical object	Components	What a physicist calls it, and where it appears
Smooth function, $\binom{0}{0}$	f	Scalar field: a temperature, the Newtonian potential φ
Tangent vector, $\binom{1}{0}$	X^μ	Vector, or contravariant vector: the four velocity u^μ
Covector, $\binom{0}{1}$	ω_μ	Covariant vector, or one-form: the gradient $\partial_\mu f$, the four momentum p_μ
$\binom{1}{1}$ tensor	A^μ_ν	A linear operator, in practice a matrix: the Kronecker delta δ^μ_ν
Symmetric $\binom{0}{2}$ tensor	$g_{\mu\nu}$	The metric: it measures intervals and doubles as the gravitational potential
Antisymmetric $\binom{0}{2}$ tensor	$F_{\mu\nu}$	The Faraday tensor: the electric and magnetic fields packed into one object
Symmetric $\binom{2}{0}$ tensor	$T^{\mu\nu}$	The energy momentum tensor: the source term in Einstein's equations
$\binom{1}{3}$ tensor	$R^\rho_{\sigma\mu\nu}$	The Riemann tensor: the curvature, which is to say the tidal field

Table 2.1: A dictionary between the coordinate free language of differential geometry, the index notation of the working relativist, and the objects a physicist has already met somewhere else.

The same translation problem happens with the vocabulary itself, so it is worth listing the most important pairs before we meet them one by one. When a mathematician says *manifold* a physicist should hear *the space, or the space-time, in which everything happens*; when the mathematician says *chart* the physicist should hear *coordinate system*, or more physically *reference frame*; an *atlas* is nothing more sinister than the complete collection of coordinate patches needed to cover everything without leaving holes; *smooth* means differentiable as many times as we happen to need; the *tangent space* $T_p(M)$ is the space of all the velocities a particle could possibly have as it goes through that event; and a *diffeomorphism* is, for almost all of our purposes, a change of coordinates. **None of the geometry in this chapter is harder than the physics the reader already knows, it is simply written in a language built to survive without coordinates**, and that last property is exactly why general relativity cannot do without it. Readers who want the same material developed at greater length and with a physicist's priorities throughout will find it in Schutz (1980) and in Nakahara (2003), while Wald (1984) is the standard place to look when we want the mathematician's version of a statement we have treated lightly here.

2.2.2 Manifolds, charts and atlases

Definition 1 *An n -dimensional differentiable manifold is a set M together with a collection of subsets $\mathcal{O}_\alpha$ such that:*

1. $\bigcup_\alpha \mathcal{O}_\alpha = M$. This means that the union of all the subsets covers the manifold M , so that every point of M lies in at least one of them.

2. For every α there exists a bijective map ϕ_α onto an open subset $U_\alpha \subset \mathbb{R}^n$,

$$\begin{aligned} \phi_\alpha : \mathcal{O}_\alpha &\longrightarrow U_\alpha \subset \mathbb{R}^n \\ p &\longmapsto \phi_\alpha(p) = (x_\alpha^1(p), \dots, x_\alpha^n(p)). \end{aligned} \quad (2.1)$$

3. If $\mathcal{O}_\alpha$ and $\mathcal{O}_\beta$ intersect, so that $\mathcal{O}_\alpha \cap \mathcal{O}_\beta \neq \emptyset$, then the composition $\phi_\beta \circ \phi_\alpha^{-1}$ maps

$$\begin{aligned} \phi_\beta \circ \phi_\alpha^{-1} : \phi_\alpha(\mathcal{O}_\alpha \cap \mathcal{O}_\beta) &\subset \mathbb{R}^n \longrightarrow \phi_\beta(\mathcal{O}_\alpha \cap \mathcal{O}_\beta) \subset \mathbb{R}^n \\ x &\longmapsto (\phi_\beta \circ \phi_\alpha^{-1})(x), \end{aligned} \quad (2.2)$$

and this map, which is a map between open subsets of $\mathbb{R}^n$ and therefore an ordinary object of multivariable calculus, must be smooth, that is, infinitely differentiable.

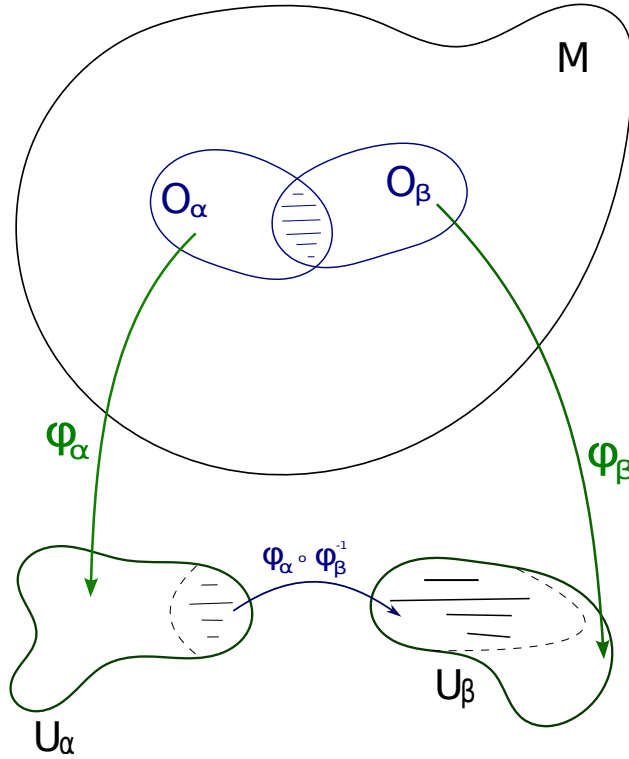


Figure 2.1: Schematic representation of the third postulate: in a differentiable manifold we can always pass from one coordinate chart to another.

Here we must make some comments and observations:

- The maps ϕ_α are usually called coordinate charts or coordinate systems, and we will later see that this is directly related to the strong equivalence principle.

- The collection $\{\phi_\alpha\}$ is called an *atlas*.
- A point p represented in a coordinate chart ϕ_α is written as $\phi_\alpha(p) = (x_\alpha^1(p), \dots, x_\alpha^n(p))$, and the components x_α^i are called the coordinates of p in that chart.

We will often use the word *smooth*, which refers to the differentiability of the geometrical object: we say something is smooth if it is of class C^∞ , meaning that it is infinitely differentiable. Such objects are sometimes hard to come by in practice, especially in physics, so one often works instead with objects of class C^k , that is, k times differentiable. Let us see some examples:

1. $\mathbb{R}^n$ is itself a manifold, whose atlas consists of the single identity chart

$$\begin{aligned} \phi : \mathbb{R}^n &\longrightarrow \mathbb{R}^n \\ (x^1, \dots, x^n) &\longmapsto (x^1, \dots, x^n). \end{aligned} \tag{2.3}$$

This is a manifold of dimension n .

2. S^1 , also called the unit circle, $S^1 = \{(x, y) \in \mathbb{R}^2 : x^2 + y^2 = 1\}$. It is a one dimensional manifold, because we only need one parameter to describe it, and at the same time it is a subset of $\mathbb{R}^2$ given by $(\cos \theta, \sin \theta)$ with $\theta \in \mathbb{R}$. Let us see how to cover this manifold.

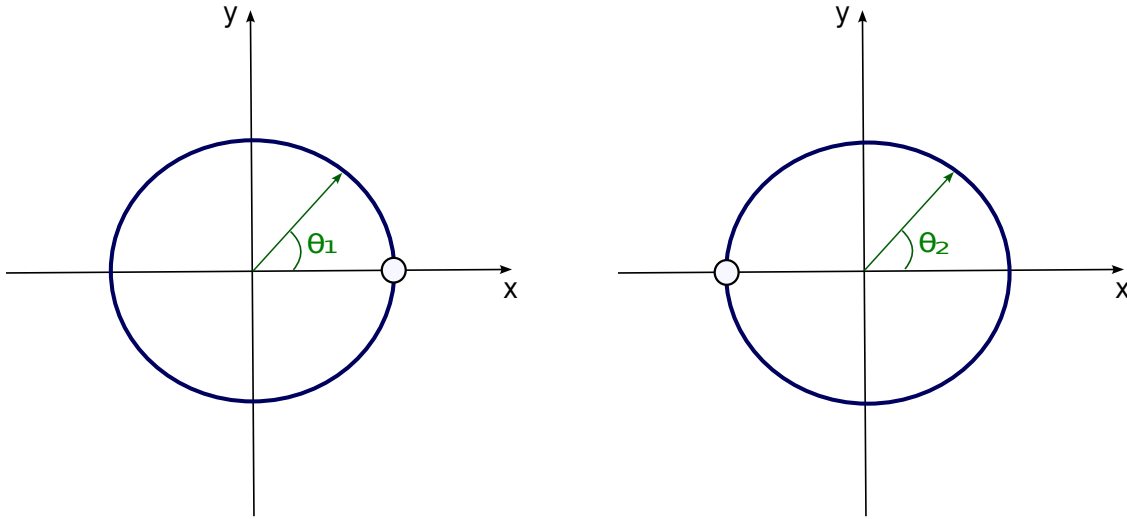


Figure 2.2: On the left there is the first chart ϕ_1 , which covers almost all of the circumference except a point p , and on the right there is the other chart, which covers almost all of the circumference except a point q diametrically opposite to p .

We cannot use a single closed interval, say $0 \leq \theta \leq 2\pi$, because then the map $\phi = \theta$ would fail to be bijective, since $\theta = 0$ and $\theta = 2\pi$ label the very same point of the circle. Because of

this we choose two coordinate charts. Removing the point $p = (1, 0)$ we define the domain $\mathcal{O}_1 = S^1 \setminus \{p\}$ and the chart

$$\begin{aligned} \phi_1 : \mathcal{O}_1 &\longrightarrow (0, 2\pi) \\ (\cos \theta_1, \sin \theta_1) &\longmapsto \theta_1, \end{aligned} \tag{2.4}$$

and removing instead the diametrically opposite point $q = (-1, 0)$ we define $\mathcal{O}_2 = S^1 \setminus \{q\}$ together with

$$\begin{aligned} \phi_2 : \mathcal{O}_2 &\longrightarrow (-\pi, \pi) \\ (\cos \theta_2, \sin \theta_2) &\longmapsto \theta_2. \end{aligned} \tag{2.5}$$

Neither chart alone covers the circle, but between them they leave nothing out, so the atlas for this manifold is

$$A = \{\phi_1, \phi_2\}. \tag{2.6}$$

Now, how are θ_1 and θ_2 related on the region where both charts are defined? Notice first that the overlap $\mathcal{O}_1 \cap \mathcal{O}_2$ is the circle with *two* points removed, so it consists of two disjoint arcs, the upper one and the lower one, and the transition function has to be given separately on each of them. From the third postulate we obtain

$$\theta_2 = (\phi_2 \circ \phi_1^{-1})(\theta_1) = \begin{cases} \theta_1, & 0 < \theta_1 < \pi \quad (\text{upper arc}), \\ \theta_1 - 2\pi, & \pi < \theta_1 < 2\pi \quad (\text{lower arc}). \end{cases} \tag{2.7}$$

On each arc separately this is a smooth (indeed linear) function of θ_1 , which is exactly what the third postulate demands, and the geometrical reading of the second branch is simply that *the two charts disagree by one complete turn on the lower arc*, which is the price of having cut the circle open at two different places.

3. S^2 , the sphere of unit radius, $S^2 = \{(x, y, z) \in \mathbb{R}^3 : x^2 + y^2 + z^2 = 1\}$. Here the situation is analogous to S^1 , because any point on the sphere has a small enough neighbourhood that maps one to one onto a disc of $\mathbb{R}^2$, see figure 2.3.

This also illustrates that such a map certainly preserves neither lengths nor angles. Consider the spherical coordinates we always use in our calculus courses, taking the polar angle $\vartheta = x$ and the azimuthal angle $\varphi = y$, so that the sphere appears to be mapped onto the rectangle

$$0 \leq x \leq \pi, \quad 0 \leq y \leq 2\pi.$$

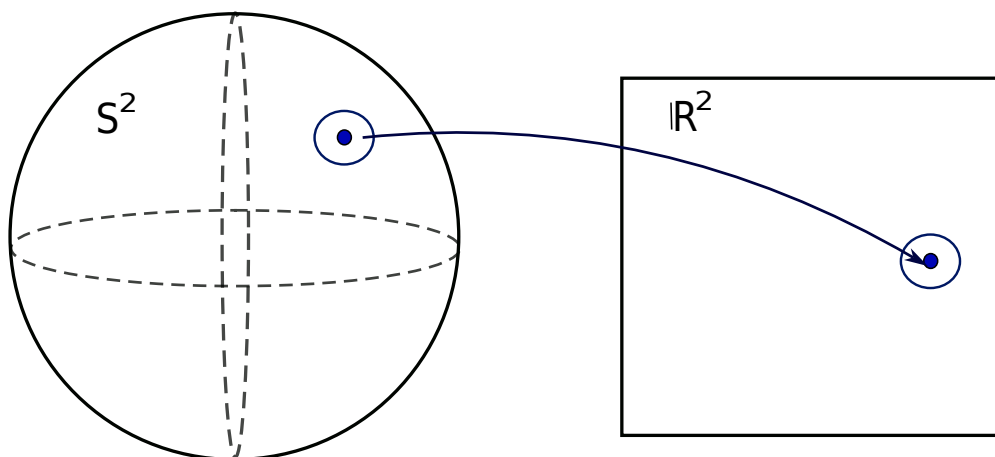


Figure 2.3: Each point on the sphere has a small neighbourhood which maps onto a disc in $\mathbb{R}^2$.

The map breaks down at the pole, $\vartheta = 0$. The whole pole, which is a single point of the manifold, is smeared out along the entire line $x = 0$, $0 \leq y \leq 2\pi$, see figure 2.4, so at the pole there is no bijection and therefore no chart at all.

A second problem arises at the points whose azimuthal coordinate is $\varphi = 0$, since they are sent to both $y = 0$ and $y = 2\pi$ at once, so again the correspondence fails to be one to one.

Both problems disappear if instead of a closed rectangle we take the open one, $0 < x < \pi$ and $0 < y < 2\pi$, and then use a second chart to cover what the first one lost, choosing for instance a chart whose own excluded line is the meridian $\varphi = \pi$, so that its azimuthal coordinate runs from $\varphi = \pi/2$ to $\varphi = 3\pi/2$.

There is another, more elegant way to choose the charts for S^2 , called the stereographic projection of the manifold onto $\mathbb{R}^2$.

The sphere is tangent to the plane, and from the point N diametrically opposite to the point of tangency we draw a straight line which cuts the sphere at P and the plane $\mathbb{R}^2$ at Q . This defines the map: P is sent to Q , so that the coordinates of Q in $\mathbb{R}^2$ serve as the coordinates of P in S^2 . It is one to one everywhere except at N itself, since as P approaches N the image point Q runs off to infinity, and to cover N we simply choose a second stereographic chart projecting from the opposite pole.

Definition 2 *Two atlases are compatible if their union is again an atlas. The union of all mutually compatible atlases is called the **complete atlas**, and it is characterised by the property that it is not contained in any larger atlas.*

2.2.3 Smooth functions

If $\phi : \mathcal{O} \rightarrow U$ is a coordinate chart and $f : M \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ is a function on the manifold, then the composition $f \circ \phi^{-1}$ is a map from $U \subset \mathbb{R}^n$ to $\mathbb{R}$, and this is the object we can actually differentiate,

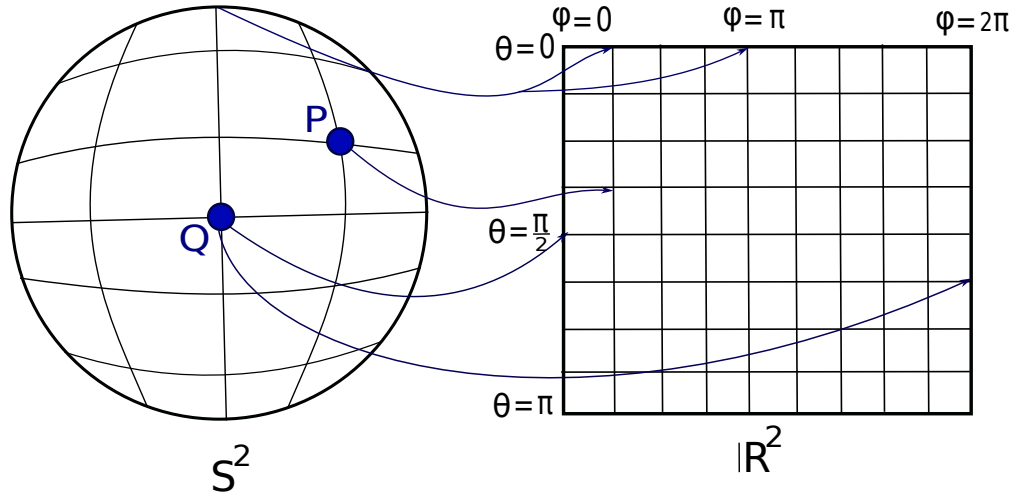


Figure 2.4: Representation of the traditional map from S^2 to $\mathbb{R}^2$. We can see that there are multivalued points which will not allow us to cover the manifold S^2 with a single chart.

because it is an ordinary function of n real variables. This is the standard manoeuvre of the whole subject: **we never differentiate on the manifold itself, we always push the problem down into $\mathbb{R}^n$ with a chart, do the calculus there, and then check that the answer did not depend on which chart we chose.**

Definition 3 *A function*

$$\begin{aligned} f : M &\longrightarrow \mathbb{R} \\ p &\longmapsto f(p) \end{aligned} \tag{2.8}$$

is smooth if and only if, for every coordinate chart ϕ , the map $F \equiv f \circ \phi^{-1}$ defined by

$$\begin{aligned} F : U \subset \mathbb{R}^n &\longrightarrow \mathbb{R} \\ x &\longmapsto F(x) = f(\phi^{-1}(x)) \end{aligned} \tag{2.9}$$

is a smooth function in the ordinary sense of multivariable calculus.

In general relativity a function $f : M \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ is often called a *scalar field*. The set of all such smooth functions on M is denoted $C^\infty(M)$, and we shall need it in a moment, because tangent vectors are going to be defined as operators acting on it.

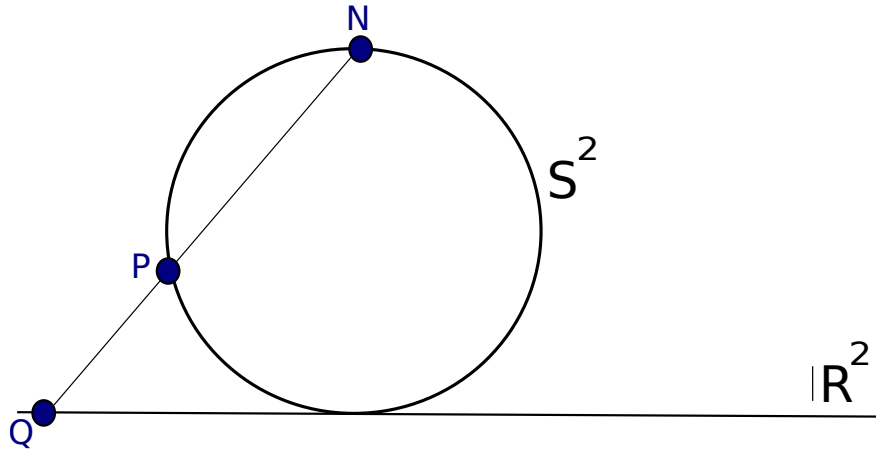


Figure 2.5: Graphical representation used to find the stereographic projection of S^2 onto $\mathbb{R}^2$.

2.2.4 Curves and vectors

Definition 4 A smooth curve on a differentiable manifold M is a smooth map

$$\begin{aligned}\lambda : I &\longrightarrow M \\ t &\longmapsto \lambda(t),\end{aligned}\tag{2.10}$$

where I is an open interval of $\mathbb{R}$.

This means that $\phi_\alpha \circ \lambda$ is a map from I into $\mathbb{R}^n$ for every coordinate chart ϕ_α , and this is what is represented in figure 2.7.

The elements of I can be thought of as the parameters that parameterise the curve. Given

$$f : M \longrightarrow \mathbb{R} \text{ and } \lambda : I \longrightarrow M,\tag{2.11}$$

we can define the composition

$$\begin{aligned}f \circ \lambda : I &\longrightarrow \mathbb{R} \\ t &\longmapsto f(\lambda(t)),\end{aligned}\tag{2.12}$$

which is in fact a parameterised function $f(\lambda(t))$ of a single real variable, so we may perfectly well speak about its derivative with respect to the parameter t . To compute that derivative we must, as always, go down into a chart: writing $F = f \circ \phi^{-1}$ and $x^\mu(t) = x^\mu(\lambda(t))$ for the coordinates of the curve, the chain rule gives

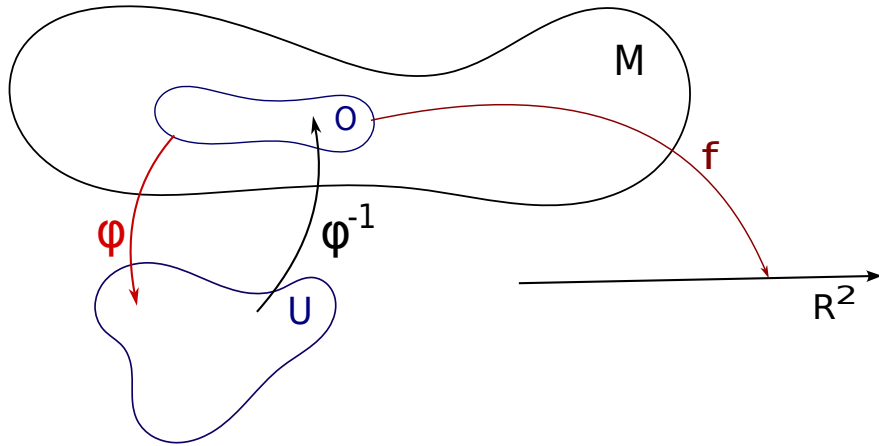


Figure 2.6: Schematic representation of the map f , which takes elements of the manifold and maps them onto the real line $\mathbb{R}$.

$$\frac{d}{dt} [(f \circ \lambda)(t)] = \frac{d}{dt} F(x(t)) = \frac{\partial F}{\partial x^\mu} \frac{dx^\mu}{dt}, \quad (2.13)$$

where a sum over the repeated index μ is understood. Notice that it would make no sense to write $\partial f / \partial \lambda$, since λ takes values on the manifold and there is no notion of dividing by a point.

Definition 5 Let $\lambda : I \rightarrow M$ be a smooth curve with $\lambda(0) = p$, so that the parameter value $t = 0$ picks out the point p on the manifold, see figure 2.7. The vector tangent to λ at p is the linear map

$$X_p : C^\infty(M) \longrightarrow \mathbb{R} \\ f \longmapsto X_p(f) = \left\{ \frac{d}{dt} [f(\lambda(t))] \right\}_{t=0}. \quad (2.14)$$

It is worth pausing on how strange this definition looks the first time one meets it. **A tangent vector is not an arrow, it is a directional derivative**, an operator that eats a function and returns the rate at which that function changes as we move along the curve. The reason for this apparently perverse choice is that arrows need an ambient space to live in, whereas directional derivatives need nothing but the manifold and its smooth functions, so this is the definition that survives when we throw the embedding space away.

This tangent vector satisfies two really important algebraic properties.

1. The tangent vector is a linear map, so that for all $f, g \in C^\infty(M)$ and all $\alpha \in \mathbb{R}$,

$$X_p(f + g) = X_p(f) + X_p(g), \quad (2.15)$$

$$X_p(\alpha f) = \alpha X_p(f). \quad (2.16)$$

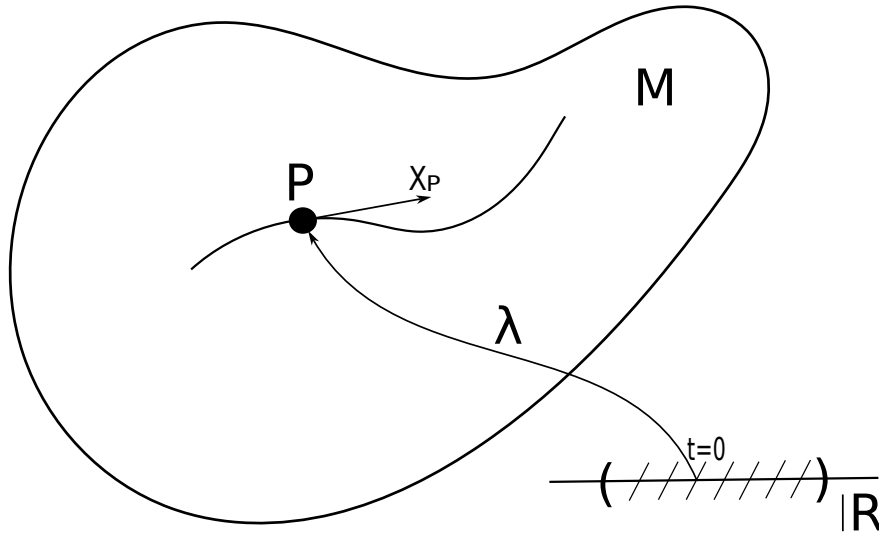


Figure 2.7: The curve λ maps an open interval of the reals into the manifold. On the manifold this map looks like (remember this is only a scheme) the kind of curve we are used to seeing, and at a point of that curve we can define a tangent vector X_p .

2. The tangent vector satisfies Leibniz's rule,

$$X_p(fg) = f(p)X_p(g) + g(p)X_p(f), \quad (2.17)$$

where the functions multiplying the derivatives have to be evaluated at the point p , since $X_p(fg)$ is a number and not a function.

Let us now consider a coordinate chart $\phi = (x^1, \dots, x^n)$ defined in a neighbourhood of p , and the function $F = f \circ \phi^{-1}$. Because ϕ is a bijection we may write

$$f \circ \lambda = f \circ \phi^{-1} \circ \phi \circ \lambda, \quad (2.18)$$

or equivalently

$$f \circ \lambda = F \circ \phi \circ \lambda. \quad (2.19)$$

The tangent vector, using the chain rule exactly as in equation 2.13, is then given by

$$X_p(f) = \left\{ \frac{d}{dt} [f(\lambda(t))] \right\}_{t=0} = \left(\frac{\partial F(x)}{\partial x^\mu} \right)_{\phi(p)} \left(\frac{dx^\mu(\lambda(t))}{dt} \right)_{t=0}, \quad (2.20)$$

which means that in general we can write every tangent vector as a linear combination of some components multiplying some basis elements, and the whole of the next page is devoted to making that statement precise.

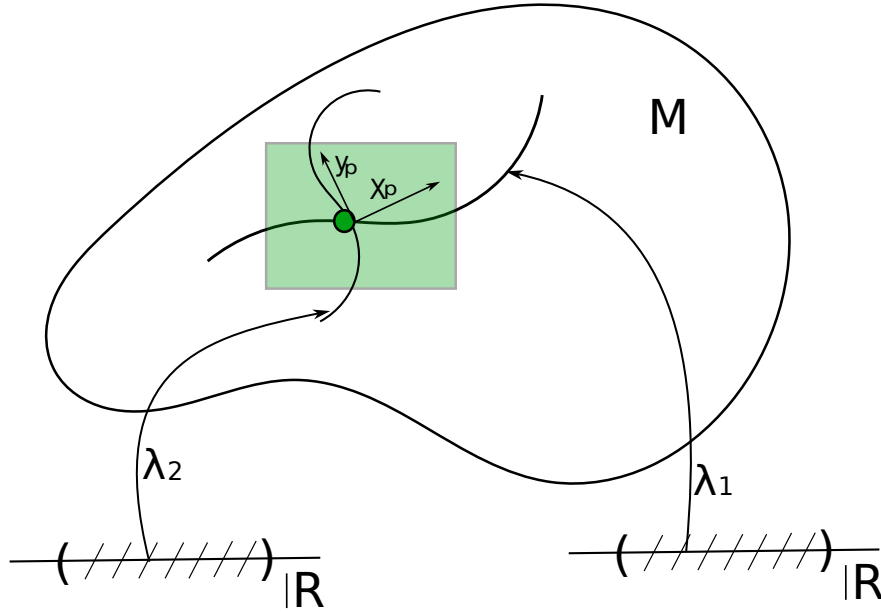


Figure 2.8: Two tangent vectors X_p and Y_p , both tangent at p , living on two different curves (λ_1, λ_2) but belonging to the same vector space $T_p(M)$.

Theorem 1 *The set of all tangent vectors at p forms an n -dimensional vector space, called the tangent space $T_p(M)$.*

Demonstration:

Let λ_1 and λ_2 be two curves such that $\lambda_1(0) = \lambda_2(0) = p$, and let X_p and Y_p be their tangent vectors respectively. We must define multiplication by a constant and addition of two vectors, and to do so we exhibit a curve whose tangent is the required combination. Let $\phi = (x^1, \dots, x^n)$ be a coordinate chart defined in a neighbourhood of p and consider the curve

$$\nu(t) = \phi^{-1} \{ \alpha [\phi(\lambda_1(t)) - \phi(p)] + \beta [\phi(\lambda_2(t)) - \phi(p)] + \phi(p) \}, \quad (2.21)$$

which is well defined for t small enough that the argument stays inside U , and which satisfies $\nu(0) = p$. Let Z_p be the tangent vector to this curve at p , then

$$Z_p(f) = \left(\frac{\partial F(x)}{\partial x^\mu} \right)_{\phi(p)} \left\{ \frac{d}{dt} [\alpha(x^\mu(\lambda_1(t)) - x^\mu(p)) + \beta(x^\mu(\lambda_2(t)) - x^\mu(p)) + x^\mu(p)] \right\}_{t=0}, \quad (2.22)$$

$$Z_p(f) = \left(\frac{\partial F(x)}{\partial x^\mu} \right)_{\phi(p)} \left[\alpha \left(\frac{d}{dt} x^\mu(\lambda_1(t)) \right)_{t=0} + \beta \left(\frac{d}{dt} x^\mu(\lambda_2(t)) \right)_{t=0} \right], \quad (2.23)$$

$$Z_p(f) = \alpha X_p(f) + \beta Y_p(f), \quad (2.24)$$

$$Z_p(f) = (\alpha X_p + \beta Y_p)(f). \quad (2.25)$$

Since this holds for any smooth function f , we conclude that $Z_p = \alpha X_p + \beta Y_p$, and Z_p is by construction tangent to the curve ν at p . Therefore any linear combination of tangent vectors at p is again a tangent vector at p , and the set of tangent vectors at p forms a vector space.

Now we must prove that it is n -dimensional, and to do this we exhibit a basis. Let $1 \leq \mu \leq n$ and consider the curve λ_μ through p defined by

$$\lambda_\mu(t) = \phi^{-1}(x^1(p), \dots, x^{\mu-1}(p), x^\mu(p) + t, x^{\mu+1}(p), \dots, x^n(p)), \quad (2.26)$$

that is, the curve obtained by letting the μ -th coordinate run and holding all the others fixed. The tangent vector to this curve at p is denoted by $\left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x^\mu} \right)_p$, and it acts on functions exactly as the notation suggests,

$$\left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x^\mu} \right)_p (f) = \left(\frac{\partial F}{\partial x^\mu} \right)_{\phi(p)}, \quad (2.27)$$

which is easy to see because we have defined $F = f \circ \phi^{-1}$ and the chart and its inverse cancel, leaving an object evaluated at p rather than at $\phi(p)$.

Let us now check that these n tangent vectors are linearly independent, that is, that

$$\sum_{\mu=1}^n a_\mu \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x^\mu} \right)_p = 0 \implies a_1 = a_2 = \dots = a_n = 0. \quad (2.28)$$

The equation on the left is an equation between operators, so it means that the left hand side gives zero when applied to *any* smooth function, and the cleanest way to extract the coefficients is therefore to feed it the most convenient functions we have available, namely the n coordinate functions x^ν themselves. Applying the operator to x^ν and using equation 2.27 we obtain

$$0 = \sum_{\mu=1}^n a_\mu \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x^\mu} \right)_p (x^\nu) = \sum_{\mu=1}^n a_\mu \left(\frac{\partial x^\nu}{\partial x^\mu} \right)_{\phi(p)} = \sum_{\mu=1}^n a_\mu \delta_\mu^\nu = a_\nu,$$

and since ν was arbitrary this gives

$$a_\nu = 0 \quad \forall \nu \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (2.29)$$

which is precisely the linear independence we wanted.

Finally, having proved that they are linearly independent, equation 2.20 together with equation 2.27 lets us write

$$X_p(f) = \left(\frac{dx^\mu(\lambda(t))}{dt} \right)_{t=0} \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x^\mu} \right)_p (f), \quad (2.30)$$

and since this is true for every f we may drop it and write the operator identity

$$X_p = X^\mu \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x^\mu} \right)_p, \quad X^\mu \equiv \left(\frac{dx^\mu(\lambda(t))}{dt} \right)_{t=0}. \quad (2.31)$$

So X_p can be written as a linear combination of the n tangent vectors $\left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x^\mu} \right)_p$, which therefore span $T_p(M)$, and being also linearly independent they form a basis. This establishes that the tangent space is n -dimensional, the same dimension as the manifold itself.

The basis $\left\{ \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x^\mu} \right)_p : \mu = 1, \dots, n \right\}$ depends on the coordinate chart, since we had to choose a chart ϕ defined in a neighbourhood of p in order to build it, and choosing a different chart would give a different basis of the same space $T_p(M)$. A basis constructed in this way is called a *coordinate basis*, and we will see in due course that not every basis one might want to use is of this type.

We often want to represent the same object in one coordinate system or in another, so we must know how to transform both the basis vectors and the components from one representation to the other. Let $\phi = (x^1, \dots, x^n)$ and $\bar{\phi} = (x^{\bar{1}}, \dots, x^{\bar{n}})$ be two coordinate charts, then

$$\left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x^\mu} \right)_p (f) = \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x^\mu} (f \circ \phi^{-1}) \right)_{\phi(p)} = \left\{ \frac{\partial}{\partial x^\mu} [(f \circ \bar{\phi}^{-1}) \circ (\bar{\phi} \circ \phi^{-1})] \right\}_{\phi(p)}, \quad (2.32)$$

where we have simply inserted the identity $\bar{\phi}^{-1} \circ \bar{\phi}$, and writing

$$\bar{F} = f \circ \bar{\phi}^{-1} \quad : \quad \bar{F} = \bar{F}(\bar{x}), \quad (2.33)$$

the chain rule gives

$$\begin{aligned}
\left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x^\mu}\right)_p (f) &= \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x^\mu} [\bar{F}(\bar{x}(x))]\right)_{\phi(p)} \\
&= \left(\frac{\partial x^{\bar{\nu}}}{\partial x^\mu}\right)_{\phi(p)} \left(\frac{\partial \bar{F}(\bar{x})}{\partial x^{\bar{\nu}}}\right)_{\bar{\phi}(p)} \\
&= \left(\frac{\partial x^{\bar{\nu}}}{\partial x^\mu}\right)_{\phi(p)} \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x^{\bar{\nu}}}\right)_p (f).
\end{aligned}$$

In this way we have found the transformation rule for the *basis vectors* when we pass from one coordinate system to another, which is

$$\left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x^\mu}\right)_p = \left(\frac{\partial x^{\bar{\nu}}}{\partial x^\mu}\right)_{\phi(p)} \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x^{\bar{\nu}}}\right)_p. \quad (2.34)$$

The components must then transform in the opposite way, so that the vector itself, which is a geometrical object and knows nothing about our choice of chart, remains the same,

$$X_p = X^\nu \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x^\nu}\right)_p = X^\nu \left(\frac{\partial x^{\bar{\mu}}}{\partial x^\nu}\right)_p \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x^{\bar{\mu}}}\right)_p = X^{\bar{\mu}} \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x^{\bar{\mu}}}\right)_p, \quad (2.35)$$

from which we can read off the transformation law for the components,

$$X^{\bar{\mu}} = \left(\frac{\partial x^{\bar{\mu}}}{\partial x^\nu}\right) X^\nu. \quad (2.36)$$

Comparing equations 2.34 and 2.36 we see that components and basis vectors transform with mutually inverse Jacobian matrices, and this is not a coincidence, it is exactly what has to happen for the contraction $X^\mu(\partial/\partial x^\mu)_p$ to come out chart independent. Objects that transform like the components in equation 2.36 are called *contravariant*, and we shall meet their *covariant* counterparts in the next subsection.

2.2.5 Covectors and one-forms

Definition 6 Let V be a real vector space. The dual space V^* of V is the vector space of all linear maps from V to the reals, that is, the space whose elements are the maps

$$\begin{aligned}
\tilde{P} : V &\longrightarrow \mathbb{R} \\
X &\longmapsto \tilde{P}(X).
\end{aligned} \quad (2.37)$$

Lemma: if V is n -dimensional then so is V^* . If $\{\mathbf{e}_\mu : \mu = 1, \dots, n\}$ is a basis of V , then V^* has a basis $\{f^\mu : \mu = 1, \dots, n\}$, called the *dual basis*, defined by the condition $f^\mu(\mathbf{e}_\nu) = \delta^\mu_\nu$. If $X = X^\alpha \mathbf{e}_\alpha$ then the dual basis simply reads off the components,

$$f^\alpha(X) = f^\alpha(X^\beta \mathbf{e}_\beta) = X^\beta f^\alpha(\mathbf{e}_\beta) = X^\beta \delta^\alpha_\beta = X^\alpha. \quad (2.38)$$

Since V and V^* have the same dimension they are isomorphic, so an isomorphism between them certainly exists. It is worth being careful here, though, because **that isomorphism is not canonical**: to build it we have to pick a basis of V first, and a different choice of basis gives a different identification, so there is no natural way to say which covector corresponds to a given vector. In general relativity it is precisely the metric tensor that will supply the missing extra structure and let us raise and lower indices, and the fact that this requires a metric, rather than coming for free, is one of the reasons the metric occupies such a central place in the theory. The situation for the double dual is quite different.

Theorem 2 *If V is finite dimensional, then $(V^*)^*$ is naturally isomorphic to V through the map*

$$\begin{aligned} \Psi : V &\longrightarrow (V^*)^* \\ X &\longmapsto \Psi(X), \quad \text{defined by } \Psi(X)(\omega) = \omega(X) \quad \forall \omega \in V^*. \end{aligned} \quad (2.39)$$

Notice that no choice of basis was needed to write that map down, which is exactly what the word *naturally* is doing in the statement of the theorem.

Definition 7 *The dual space of $T_p(M)$ is called the cotangent space at p and is denoted by $T_p^*(M)$.*

Definition 8 *Let $f : M \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be a smooth function. The covector $(df)_p$ is defined by*

$$\begin{aligned} (df)_p : T_p(M) &\longrightarrow \mathbb{R} \\ X &\longmapsto (df)_p(X) = X(f), \end{aligned} \quad (2.40)$$

for any $X \in T_p(M)$. It is called the differential of f at p , or in the older physics literature the gradient of f at p . Covectors, also called one-forms, satisfy the following properties.

1. *If $\eta \in V^*$, then its components in the dual basis are recovered by acting on the basis vectors,*

$$\eta(\mathbf{e}_\mu) = \eta_\nu f^\nu(\mathbf{e}_\mu) = \eta_\nu \delta^\nu_\mu = \eta_\mu. \quad (2.41)$$

2. *If $X \in T_p(M)$, then the action of a one-form on a vector is the contraction of their components,*

$$\eta(X) = X^\alpha \eta_\alpha \in \mathbb{R}. \quad (2.42)$$

A one-form is a really special geometrical object, because we use it constantly in physics and yet it is usually late in our studies that we start to think about what it actually is. If vectors are pictured as directed arrows, what does a covector look like? To see this let us consider the interaction between the vector $\vec{A} = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix}$ and the one-form $\tilde{q} = [q_1 \quad q_2]$, so that

$$\tilde{q}(\vec{A}) = q_1 + 2q_2. \quad (2.43)$$

If we ask which one-forms return a fixed value c when fed our vector $\vec{A}$, equation 2.43 tells us that the answer is the straight line $q_1 + 2q_2 = c$ in the space of components, and the family of such lines obtained by varying c is a set of parallel lines whose normal has components $[1, 2]^T$. Turning the picture around, this is the standard way of drawing a one-form: **while a vector is a directed arrow, a one-form is a family of parallel hyperplanes, its level surfaces, and the value $\tilde{q}(\vec{A})$ is the number of those surfaces that the arrow $\vec{A}$ pierces.** A one-form with a large norm is a tightly packed stack of surfaces, and a one-form with a small norm is a loosely spaced one, which is why the picture gets the scaling right without any extra work.

What is the most common operation that takes a scalar field and returns something orthogonal to its level surfaces? The gradient, and indeed the gradient is the archetypal example of a one-form, since it represents precisely the stack of equipotential surfaces of the field, which is the reason we denote the one-form at a point p by $(df)_p$. This picture also lets us realise that in electromagnetism the electric field, written in a Coulomb gauge as $E_i = -\partial_i\varphi$, appears most naturally with its index downstairs, that is, as a one-form built as the differential of the potential, while the object we habitually draw as a field of arrows is really doing something slightly different, a point we shall be able to make completely precise once we have the metric at our disposal.

2.2.6 Tensors

A tensor of type $\binom{r}{s}$ at p is a multilinear map

$$T : \underbrace{T_p^*(M) \times \dots \times T_p^*(M)}_{r \text{ copies}} \times \underbrace{T_p(M) \times \dots \times T_p(M)}_{s \text{ copies}} \longrightarrow \mathbb{R} \quad (2.44)$$

$$(\tilde{q}_1, \dots, \tilde{q}_r, \vec{A}_1, \dots, \vec{A}_s) \longmapsto T(\tilde{q}_1, \dots, \tilde{q}_r, \vec{A}_1, \dots, \vec{A}_s),$$

which maps r one-forms and s vectors into the reals, the word *multilinear* meaning that it is linear in each of its arguments separately when all the others are held fixed. The components of the tensor in a given basis are obtained by feeding it the basis elements themselves,

$$T^{\mu_1 \dots \mu_r}_{\nu_1 \dots \nu_s} = T(f^{\mu_1}, \dots, f^{\mu_r}, \mathbf{e}_{\nu_1}, \dots, \mathbf{e}_{\nu_s}), \quad (2.45)$$

and it is a useful sanity check to note that a $\binom{1}{0}$ tensor is just a vector, a $\binom{0}{1}$ tensor is just a one-form, and a $\binom{0}{0}$ tensor is a scalar.

Definition 9 If S is a tensor of type $\binom{p}{q}$ and T is a tensor of type $\binom{r}{s}$, then the tensor product of S and T , denoted $S \otimes T$, is the tensor of type $\binom{p+r}{q+s}$ defined by

$$(S \otimes T)(\omega_1, \dots, \omega_p, \eta_1, \dots, \eta_r, X_1, \dots, X_q, Y_1, \dots, Y_s) = S(\omega_1, \dots, \omega_p, X_1, \dots, X_q) T(\eta_1, \dots, \eta_r, Y_1, \dots, Y_s). \quad (2.46)$$

The transformation law in components. Up to this point we have defined a tensor as a multilinear machine, which is the honest and coordinate free way of doing it, but it is not the definition the reader will meet in most physics books, where a tensor is instead introduced as *a collection of numbers which transforms in a particular way under a change of coordinates*. The two definitions are completely equivalent and it is worth deriving the second from the first, because the second one is what we actually use whenever we sit down to compute. Everything follows from the way the bases transform: we already know from equation 2.34 how the coordinate basis of $T_p(M)$ behaves, and inverting that relation gives

$$\mathbf{e}_{\bar{\nu}} = \left(\frac{\partial x^{\beta}}{\partial x^{\bar{\nu}}} \right) \mathbf{e}_{\beta}, \quad (2.47)$$

while the dual basis has to transform in the opposite way, since the defining condition $f^{\mu}(\mathbf{e}_{\nu}) = \delta^{\mu}_{\nu}$ must remain true in every chart, and therefore

$$f^{\bar{\mu}} = \left(\frac{\partial x^{\bar{\mu}}}{\partial x^{\alpha}} \right) f^{\alpha}. \quad (2.48)$$

Now we only have to feed the barred bases into the tensor and use multilinearity to pull every Jacobian out of its slot, which gives

$$T^{\bar{\mu}_1 \dots \bar{\mu}_r}_{\bar{\nu}_1 \dots \bar{\nu}_s} = \frac{\partial x^{\bar{\mu}_1}}{\partial x^{\alpha_1}} \dots \frac{\partial x^{\bar{\mu}_r}}{\partial x^{\alpha_r}} \frac{\partial x^{\beta_1}}{\partial x^{\bar{\nu}_1}} \dots \frac{\partial x^{\beta_s}}{\partial x^{\bar{\nu}_s}} T^{\alpha_1 \dots \alpha_r}_{\beta_1 \dots \beta_s}, \quad (2.49)$$

which is the law every physicist eventually learns by heart. The rule it encodes is simple enough to state in one sentence: **each index brings its own Jacobian, the indices upstairs carry $\partial x^{\bar{\mu}}/\partial x^{\alpha}$ and the indices downstairs carry $\partial x^{\beta}/\partial x^{\bar{\nu}}$** , and the whole content of the older definition of a tensor is the demand that equation 2.49 should hold. That definition sounds circular the first time one hears it, since it seems to say that a tensor is whatever transforms like a tensor, but it is perfectly precise and it is enormously useful in practice, because it converts the question *is this object geometrical?* into a mechanical check that can be carried out with nothing more than the chain rule.

Contraction. There is one operation on tensors which has no analogue for ordinary numbers and which we shall use constantly from chapter 3 onwards, and it consists in setting one upper index equal to one lower index and summing over it.

Definition 10 Let T be a tensor of type $\binom{r}{s}$ with $r \geq 1$ and $s \geq 1$. The contraction of T on its i -th contravariant and j -th covariant slot is the tensor of type $\binom{r-1}{s-1}$ whose components are obtained by setting those two indices equal and summing,

$$(CT)^{\mu_1 \dots \mu_{r-1}}_{\nu_1 \dots \nu_{s-1}} = T^{\mu_1 \dots \alpha \dots \mu_{r-1}}_{\nu_1 \dots \alpha \dots \nu_{s-1}}. \quad (2.50)$$

The reason this deserves a definition of its own, rather than being dismissed as an obvious piece of index bookkeeping, is that it is genuinely surprising that the result should be a tensor at all, since we have summed over a label which only makes sense once a chart has been chosen. That it works is a small miracle of index placement, and the cleanest way to see it is to contract a $\binom{1}{1}$ tensor and watch what the Jacobians do,

$$T^{\bar{\alpha}}_{\bar{\alpha}} = \frac{\partial x^{\bar{\alpha}}}{\partial x^{\mu}} \frac{\partial x^{\nu}}{\partial x^{\bar{\alpha}}} T^{\mu}_{\nu} = \delta^{\nu}_{\mu} T^{\mu}_{\nu} = T^{\mu}_{\mu},$$

where the two Jacobians marked in red have collapsed into a Kronecker delta precisely because one of them came from an upper index and the other from a lower one, so that they are inverse matrices being multiplied together. **Contraction is only legitimate between one upper and one lower index**, and an expression such as $T^{\mu\mu}$, with both indices upstairs, is not chart independent and therefore does not define anything geometrical, at least not until we have a metric available to lower one of them for us. The reader has in fact been contracting tensors for years without calling it that: the trace of a matrix, the divergence of a vector field, the scalar product written as $\omega_{\mu} X^{\mu}$ and the invariant $F^{\mu\nu} F_{\mu\nu}$ of electromagnetism are all contractions, and in chapter 3 the Ricci tensor and the Ricci scalar will be built out of the Riemann tensor by exactly this operation and nothing else.

Symmetric and antisymmetric parts. Any tensor with two or more indices of the same kind can be split into a part which does not care about the order of those indices and a part which changes sign when they are swapped, and because the physically important tensors of relativity are almost always one or the other it pays to fix the notation now. We write the symmetric and antisymmetric parts with round and square brackets respectively,

$$T_{(\mu\nu)} = \frac{1}{2} (T_{\mu\nu} + T_{\nu\mu}), \quad (2.51)$$

$$T_{[\mu\nu]} = \frac{1}{2} (T_{\mu\nu} - T_{\nu\mu}), \quad (2.52)$$

and adding the two of them recovers the original tensor,

$$T_{\mu\nu} = T_{(\mu\nu)} + T_{[\mu\nu]}, \quad (2.53)$$

so that the splitting loses no information at all. For more than two indices the same brackets mean the average over all the permutations of the enclosed indices, with a minus sign for the

odd permutations in the antisymmetric case, so that for three indices we would write $T_{[\mu\nu\rho]} = \frac{1}{3!} (T_{\mu\nu\rho} + T_{\nu\rho\mu} + T_{\rho\mu\nu} - T_{\nu\mu\rho} - T_{\mu\rho\nu} - T_{\rho\nu\mu})$.

Two properties make this splitting worth the trouble. The first is that **being symmetric or antisymmetric is a statement about the tensor and not about the chart**, which we can check directly by transforming a symmetric tensor and swapping the barred indices,

$$T_{\bar{\nu}\bar{\mu}} = \frac{\partial x^\alpha}{\partial x^{\bar{\nu}}} \frac{\partial x^\beta}{\partial x^{\bar{\mu}}} T_{\alpha\beta} = \frac{\partial x^\beta}{\partial x^{\bar{\mu}}} \frac{\partial x^\alpha}{\partial x^{\bar{\nu}}} T_{\beta\alpha} = T_{\bar{\mu}\bar{\nu}},$$

where we used the symmetry $T_{\alpha\beta} = T_{\beta\alpha}$ and then simply renamed the two dummy indices, so a tensor which is symmetric in one coordinate system is symmetric in all of them, and the same argument with one extra minus sign works for antisymmetry. The second property is an identity we shall use again and again without comment, namely that **the full contraction of a symmetric tensor with an antisymmetric one always vanishes**,

$$S^{\mu\nu} A_{\mu\nu} = 0 \quad \text{whenever } S^{\mu\nu} = S^{\nu\mu} \text{ and } A_{\mu\nu} = -A_{\nu\mu}, \quad (2.54)$$

which follows in one line by using the symmetry of S , then the antisymmetry of A , and then relabelling the dummies, since this produces $S^{\mu\nu} A_{\mu\nu} = -S^{\mu\nu} A_{\mu\nu}$ and a quantity equal to minus itself can only be zero.

Finally it is worth counting, because the counting explains a good deal of physics. In n dimensions a symmetric two index tensor has $n(n+1)/2$ independent components and an antisymmetric one has $n(n-1)/2$, so in the four dimensions of space-time we get ten and six respectively. Those two numbers should look familiar: the metric $g_{\mu\nu}$ is symmetric and has exactly ten independent components, which is why Einstein's field equations are ten equations and not sixteen, while the Faraday tensor $F_{\mu\nu}$ is antisymmetric and has exactly six, which is nothing other than the three components of the electric field plus the three of the magnetic field.

2.2.7 Tensor fields

Definition 11 *A vector field is a map X which assigns to every point $p \in M$ a vector $X_p \in T_p(M)$. Acting on a smooth function it produces another function,*

$$\begin{aligned} X(f) : M &\longrightarrow \mathbb{R} \\ p &\longmapsto X_p(f). \end{aligned} \quad (2.55)$$

These vector fields tell us how a physical quantity may change from one point of the manifold to another. Usually we picture a vector field as a field of arrows, but that picture belongs to the manifold $\mathbb{R}^n$, and this last definition is far more general, so those abstract arrows are better interpreted as rates of change of our physical quantities. The field is smooth if $X(f)$ is a smooth function for every smooth f .

Definition 12 A covector field, or one-form field, is a map ω which assigns to every point $p \in M$ a covector $\omega_p \in T_p^*(M)$, so that acting on a vector field it produces a function,

$$\begin{aligned} \omega(\vec{X}) &: M \longrightarrow \mathbb{R} \\ p &\longmapsto \omega_p(\vec{X}_p). \end{aligned} \tag{2.56}$$

This is analogous to the vector field, but in this case there is no analogue of a space of arrows, and the right mental picture is instead a foliation of the manifold by the level surfaces we described above. In both cases the smoothness of the field depends on the smoothness of its components and of the functions f on which it acts.

Definition 13 A $\binom{r}{s}$ tensor field is a map T which assigns to every point $p \in M$ a $\binom{r}{s}$ tensor T_p at p ,

$$\begin{aligned} T(\eta_1, \dots, \eta_r, \vec{X}_1, \dots, \vec{X}_s) &: M \longrightarrow \mathbb{R} \\ p &\longmapsto T_p\left((\eta_1)_p, \dots, (\eta_r)_p, (\vec{X}_1)_p, \dots, (\vec{X}_s)_p\right). \end{aligned} \tag{2.57}$$

Tensor fields can be thought of as the generalisation of vector and covector fields, and this is the heart of many physical theories, not only general and special relativity: they appear in solid state physics, in particle physics and even in crystal optics. They are so important because, as we will see later, with a tensor we can define the notion of distance between events ¹ and we can also define physical quantities that do not depend on the coordinate chart, quantities such as the Maxwell stress tensor, which tells us how much electromagnetic energy density is stored in our system, the Faraday electromagnetic tensor, which tells us how the electric and magnetic fields are related and encodes the conservation laws of a dynamical system, or the pressure tensor, which tells us about the pressure in every direction of a fluid, even in a magnetohydrodynamical one.

Tensors were the heart of twentieth century physics, but there are now further geometrical objects, such as spinors, which behave in a sense like fractional rank tensors, or the twistors of Penrose, which contain both tensors and spinors.

2.2.8 Commutator

Let us analyse two vector fields $\vec{X}$ and $\vec{Y}$ acting on a smooth function f . Since $\vec{Y}(f)$ is again a smooth function, we may feed it to $\vec{X}$, and it is natural to ask whether the composition $\vec{X}(\vec{Y}(f))$ is itself a vector field. To answer this we must check whether the new operator satisfies linearity and

¹this is also related to a topology on the manifold M

the Leibniz rule. Linearity is immediate, so let us test Leibniz by applying the composition to a product of functions,

$$\begin{aligned}\vec{X}(\vec{Y}(fg)) &= \vec{X}(f\vec{Y}(g) + g\vec{Y}(f)) \\ &= f\vec{X}(\vec{Y}(g)) + g\vec{X}(\vec{Y}(f)) + \vec{X}(f)\vec{Y}(g) + \vec{X}(g)\vec{Y}(f).\end{aligned}$$

The first two terms are exactly what the Leibniz rule would demand, but the last two are extra, so **the composition $\vec{X} \circ \vec{Y}$ is not a vector field**, essentially because applying two derivatives in a row produces second derivatives and a genuine derivation is only allowed first ones. The remedy is to notice that the two offending terms are completely symmetric under the exchange $\vec{X} \leftrightarrow \vec{Y}$, since repeating the computation with the fields swapped gives

$$\vec{Y}(\vec{X}(fg)) = f\vec{Y}(\vec{X}(g)) + g\vec{Y}(\vec{X}(f)) + \vec{Y}(f)\vec{X}(g) + \vec{Y}(g)\vec{X}(f),$$

so that if we subtract one from the other the unwanted terms cancel exactly and we are left with an operator that does obey Leibniz. This motivates defining a new map $\vec{Z}$ by

$$\vec{Z}(f) = \vec{X}(\vec{Y}(f)) - \vec{Y}(\vec{X}(f)), \quad (2.58)$$

which, by the argument we have just given, is a genuine vector field.

Definition 14 *The commutator of two vector fields $\vec{X}$ and $\vec{Y}$ is the vector field defined by*

$$[\vec{X}, \vec{Y}](f) = \vec{X}(\vec{Y}(f)) - \vec{Y}(\vec{X}(f)) \quad \forall f \in C^\infty(M). \quad (2.59)$$

We can expand the definition of the commutator to see how it operates in a given coordinate chart $\phi = (x^1, \dots, x^n)$,

$$\begin{aligned}[\vec{X}, \vec{Y}](f) &= \vec{X}\left(Y^\alpha \frac{\partial F}{\partial x^\alpha}\right) - \vec{Y}\left(X^\beta \frac{\partial F}{\partial x^\beta}\right) \\ &= X^\beta \frac{\partial}{\partial x^\beta} \left(Y^\alpha \frac{\partial F}{\partial x^\alpha}\right) - Y^\alpha \frac{\partial}{\partial x^\alpha} \left(X^\beta \frac{\partial F}{\partial x^\beta}\right) \\ &= X^\beta \frac{\partial Y^\alpha}{\partial x^\beta} \frac{\partial F}{\partial x^\alpha} + \textcolor{red}{X^\beta Y^\alpha \frac{\partial^2 F}{\partial x^\beta \partial x^\alpha}} - Y^\alpha \frac{\partial X^\beta}{\partial x^\alpha} \frac{\partial F}{\partial x^\beta} - \textcolor{red}{Y^\alpha X^\beta \frac{\partial^2 F}{\partial x^\alpha \partial x^\beta}},\end{aligned}$$

where the two second derivative terms marked in red cancel one another because the mixed partial derivatives of a smooth function commute, which is exactly the cancellation we anticipated

above. Relabelling the dummy index in the first term so that both surviving terms carry the same derivative $\partial F/\partial x^\beta$, we obtain

$$[\vec{X}, \vec{Y}](f) = \left(X^\alpha \frac{\partial Y^\beta}{\partial x^\alpha} - Y^\alpha \frac{\partial X^\beta}{\partial x^\alpha} \right) \frac{\partial F}{\partial x^\beta}, \quad (2.60)$$

so that, comparing with the expansion of a vector field in the coordinate basis,

$$[\vec{X}, \vec{Y}](f) = [\vec{X}, \vec{Y}]^\beta \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x^\beta} \right)_p (f), \quad (2.61)$$

we can finally read off the components of the commutator,

$$[\vec{X}, \vec{Y}]^\beta = X^\alpha \frac{\partial Y^\beta}{\partial x^\alpha} - Y^\alpha \frac{\partial X^\beta}{\partial x^\alpha}. \quad (2.62)$$

The commutator satisfies four important relations:

1. $[\vec{X}, \vec{Y}] = -[\vec{Y}, \vec{X}]$; the commutator is antisymmetric.
2. $[\vec{X}, \vec{Y} + \vec{Z}] = [\vec{X}, \vec{Y}] + [\vec{X}, \vec{Z}]$; the commutator is linear in each argument.
3. $[\vec{X}, f\vec{Y}] = f[\vec{X}, \vec{Y}] + \vec{X}(f)\vec{Y}$; this is how the commutator behaves under multiplication by a smooth function f , and note that it is *not* simply linear over functions, the extra term being the reason the commutator is a derivation rather than a tensor.
4. $[\vec{X}, [\vec{Y}, \vec{Z}]] + [\vec{Y}, [\vec{Z}, \vec{X}]] + [\vec{Z}, [\vec{X}, \vec{Y}]] = 0$; the Jacobi identity.

We will see later that this commutator carries a great deal of physical information, because the Riemann tensor, which tells us about the geometry of the system, can be written in terms of commutators, which makes its independence of any coordinate chart manifest. The second promise we made, that the commutator would tell us whether a given basis is a coordinate basis or not, we can keep immediately.

Theorem 3 *Let $\{\mathbf{e}_1, \dots, \mathbf{e}_n\}$ be n linearly independent smooth vector fields defined on some region of a manifold M . There exists a coordinate chart $\phi = (x^1, \dots, x^n)$ on that region such that $\mathbf{e}_\mu = \partial/\partial x^\mu$ for every μ , which is to say the basis is a coordinate basis, if and only if all of the commutators vanish,*

$$[\mathbf{e}_\mu, \mathbf{e}_\nu] = 0 \quad \forall \mu, \nu. \quad (2.63)$$

Demonstration of the easy direction:

Suppose the basis is a coordinate basis, so that $\mathbf{e}_\mu = \partial/\partial x^\mu$ for some chart. Then applying the commutator to any smooth function and going down into that chart, as we have done throughout this section, gives

$$\left[\frac{\partial}{\partial x^\mu}, \frac{\partial}{\partial x^\nu} \right] (f) = \frac{\partial^2 F}{\partial x^\mu \partial x^\nu} - \frac{\partial^2 F}{\partial x^\nu \partial x^\mu} = 0,$$

which vanishes because F is smooth and the mixed partial derivatives of a smooth function of several real variables do not depend on the order in which they are taken. The converse, that vanishing commutators guarantee that coordinates exist, is genuinely harder and is a consequence of the Frobenius theorem, whose proof we shall not reproduce here and which the interested reader can find in Wald (1984) or in Nakahara (2003).

The geometrical content of equation 2.63 is much more intuitive than the algebra suggests, and it is worth carrying the picture around because exactly the same picture returns when we build the Riemann tensor in chapter 3. Take two vector fields $\vec{X}$ and $\vec{Y}$, start at a point p , travel a parameter distance ϵ along the integral curve of $\vec{X}$ and then a parameter distance ϵ along the integral curve of $\vec{Y}$, and note where you land. Now do the same two journeys in the opposite order. **In general you do not arrive at the same point, and the gap between the two endpoints is $\epsilon^2 [\vec{X}, \vec{Y}]$ to lowest order**, so the commutator is precisely the failure of the little parallelogram to close (Misner et al., 1973). A coordinate system is nothing but a grid, and a grid closes by construction, since going three steps east and then two steps north must land you where going two steps north and then three steps east does, and that is the whole reason coordinate bases are exactly the bases with vanishing commutators.

It is worth finishing with an example which usually surprises people, because it shows that a basis every physicist has used since their first year is not a coordinate basis at all. Take the plane in polar coordinates (r, θ) and the orthonormal basis we all draw on such a diagram, which is

$$\hat{\mathbf{e}}_r = \frac{\partial}{\partial r}, \quad \hat{\mathbf{e}}_\theta = \frac{1}{r} \frac{\partial}{\partial \theta}, \quad (2.64)$$

where the factor $1/r$ is there precisely so that $\hat{\mathbf{e}}_\theta$ has unit length rather than length r . Computing the commutator with equation 2.62, or simply acting on a function and being careful with the product rule, we find

$$[\hat{\mathbf{e}}_r, \hat{\mathbf{e}}_\theta] (f) = \frac{\partial}{\partial r} \left(\frac{1}{r} \frac{\partial f}{\partial \theta} \right) - \frac{1}{r} \frac{\partial}{\partial \theta} \left(\frac{\partial f}{\partial r} \right) = -\frac{1}{r^2} \frac{\partial f}{\partial \theta} = -\frac{1}{r} \hat{\mathbf{e}}_\theta (f),$$

so that

$$[\hat{\mathbf{e}}_r, \hat{\mathbf{e}}_\theta] = -\frac{1}{r}\hat{\mathbf{e}}_\theta \neq 0. \quad (2.65)$$

The orthonormal polar basis is therefore not a coordinate basis, and there is no coordinate system anywhere whose partial derivatives are $\hat{\mathbf{e}}_r$ and $\hat{\mathbf{e}}_\theta$, which is the honest reason behind all those extra terms that appear when one writes the divergence or the Laplacian in polar coordinates and which students usually memorise without ever being told where they come from. Bases of this kind, with non vanishing commutators, are called *anholonomic* or non coordinate bases, and far from being pathological they are extremely useful in relativity, since an observer carrying a set of orthonormal rods and a clock is carrying exactly such a basis and not a coordinate one.

2.2.9 Integral curves

In ordinary language the terms curve and vector field are used as though they described separate things, but if we look carefully they are not separate at all. If we go back to our elementary calculus courses we remember that in $\mathbb{R}^3$ a curve is given by a vector whose components are parameterised functions, and that is exactly what we have been developing here: a curve is a map from an interval I , parameterised by t , into the manifold, which in the case of $\mathbb{R}^3$ is represented by the familiar $\lambda(t) = [X(t), Y(t), Z(t)]^T$.

It is time to formalise all of this, and the mental picture to keep in mind is the velocity field of a fluid, which (and not only in special relativity) is usually written as a vector field $\vec{U}(\vec{X}) \in \mathbb{R}^3$. The trajectory followed by a particle carried along by that velocity field is fixed by an initial position $\vec{X}_0$ through

$$\frac{d\vec{X}}{dt} = \vec{U}(\vec{X}(t)) ; \vec{X}(0) = \vec{X}_0, \quad (2.66)$$

and the solution of equation 2.66 is what we call the *integral curve of $\vec{U}$ through $\vec{X}_0$* .

Definition 15 Let $\vec{X}$ be a vector field on a manifold M and let $p \in M$. An integral curve of $\vec{X}$ through p is a curve passing through p whose tangent vector at every point coincides with the value of $\vec{X}$ at that point.

Let λ be an integral curve of $\vec{X}$ with $\lambda(0) = p$, and choose a coordinate chart $\phi = (x^1, \dots, x^n)$. Writing the condition that the tangent of the curve equals the field at every point, component by component, gives the system of ordinary differential equations

$$\frac{d}{dt} [x^\alpha(\lambda(t))] = X^\alpha(\lambda(t)), \quad (2.67)$$

subject to the initial condition

$$x^\alpha(\lambda(0)) = x^\alpha(p). \quad (2.68)$$

Since the components X^α are smooth functions of the coordinates, the standard existence and uniqueness theorem for ordinary differential equations guarantees that through every point p there passes exactly one integral curve, at least for a short enough interval of the parameter t . **The initial condition is what selects one curve out of the whole family**, and if we drop it we are left with the family itself, which is precisely the setting in which one speaks of the flow of the vector field, of autonomous and non autonomous dynamical systems, and eventually of chaos.

2.2.10 A worked example: the two sphere

Everything we have built so far has been abstract on purpose, since the whole point of the construction is that it never refers to an ambient space, but abstraction is much easier to trust once one has seen it produce familiar answers in a case where the answers are already known. In this subsection we are going to take the unit sphere S^2 , which we already met as an example of a manifold, and compute absolutely everything explicitly: the coordinate basis, a curve and its tangent vector, a non coordinate basis, the commutators, a change of chart and an integral curve. The reader who works through this once will find the rest of the book considerably less intimidating.

The chart and the coordinate basis. We work on the region covered by the usual spherical chart, $\phi = (\vartheta, \varphi)$ with $0 < \vartheta < \pi$ and $0 < \varphi < 2\pi$, which as we discussed above misses one meridian and both poles, so strictly speaking we are working on one patch of an atlas which needs at least two. The coordinate basis of the tangent space at each point of the patch is

$$\left\{ \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial \vartheta} \right)_p, \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial \varphi} \right)_p \right\}, \quad (2.69)$$

and since there are two of them the tangent space $T_p(S^2)$ is two dimensional, exactly as the general theorem promised, which is already worth noticing: **the tangent space to the sphere is a plane of two dimensions and not of three**, even though we habitually draw the sphere sitting inside $\mathbb{R}^3$, because the manifold itself is two dimensional and the third dimension in the drawing is our own addition and nothing the sphere knows about.

A curve and its tangent vector. Consider the circle of constant latitude at $\vartheta = \vartheta_0$, described by the curve

$$\lambda(t) = \phi^{-1}(\vartheta_0, \varphi_0 + t), \quad (2.70)$$

whose coordinates are $\vartheta(t) = \vartheta_0$ and $\varphi(t) = \varphi_0 + t$. Using equation 2.31 its tangent vector has components $X^\vartheta = d\vartheta/dt = 0$ and $X^\varphi = d\varphi/dt = 1$, so that

$$X_p = \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial \varphi} \right)_p, \quad (2.71)$$

which says that the vector field $\partial/\partial\varphi$ is precisely the field whose integral curves are the circles of latitude, travelled once per 2π of parameter. This is the generator of rotations about the polar axis and we will meet it again in a moment.

A basis which is not a coordinate basis. Physicists almost never use the coordinate basis on a sphere, because $\partial/\partial\varphi$ does not have unit length, its length being $\sin\vartheta$, which shrinks to nothing as we approach the poles. What we use instead is the orthonormal basis

$$\hat{\mathbf{e}}_\vartheta = \frac{\partial}{\partial\vartheta}, \quad \hat{\mathbf{e}}_\varphi = \frac{1}{\sin\vartheta} \frac{\partial}{\partial\varphi}, \quad (2.72)$$

and by the criterion of equation 2.63 we can now ask whether this is a coordinate basis, which amounts to computing one commutator,

$$\begin{aligned} [\hat{\mathbf{e}}_\vartheta, \hat{\mathbf{e}}_\varphi](f) &= \frac{\partial}{\partial\vartheta} \left(\frac{1}{\sin\vartheta} \frac{\partial f}{\partial\varphi} \right) - \frac{1}{\sin\vartheta} \frac{\partial}{\partial\varphi} \left(\frac{\partial f}{\partial\vartheta} \right) \\ &= -\frac{\cos\vartheta}{\sin^2\vartheta} \frac{\partial f}{\partial\varphi} + \frac{1}{\sin\vartheta} \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial\vartheta\partial\varphi} - \frac{1}{\sin\vartheta} \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial\varphi\partial\vartheta} \\ &= -\frac{\cos\vartheta}{\sin\vartheta} \left(\frac{1}{\sin\vartheta} \frac{\partial f}{\partial\varphi} \right) = -\cot\vartheta \hat{\mathbf{e}}_\varphi(f), \end{aligned}$$

where the second derivative terms marked in red cancel as always, and therefore

$$[\hat{\mathbf{e}}_\vartheta, \hat{\mathbf{e}}_\varphi] = -\cot\vartheta \hat{\mathbf{e}}_\varphi \neq 0. \quad (2.73)$$

So the orthonormal basis on the sphere, exactly like the orthonormal polar basis on the plane, is anholonomic, and no coordinate system exists whose partial derivatives are $\hat{\mathbf{e}}_\vartheta$ and $\hat{\mathbf{e}}_\varphi$.

The rotation generators and an old friend. The sphere has three obvious symmetries, the rotations about the three Cartesian axes, and each of them is generated by a vector field on S^2 . Written in our chart they are

$$\vec{X}_{(z)} = \frac{\partial}{\partial\varphi}, \quad (2.74)$$

$$\vec{X}_{(x)} = -\sin\varphi \frac{\partial}{\partial\vartheta} - \cos\varphi \cot\vartheta \frac{\partial}{\partial\varphi}, \quad (2.75)$$

$$\vec{X}_{(y)} = \cos\varphi \frac{\partial}{\partial\vartheta} - \sin\varphi \cot\vartheta \frac{\partial}{\partial\varphi}, \quad (2.76)$$

and computing their commutators with equation 2.62, which is a slightly tedious but completely mechanical exercise that the reader should do at least once, gives

$$[\vec{X}_{(x)}, \vec{X}_{(y)}] = -\vec{X}_{(z)}, \quad (2.77)$$

$$[\vec{X}_{(y)}, \vec{X}_{(z)}] = -\vec{X}_{(x)}, \quad (2.78)$$

$$[\vec{X}_{(z)}, \vec{X}_{(x)}] = -\vec{X}_{(y)}. \quad (2.79)$$

This should stop the reader in their tracks, because it is the angular momentum algebra of quantum mechanics arriving unannounced in the middle of a geometry calculation. If we define the operators $\hat{L}_i = -i\hbar\vec{X}_{(i)}$, which is exactly how the angular momentum operators are built in any quantum mechanics course (Sakurai and Napolitano, 2011), then the three relations above become

$$[\hat{L}_x, \hat{L}_y] = i\hbar\hat{L}_z, \quad (2.80)$$

together with its cyclic partners, and **the commutation relations that a physics student first meets as an algebraic curiosity about operators turn out to be a purely geometrical statement about how rotations fail to commute on the surface of a sphere.** The overall sign is a matter of convention, since flipping the sign of all three fields flips the sign of the structure constants, but the content does not depend on that choice.

A change of chart. Let us now check equation 2.34 on a concrete change of coordinates, using the stereographic projection we described earlier. Projecting from the north pole onto the plane tangent at the south pole gives the chart (u, v) with

$$u = 2 \cot\left(\frac{\vartheta}{2}\right) \cos \varphi, \quad v = 2 \cot\left(\frac{\vartheta}{2}\right) \sin \varphi, \quad (2.81)$$

so that the distance from the origin in the plane is $R = \sqrt{u^2 + v^2} = 2 \cot(\vartheta/2)$, which correctly runs off to infinity as we approach the north pole at $\vartheta = 0$ and vanishes at the south pole at $\vartheta = \pi$. Applying the transformation law for basis vectors, which simply means computing the Jacobian of this change and contracting, we obtain

$$\frac{\partial}{\partial \varphi} = \frac{\partial u}{\partial \varphi} \frac{\partial}{\partial u} + \frac{\partial v}{\partial \varphi} \frac{\partial}{\partial v} = -v \frac{\partial}{\partial u} + u \frac{\partial}{\partial v}, \quad (2.82)$$

$$\frac{\partial}{\partial \vartheta} = \frac{\partial u}{\partial \vartheta} \frac{\partial}{\partial u} + \frac{\partial v}{\partial \vartheta} \frac{\partial}{\partial v} = -\frac{4 + R^2}{4R} \left(u \frac{\partial}{\partial u} + v \frac{\partial}{\partial v} \right). \quad (2.83)$$

The first of these is worth reading twice, because $-v \partial_u + u \partial_v$ is exactly the generator of rotations in the plane that we all wrote down in first year mechanics, and it has appeared here automatically:

the field which rotates the sphere about its polar axis is, seen through the stereographic chart, the field which rotates the plane about its origin. The second one is a pure radial field, which is the projection of the meridians, and both expressions are perfectly regular everywhere except at the origin of the plane and at infinity, which are the two points where this single chart is bound to fail.

An integral curve, and a warning. Finally let us solve equation 2.67 for the field $\vec{X}_{(z)} = \partial/\partial\varphi$, whose components are $X^\vartheta = 0$ and $X^\varphi = 1$, so that the system reads

$$\frac{d\vartheta}{dt} = 0, \quad \frac{d\varphi}{dt} = 1, \quad (2.84)$$

with the immediate solution $\vartheta(t) = \vartheta_0$ and $\varphi(t) = \varphi_0 + t$, which is the circle of latitude we started from, closing the loop of this example. There is, however, one last thing the sphere has to teach us, and it is topological rather than geometrical: the field $\partial/\partial\varphi$ vanishes at both poles, since there is no preferred direction of rotation once you are standing exactly on the axis, and this is not a defect of our particular choice. **Every smooth vector field on S^2 must vanish somewhere**, a result proved by Brouwer in 1912 and known affectionately as the hairy ball theorem, because it says you cannot comb a hairy sphere flat without leaving at least one crown. The plane and the torus suffer from no such obstruction, so this is a genuine statement about the shape of the sphere and not about our charts, and it is a first hint that manifolds carry global information that no amount of local calculus will ever reveal.

2.2.11 Why the partial derivative is not enough

We are about to start differentiating tensor fields, and before we do it is essential to understand why the obvious candidate fails, because the failure is what forces the whole apparatus of the next section and of the next chapter into existence. The obvious candidate is simply to take the components of a vector field and differentiate them one by one, forming the array $\partial V^\nu/\partial x^\mu$, which certainly looks like the components of a $\begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix}$ tensor since it carries one index upstairs and one downstairs. Let us test it against equation 2.49 and see whether it really transforms as it should.

Starting from the transformation law for the components of a vector, equation 2.36, and differentiating with the chain rule,

$$\frac{\partial V^{\bar{\mu}}}{\partial x^{\bar{\alpha}}} = \frac{\partial x^{\beta}}{\partial x^{\bar{\alpha}}} \frac{\partial}{\partial x^{\beta}} \left(\frac{\partial x^{\bar{\mu}}}{\partial x^{\nu}} V^{\nu} \right) = \underbrace{\frac{\partial x^{\beta}}{\partial x^{\bar{\alpha}}} \frac{\partial x^{\bar{\mu}}}{\partial x^{\nu}} \frac{\partial V^{\nu}}{\partial x^{\beta}}}_{\text{what a tensor would do}} + \underbrace{\frac{\partial x^{\beta}}{\partial x^{\bar{\alpha}}} \frac{\partial^2 x^{\bar{\mu}}}{\partial x^{\beta} \partial x^{\nu}} V^{\nu}}_{\text{the unwanted term}},$$

we see that the first term is exactly the transformation law a $\begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix}$ tensor is supposed to obey, one Jacobian upstairs and one downstairs, but that there is a second term which has no business being there, and **because of it the partial derivative of the components of a vector field is not a tensor**. The offending term is built from the second derivatives of the coordinate change, so it

vanishes if and only if those second derivatives vanish, which happens exactly when the change of coordinates is affine, that is, linear plus a constant shift.

That observation explains a great deal about why relativity is taught the way it is. **Lorentz transformations are linear**, so in special relativity the second derivatives are identically zero, the unwanted term never appears, and a physicist can differentiate the components of a four vector with ∂_μ all day long and still obtain perfectly good tensors. General relativity allows arbitrary smooth changes of coordinates, which are certainly not linear, so the same manoeuvre stops working immediately, and this single fact is the reason the next chapter has to spend so much effort building a new derivative from scratch.

There are two honest ways out of the difficulty and we shall use both. The first is to add extra structure to the manifold, an object called a *connection*, whose own transformation law contains an inhomogeneous piece designed precisely to cancel the unwanted term above, producing the *covariant derivative* ∇_μ that we shall construct in chapter 3 and which is the derivative appearing in the geodesic equation and in the Einstein field equations. The second is to give up on differentiating in a single direction and instead use a second vector field to carry the comparison for us, dragging the tensor along the flow of that field and comparing it with itself, which produces the *Lie derivative* and which needs no extra structure whatsoever beyond the manifold itself. That second route is the subject of the section which follows.

It is worth closing with a small consolation, because the situation is not quite as bad as it looks. If we take a one-form instead of a vector and run the same computation, the unwanted term turns out to be

$$\frac{\partial^2 x^\alpha}{\partial x^{\bar{\nu}} \partial x^{\bar{\mu}}} \omega_\alpha, \quad (2.85)$$

which is manifestly symmetric under the exchange of $\bar{\mu}$ and $\bar{\nu}$, since mixed partial derivatives commute, so if we antisymmetrise the two indices using the brackets we introduced above then the whole offending term disappears and

$$\partial_{[\mu} \omega_{\nu]} \text{ is a tensor,} \quad (2.86)$$

even though $\partial_\mu \omega_\nu$ on its own is not. This is not an accident, it is the first appearance of the *exterior derivative*, the one derivative in differential geometry that needs no connection at all, and it is the reason the electromagnetic field tensor $F_{\mu\nu} = \partial_\mu A_\nu - \partial_\nu A_\mu$ is a perfectly good tensor in curved space-time despite being written entirely with ordinary partial derivatives.

2.3 The Lie derivative

There is a truly important concept in general relativity and differential geometry, the derivative, but there is no single derivative, there are many kinds and all of them have their own meaning and

applications: the ordinary derivative, the partial derivative, the gradient, the divergence, the curl, the Jacobian, the covariant derivative, the fractional derivative. Here we are going to develop one special derivative that allows us to pull or push elements from one manifold to another, and to find the notion of a derivative along a curve together with the relation between manifolds which are in general different. These are the pull back and push forward operations, and with them we can develop the *Lie derivative*, a kind of primitive and primordial derivative of which the scalar, partial and even the covariant derivative are particular cases.

2.3.1 Pull back and push forward

Let M and N be two different manifolds, let f be a smooth function mapping from N to $\mathbb{R}$, and let ϕ be a bijection mapping from M to N . There then exists an inverse map $\phi^{-1} : N \rightarrow M$ such that $\phi \circ \phi^{-1} = I_N$, where I_N is the identity function on the manifold N , and $\phi^{-1} \circ \phi = I_M$, where I_M is the identity function on the manifold M .

Chapter 3

The Theory of General Relativity

*Gravity is not a force reaching across space, it is
the shape of space itself.*

“Spacetime tells matter how to move; matter tells spacetime how to curve.”

– John Archibald Wheeler

3.1 Introduction to general relativity

At the heart of Albert Einstein's general theory of relativity lies a profound shift in our understanding of gravity and space-time. In this section, we'll delve into the qualitative aspects of general relativity and draw comparisons with its predecessor, special relativity.

One of the central tenets of general relativity is the idea that massive objects, like planets and stars, bend the fabric of space-time around them. This bending, often depicted as a curved surface, is what we perceive as gravity. Imagine placing a heavy ball on a stretched rubber sheet. The sheet curves around the ball, and smaller objects nearby naturally roll toward it. Similarly, massive objects create curves in space-time, influencing the motion of other objects in their vicinity.

This insight was a monumental departure from the classical concept of gravity as a force of attraction between masses. Rather than envisioning a force acting at a distance, general relativity describes gravity as a consequence of the geometry of space-time itself.

Special relativity, introduced by Einstein in 1905, focuses on the relationship between space and time, particularly in situations involving relative motion. It famously established the constancy of the speed of light, which led to phenomena like time dilation and length contraction. Special relativity was designed to address situations where velocities approach the speed of light and encompassed the realm of "inertial frames" – frames that move at a constant velocity relative to one another.

General relativity extends this framework to non-inertial frames – those undergoing acceleration or influenced by gravitational fields. It unifies gravity with the fabric of space-time, encompassing all motion, including accelerated motion, within its purview. While special relativity deals with flat space-time and relative motion, general relativity introduces the dynamic curvature of space-time itself as a response to mass and energy.

One of the remarkable consequences of general relativity is its application to the cosmological scale. The curvature of space-time influences the trajectory of light, causing gravitational lensing – the bending of light around massive objects. This effect was confirmed during the 1919 solar eclipse observations, where stars near the Sun appeared slightly shifted due to the bending of their light around the Sun's gravitational field.

General relativity also provides the foundation for understanding black holes, where the gravitational curvature becomes so intense that not even light can escape – leading to the concept of an event horizon. These celestial phenomena have since become crucial tools for studying the universe's most extreme environments and for testing the boundaries of our understanding of physics.

In summary, general relativity profoundly transformed our understanding of gravity by revealing it as the result of the curvature of space-time caused by mass and energy. This departure from the classical Newtonian view revolutionized our comprehension of the cosmos, offering a unified description of gravity and motion on all scales.

While special relativity opened the door to the intertwining of space and time and addressed relative motion in inertial frames, general relativity extended this framework to include accelerated motion and the gravitational influence of massive objects. Together, these theories form the foundation of modern physics, guiding our exploration of the universe's inner workings and shaping our technological advancements.

3.1.1 The incompatibility between the Newtonian gravity with the special relativity

The Newton's universal law of gravity was one of the biggest hits in the history of physics, this is because he could explain almost all the gravitational phenomena in the planet (or any other) and in the solar system, with this theory Edmund Halley could also predict the trajectory of a far asteroid, the well known Halley's asteroid. The Newton's theory failed with one special planet in the solar system, Mercury, no one could explain the retrograde movement of this planet using this theory, it was Albert Einstein with his theory of general relativity who could solve this problem and generalize to high gravitational fields and also discovered that his theory of special relativity is incompatible with the Newton's theory.

Lets show that. The SR (special relativity from now on) has preferred observers ¹ this are known as *inertial observers* when we associate then with a set of four coordinates (t, x, y, z) , this becomes an inertial reference frame. The different inertial frames are all related by Lorentz transformations, with this we can enunciate the *principle of special relativity*.

Principle 1 *Principle of special relativity:* *The laws of physics must take the same form in every inertial frame.*

This principle talks about the mathematical forms of the laws of physics this means that no matter how you transform the reference frame, the coordinate system, the mathematical form of the laws must be the same, there is no physical interest in a mathematical formulation fro a physical law which has a different form for every inertial frame.

Lets analyze the Newton's laws to see like this the compatibility between this and the SR

$$\nabla^2\phi = 4\pi G\rho \quad (3.1)$$

where ϕ is the gravitational potential, ρ is the mass density, and G is the gravitational or Cavendish's constant. Due to the Lorentz transformations the spatial and temporal coordinates mix each other it is obvious that this equations won't be longer a Poisson equation under a Lorentz

¹here we must clarify that a preferred observer is not a coordinate card, an observer is related to world trajectories, therefore the observers are related more to a geometrical objects.

transformation, this implies that *the Newton laws are incompatible with the principle of special relativity*. So now let's analyze the behaviour of the solutions of the equation 3.1, these have the form,

$$\phi(t, \vec{x}) = -G \int \frac{\rho(t, \vec{x}')}{|\vec{x} - \vec{x}'|} d^3x', \quad (3.2)$$

solutions of this form also violate the principle of SR, because solutions of this form have instantaneous reactions which also violate the principles because *two simultaneous events (spatially separated) in an inertial reference frame, won't be simultaneous in all the other reference frames*.

It is worth to wonder when are compatible the SR with the Newtonian gravity, we will prove that this compatibility is given under low velocities, when we talk about low velocities we must say respect to what, from now on in the context of the relativity theory usually is respect to the speed of light C , so when $v \ll C$ like in the solar system. All the planets in our solar system travel, in a relatively good approximation, in circular trajectories so we can use the Newton's law and the gravitation law to relate the potential with the speed, the gravitational potential is

$$\phi = -\frac{MG}{|\vec{r}|} \quad (3.3)$$

where M is the sun's mass, and $\vec{r}$ is the positions vector from the sun to the planet, if the movement is perfectly circular there is a centripetal acceleration, thus

$$\frac{GM}{|\vec{r}|^2} = \frac{v^2}{|\vec{r}|} \rightarrow \frac{v^2}{C^2} = \frac{|\phi|}{C^2}. \quad (3.4)$$

Here we can see the direct relation there is between the gravitational potential with the relativistic effects in gravitational fields, intense gravitational fields imply relativistic effects, this also implies, yeh again, *the Newton theory is incompatible with relativity*. When $|\phi|/C^2 \ll 1$ we have that the Newton's law are compatible. There is a certain dimensionless constant that tell us if an object is enough to produce relativistic effects, this is called the compactness c defined by:

$$c = \frac{GM}{C^2 r}. \quad (3.5)$$

This constant for the sun has a values of the order of $\approx 10^{-6}$ and for a Neutron star of ≈ 0.5 , thus in the vicinity of a Neutron star the relativistic effects will be really important in contrast with our sun.

3.1.2 Weak equivalence principle

In the Newtonian theory there is a difference between two concepts, the *inertial mass* and the *gravitational mass*, m_I, m_g respectively, the distinctions between these two is really important,

because in the common language, they're the same, but we will see that the fact they're numerically the same implies a principle and they are not the same concepts, physically imply two different things.

- The inertial mass is related with the second law of Newton, this mass is an inertia factor which tell us how hard would be to move an object and appears mathematically as

$$\vec{F} = m_I \vec{a}. \quad (3.6)$$

- The gravitational mass is a factor which tells us how an object interacts with a gravitational field it is analogous to charge in the electromagnetism and appears mathematically as

$$\vec{F} = m_g \vec{g}. \quad (3.7)$$

To see how they are related, let's consider a particle falling freely in a gravitational field, thus

$$\vec{a} = \frac{\vec{F}}{m_I} = \frac{m_g}{m_I} \vec{g}. \quad (3.8)$$

It was Galileo, with his so famous experiments in the Piza tower, who postulated *the relation between the gravitational and inertial mass m_g/m_I are the same for all the materials*. Without any loss of generality, we're saying that in magnitude the gravitational mass and the inertial mass are equal. Later Eötvös proved experimentally that

$$\frac{m_g}{m_I} - 1 \approx \mathcal{O}(10^{-12}). \quad (3.9)$$

This separates gravity from all the other three forces, because all the other forces interact with matter depending on their compositions but this not, the main objective nowadays is to try to violate the relations 3.9 and we can say that *the equality between m_I and m_g for all the bodies is a form of the weak equivalence principle*.

The relation 3.9, this principle, in fact has a really heavy implication mathematically, because we start from a movement equation like,

$$m_I \ddot{\vec{x}} = m_g \vec{g}[\vec{x}(t), t], \quad (3.10)$$

but using 3.9 we then get

$$\ddot{\vec{x}} = \vec{g}[\vec{x}(t), t]. \quad (3.11)$$

Solutions of this equations are determined uniquely by the initial position and speed of the particle. This implies that **two different particle with the same position and speed will have the same trajectories**. Without this relation this wont be any longer true, there is the strenght and beauty of this principle. Lets now formulate this principle in this other, but physically equal, form:

Principle 2 Weak equivalence principle: *The trajectory of a test body falling freely depends only on its initial position and speed and it is independent of its chemical composition.*

We must remember that this is enunciate to test bodies, this kind of test bodies have got auto-gravitational effects negligible respect to the field of the sources and this is not extended, it is almost a particle respect to the field size, this to avoid effects like torques. Lets analyze the mechanical behavior of a reference frame that fulfill the transformations of Galileo's group.

$$t' = t, \quad (3.12)$$

$$\vec{X}' = \vec{X} - \vec{Y}(t), \quad (3.13)$$

$\vec{Y}(t)$ is related with the origin of the new reference frame. And we will set $\ddot{\vec{Y}}(t) = \vec{a}$ so the acceleration of the new reference frame is given by the Galileo's relativity theory by

$$\ddot{\vec{X}}' = \vec{g} - \vec{a} = \vec{g}'. \quad (3.14)$$

Here we can see the acceleration of the new reference frame can be interpreted as a measure of the gravity acceleration from this reference frame, lets analyze some special cases of the equation 3.14.

1. $\vec{g} = 0$ which implies that $\vec{g}' = -\vec{a}$ we can see that *the uniform acceleration is indistinguishable from an uniform gravitational acceleration*.
2. $\vec{g} = cte$ & $\vec{a} = \vec{g}$. For this kind of situations we can then find an inertial reference frame associated to the free fall, in this reference frame the gravitational effects are zero. This is equivalent to be next to a falling object like a paratrooper.

If we haven't got uniformity, then we will see that *each coordinate chard of the inertial reference frame can be such that this is associated to a geometrical manifold, such manifolds will allow us to define neighborhoods which are locally Minkowskian*.

3.1.3 Experimental evidence for a general relativity theory

Many physics students feel attraction to the theory of general relativity and gravitation because the mathematical structure behind this theory which by its own is really abstract but with this theory it takes a beautiful physical interpretation but many people forget how this theory was born.

Is the experimentation, the experiences we live everyday what allow physicist do physics, because of that there are some experiments which cannot be explained with the special relativity theory of which are the first steps in the search of a general theory of relativity, here we're going to check some of those experiments and analyze their physical information.

3.1.3.1 Eötvös experiment

The Hungarian Baron Loránd Eötvös was a mathematician, engineer and physicist who made an amazing experiment to test the equivalence principle, here we're going to analyze his experiment. Lets suppose a pair of objects to which a force is applied

$$\vec{F}^{(1)} = m_I^{(1)} \vec{a}^{(1)} = m_g^{(1)} \vec{g}, \quad (3.15)$$

$$\vec{F}^{(2)} = m_I^{(2)} \vec{a}^{(2)} = m_g^{(2)} \vec{g}. \quad (3.16)$$

He, in his experiment, postulate that the acceleration of the two objects aren't the same

$$\vec{a}^{(2)} = \frac{m_g^{(2)}}{m_I^{(2)}} \vec{g} \neq \frac{m_g^{(1)}}{m_I^{(1)}} \vec{g} = \vec{a}^{(1)}. \quad (3.17)$$

We're going to have on count the gravitational force

$$\vec{F}_g = -GM_O M_G \frac{\vec{r}}{r^3}, \quad (3.18)$$

and the centrifugal force due to the relative rotational motion between the two forces with angular frequency $\vec{\omega}$, see figure 3.1.

$$\vec{F}_\omega = m_I \omega^2 \vec{r}_{axis}, \quad (3.19)$$

$$\vec{r}_{axis} = \vec{r} - \frac{(\vec{\omega} \cdot \vec{r})}{\omega^2} \vec{\omega}, \quad (3.20)$$

$$\vec{F}_\omega = m_I [\vec{\omega} \times (\vec{\omega} \times \vec{r})]. \quad (3.21)$$

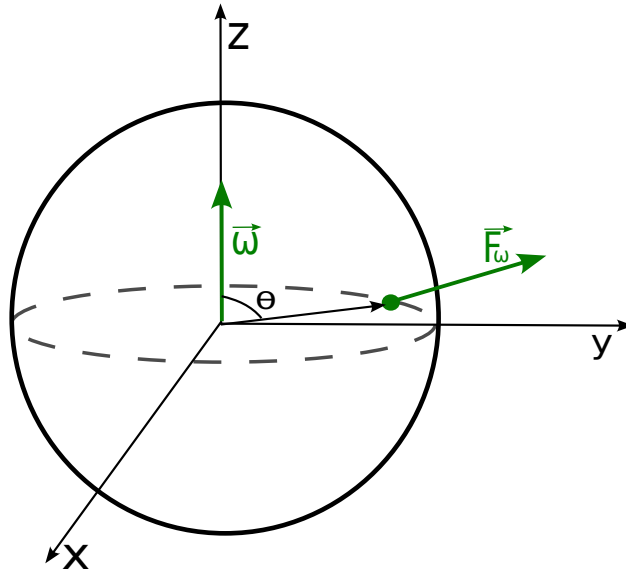


Figure 3.1: Graphical representation of the relative movement between the two test bodies.

Then the forces balance is

$$\vec{F}^{(i)} = \vec{F}_g^{(i)} + \vec{F}_{\omega}^{(i)}.$$

And lets define a parameter α which relates the strength relation between the gravitational and centrifugal force as

$$\alpha = \frac{|\vec{F}^{(1)} \times \vec{F}^{(2)}|}{|\vec{F}^{(1)}||\vec{F}^{(2)}|}, \quad (3.22)$$

if $\alpha = 0$ we'll have that the forces are parallel. In magnitude in the earth the gravitational force is stronger than the centrifugal because

$$\frac{GM_O}{|\vec{r}|} / \frac{1}{\omega^2 |\vec{r}|^2} \approx 300.$$

Lets calculate the parameter α so, first we're going to calculate the numerator

$$\begin{aligned}
\vec{F}^{(1)} \times \vec{F}^{(2)} &= \left(-GM_O m_g^{(1)} \frac{\vec{r}}{r^3} + m_I^{(1)} [\vec{\omega} \times (\vec{\omega} \times \vec{r})] \right) \times \left(-GM_O m_g^{(2)} \frac{\vec{r}}{r^3} + m_I^{(2)} [\vec{\omega} \times (\vec{\omega} \times \vec{r})] \right) \\
&= - \left(\frac{GM_O m_g^{(1)} m_I^{(2)}}{r^3} \right) (\vec{r} \times \vec{\omega}) \times (\vec{\omega} \times \vec{r}) - \left(\frac{GM_O m_g^{(2)} m_I^{(1)}}{r^3} \right) [\vec{\omega} \times (\vec{\omega} \times \vec{r})] \times \vec{r} \\
&= - \frac{GM_O \omega^2}{r^3} \left\{ m_g^{(1)} m_I^{(2)} \vec{r} \times \left[\vec{r} - \frac{(\vec{\omega} \cdot \vec{r}) \vec{\omega}}{\omega^2} \right] - m_g^{(2)} m_I^{(1)} \left[\vec{r} - \frac{(\vec{\omega} \cdot \vec{r}) \vec{\omega}}{\omega^2} \right] \times \vec{r} \right\} \\
&= - \frac{GM_O}{r^3} (\vec{r} \times \vec{\omega}) (\vec{\omega} \cdot \vec{r}) [m_g^{(1)} m_I^{(2)} - m_g^{(2)} m_I^{(1)}],
\end{aligned}$$

$$|\vec{F}^{(1)} \times \vec{F}^{(2)}| = \frac{GM_O}{r^3} |\vec{r} \times \vec{\omega}| (\vec{\omega} \cdot \vec{r}) [m_g^{(1)} m_I^{(2)} - m_g^{(2)} m_I^{(1)}]. \quad (3.23)$$

Now, for the denominator we must calculate each norm, because both have the same form we'll do for one and only change their respective indices

$$\begin{aligned}
|\vec{F}^{(i)}| &= \left\{ \frac{(GM_O m_g^{(i)})^2}{r^4} + (m_I^{(i)} \omega^2)^2 \left[\vec{r} - \frac{(\vec{\omega} \cdot \vec{r}) \vec{\omega}}{\omega^2} \right] \cdot \left[\vec{r} - \frac{(\vec{\omega} \cdot \vec{r}) \vec{\omega}}{\omega^2} \right] - 2GM_O m_g^{(i)} m_I^{(i)} \frac{\omega^2}{r^3} \vec{r} \cdot \left[\vec{r} - \frac{(\vec{\omega} \cdot \vec{r}) \vec{\omega}}{\omega^2} \right] \right\}^{1/2} \\
&= \left\{ \frac{(GM_O m_g^{(i)})^2}{r^4} + (m_I^{(i)} \omega^2)^2 \left[r^2 - \frac{2(\vec{\omega} \cdot \vec{r})^2}{\omega^2} + \frac{(\vec{\omega} \cdot \vec{r})^2}{\omega^2} \right] - 2GM_O m_g^{(i)} m_I^{(i)} \frac{\omega^2}{r^3} \left[r^2 - \frac{(\vec{\omega} \cdot \vec{r})^2}{\omega^2} \right] \right\}^{1/2} \\
&= \frac{GM_O m_g^{(i)}}{r^2} \left\{ 1 + \left[\frac{m_I^{(i)} \omega^2}{GM_O m_g^{(i)}} \right] \left[r^2 - \frac{(\vec{\omega} \cdot \vec{r})^2}{\omega^2} \right] \left[\frac{m_I^{(i)} r^2 \omega^2}{GM_O m_g^{(i)}} - \frac{2}{r} \right] \right\}^{1/2}.
\end{aligned}$$

Taking a first order approximation, or what is the same, saying the biggest contribution to the norm of each force is due to the gravitational interaction we then have:

$$|\vec{F}^{(i)}| \approx \frac{GM_O m_g^{(i)}}{r^2}, \quad (3.24)$$

then the parameter α becomes

$$\alpha \approx \left[\frac{m_I^{(1)}}{m_g^{(1)}} - \frac{m_I^{(2)}}{m_g^{(2)}} \right] \frac{|\vec{r} \times \vec{\omega}| (\vec{\omega} \cdot \vec{r})}{GM_O}, \quad (3.25)$$

$$\alpha \approx \left[\frac{m_I^{(1)}}{m_g^{(1)}} - \frac{m_I^{(2)}}{m_g^{(2)}} \right] \frac{\cos \theta \sin \theta}{300}. \quad (3.26)$$

With the result of the equation 3.26 we can see that this experiment can not be done for some who is in the equator nor the poles because $\theta = 0$ & $\theta = \pi/2$ respectively, fortunately Eötvös was in Hungary a country beyond the equator and he found that α was zero in a part for 10^9 , this means it is zero until the ninth significant number, from there on there are errors, and mathematically from 3.26 we can see that if it is zero this means by the elementary theorem of algebra that

$$\frac{m_I^{(1)}}{m_g^{(1)}} = \frac{m_I^{(2)}}{m_g^{(2)}}. \quad (3.27)$$

3.1.3.2 Tidal forces

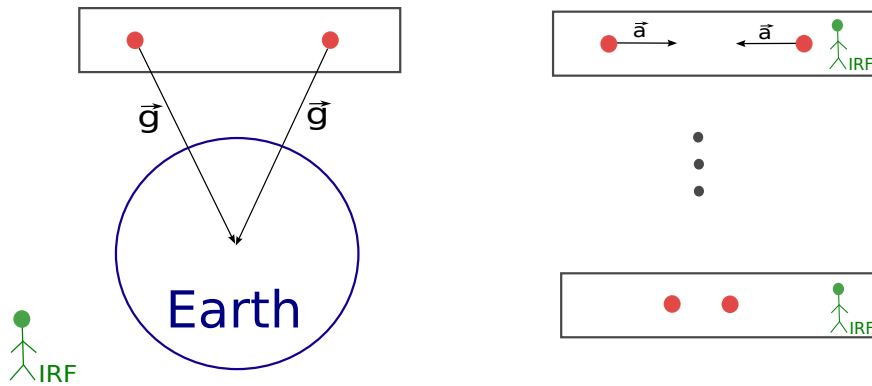


Figure 3.2: In the left there are two particles which are in a free fall to the earth and the inertial reference frame (IRF) is to the side of the earth, he observes a diagonal trajectory of the bodies. In the right we set the IRF inside the box with the two bodies, and he observes that there is a strange force which makes the bodies get together.

In the figure 3.2 we can see an scheme of the effect of the tidal forces on two particles inside a box. This box is in a free fall to the earth, an observer with an inertial reference frame next to the earth will observe a kind of diagonal trajectory for both particles to the center of the earth but if we place our inertial reference frame inside the box we will see that both particles will join together why? In the Newtonian mechanics we would say that there is a fictitious force ² that makes the objects attract each other but in fact, there is no imaginary force, there is a non homogeneous gravitational field, so *the tidal forces are an effect of the non homogeneity of the gravitational field, these are physical and important forces.*

3.1.3.3 Light deflection and gravitational red shift

In the figure 3.1 we can see that even the light is affected by the gravity, in the Newtonian theory this was something impossible to imagine!, we need then a theory to describe this effect.

²Newton never used the term fictitious force, that term was introduced by the Mach's formalism for the mechanics.

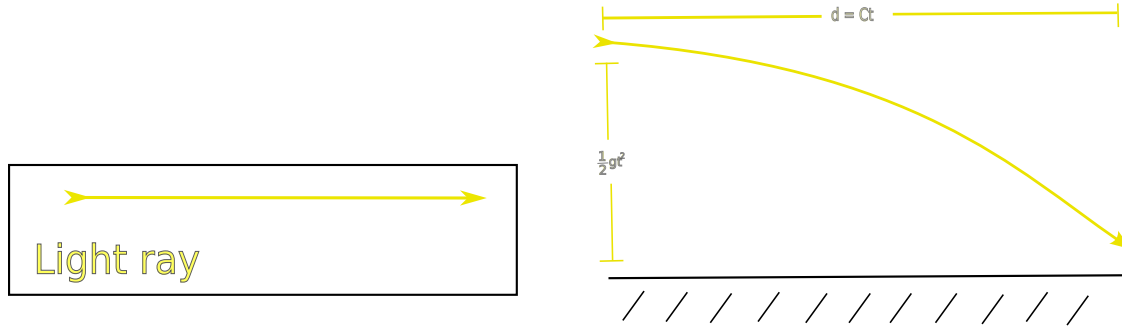


Figure 3.3: In the left there is a light ray seeing from an inertial reference frame inside the box, and in the right there is the same ray but seeing from the earth.

There are some other effects of the gravity on the light, like the color shift, this is a gravitational Doppler effect, so, lets suppose two observers Alice (A) and Bob (B), Alice is in a free fall at a distance h from Bob and sends a light pulse, then Bob gets it and in the moment he gets it Alice sends another beam what is the relation between the Alice and bob interval times?. To solve this we will suppose the gravity is uniform and we will set a reference frame such that $\vec{g} = \vec{a}$ so for Alice

$$Z_A = h + \frac{1}{2}gt^2 \quad (3.28)$$

$$Z_B = \frac{1}{2}gt^2. \quad (3.29)$$

Alice sends the first signal at a time t_1 then the position of the beam Z is

$$Z = Z_A(t_1) - C(t - t_1) = h + \frac{1}{2}gt_1^2 - C(t - t_1), \quad (3.30)$$

it arrives to Bob at $t = T_1$ then

$$h + \frac{1}{2}gt_1^2 - C(T_1 - t_1) = \frac{1}{2}gT_1^2. \quad (3.31)$$

Alice sends the second signal at $t = t_1 + \Delta\tau_A$ then

$$Z = Z_A(t_1 + \Delta\tau_A) - C(t - t_1 - \Delta\tau_A). \quad (3.32)$$

And it lands on Bob at $t = T_1 + \Delta\tau_B$ thus

$$h + \frac{1}{2}g(t_1 + \Delta\tau_A)^2 - C(T_1 + \Delta\tau_B - t_1 - \Delta\tau_A) = \frac{1}{2}g(T_1 + \Delta\tau_B)^2 \quad (3.33)$$

Lest expand 3.33 then

$$h + \frac{1}{2}g(t_1 + \Delta\tau_A)^2 - C(T_1 + \Delta\tau_B - t_1 - \Delta\tau_A) = \frac{1}{2}g(T_1 + \Delta\tau_B)^2, \quad (3.34)$$

$$h + \frac{1}{2}g(t_1^2 + 2t_1\Delta\tau_A + \Delta\tau_A^2) - C(T_1 + \Delta\tau_B - t_1 - \Delta\tau_A) = \frac{1}{2}g(T_1^2 + 2T_1\Delta\tau_B + \Delta\tau_B^2). \quad (3.35)$$

Using the equation 3.31 in the right hand side of the last equation and simplifying the h and $\frac{1}{2}gt_1^2$ then we have

$$\begin{aligned} gt_1\Delta\tau_A + \frac{1}{2}g\Delta\tau_A^2 - C(\Delta\tau_B - \Delta\tau_A) &= gT_1\Delta\tau_B + \frac{1}{2}g\Delta\tau_B^2, \\ \Delta\tau_A(gt_1 + C) + \frac{1}{2}g\Delta\tau_A^2 &= \Delta\tau_B(gT_1 + C) + \frac{1}{2}g\Delta\tau_B^2. \end{aligned}$$

Dividing all by C and remembering that in Earth $g\Delta\tau_i \ll C$ then we have

$$\Delta\tau_A \left(1 + \frac{gt_1}{C}\right) = \Delta\tau_B \left(1 + \frac{gT_1}{C}\right) \quad (3.36)$$

$$\Delta\tau_B = \left(1 + \frac{gt_1}{C}\right) \left(1 + \frac{gT_1}{C}\right)^{-1} \Delta\tau_A, \quad (3.37)$$

now using the geometric series $\frac{1}{1+x} = 1 - x + x^2 - x^3 + \dots$ to first order because, in the Earth $gt_i \leq C$ thus

$$\Delta\tau_B \approx \left[1 + \frac{gt_1}{C} - \frac{gT_1}{C} - g^2 \frac{t_1 T_1}{C^2}\right] \Delta\tau_A \approx \left[1 - \frac{g}{C}(T_1 - t_1)\right] \Delta\tau_A. \quad (3.38)$$

The times seems to run slower in B than in A we can conclude then that *the time runs slower where the gravitational field is stronger*. Here we can also see two things, the first one is that the compactness appears again because

$$\Delta\tau_B \approx \left[1 - \frac{gh}{C^2}\right] \Delta\tau_A = \left[1 + \frac{\phi_B - \phi_A}{C^2}\right] \Delta\tau_A, \quad (3.39)$$

then we see the compactness appears and tells us how fast will run the time of an observer. The other thing we can see is a blue shift because using the relation between time and frequency $\Delta\tau_i = \frac{\lambda_i}{C}$ we then have

$$\lambda_B \approx \left(1 - \frac{gh}{C^2}\right) \lambda_A \quad (3.40)$$

and because the second term in the parenthesis is positive the wavelength of *Bob* will be each time shorter, show there will be a blue shift, or what is the same a Doppler effect when the ambulance (Alice with her laser) comes closer to Bob.

3.1.4 Einstein's equivalence principle and the space-time

Einstein introduced the space-time structure to his theory, this to make a coupled theory of space and time, in the Newtonian theory the space is absolute and the time is absolute but not together, this was the Einstein's contribution to physics, neither time nor space are absolute separately but joint they are, such a structure has a special geometry, called a pseudo-Reinmannian geometry, this because in these geometries there are negative and positive or even null vector modulus, their physical interpretation will be discussed later. A space-time diagram is a representation of the physical events, for example for the blue shift problem the diagram is represented in the figure 3.4.

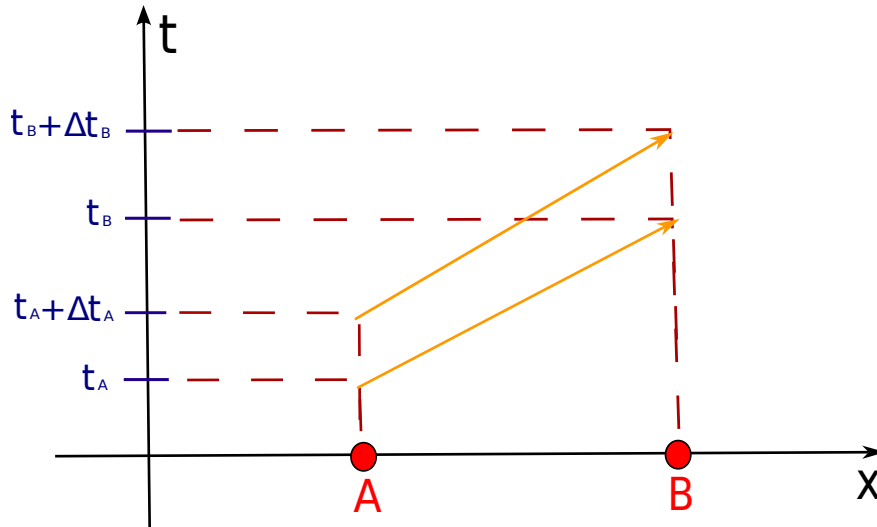


Figure 3.4: Space-time diagram representation for the Doppler effect analyzed before.

Lets study this, in a Minkowskian structure we have got the following relation

$$C^3 d\tau^2 = C^2 dt^2 - dx^2 - dy^2 - dz^2, \quad (3.41)$$

but lets see what happens if we modify it a bit like this

$$C^2 d\tau^2 = \left(1 + \frac{2\phi}{C^2}\right) C^2 dt^2 - \left(1 - \frac{2\phi}{C^2}\right) (dx^2 + dy^2 + dz^2), \quad (3.42)$$

as we can see for Alice and Bob there are no physical displacement, only temporal, so their proper times are, using the equation 3.42 are

$$\Delta\tau_A^2 = \left(1 + \frac{2\phi_A}{C^2}\right) \Delta t^2, \quad (3.43)$$

$$\Delta\tau_B^2 = \left(1 + \frac{2\phi_B}{C^2}\right) \Delta t^2. \quad (3.44)$$

Now, taking the square root of both equations and using Taylor expansion to first order we then have

$$\Delta\tau_A \approx \left(1 + \frac{\phi_A}{C^2}\right) \Delta t, \quad (3.45)$$

$$\Delta\tau_B \approx \left(1 + \frac{\phi_B}{C^2}\right) \Delta t. \quad (3.46)$$

It is easy to see that the relation between their proper times is

$$\Delta\tau_B \approx \left(1 + \frac{\phi_B}{C^2}\right) \left(1 + \frac{\phi_A}{C^2}\right)^{-1} \Delta\tau_A \quad (3.47)$$

Using now the geometrical series because in the earth the compactness is really low $\phi/C^2 \ll 1$ finally we then have

$$\Delta\tau_B \approx \left(1 + \frac{\phi_B - \phi_A}{C^2}\right) \Delta\tau_A. \quad (3.48)$$

This is a really strong result because changing the plane geometric structure of the Minkowskian space-time we will return the result we had obtain before with the light blue shift, this is a straight proof that we need a more geometrical an general theory of the relativity.

3.2 First steps on general relativity

From now on me will move to a more physical territory using all the abstract tools developed by the mathematicians, first we're going to learn how to crawl, then to walk and at the end how to run, because the general relativity is in fact a theory of *the electrodynamics of bodies in movement* the heart of a movement, from a physical point of view, is the notion of position and even more important, the notion of distance, this in mathematics, in a topological space can be defined using a topoly on the topological space, here in the same way we're going to define a metric on the manifold, what we will call a metric tensor.

3.2.1 Metric tensor

Lets see how to make the notion of distance over M , for example, lets look at $\mathbb{R}^3$. Let $\vec{X}(t)$ a curve on $\mathbb{R}^3$ and an open interval $a < t < b$ so the arc length L is given by

$$L = \int_a^b ds = \int_a^b \left[\frac{d\vec{X}}{dt} \cdot \frac{d\vec{X}}{dt} \right]^{1/2} dt, \quad (3.49)$$

where $\vec{X}$ is the tangent vector to the curve, we see here rises the notion of inner product of these tangent vectors does it mean that always an inner product give us a notion of distance? The fast answer is yes, but the long answer is no, the notion of inner product is more related to the notion of a topology of the vector space, in our case of the tangent space to a point p on the manifold M .

The notion of distance is a kind of combinations between the notion of topology or inner product with the physical structure of the problem, there are many maps or inner products that satisfies the axioms of a topology or the inner product is the physical meaning what rises the notion of distance, therefore to find such a distance lets define the metric tensor $\mathbb{G}$

$$\mathbb{G} : T_p(M) \times T_p(M) \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, \quad (3.50)$$

and in our notation the application of the metric tensor $\mathbb{G}$ to two vectors is

$$\mathbb{G}(\vec{A}, \vec{B}) = \vec{A} \cdot \vec{B}. \quad (3.51)$$

Definition 16 A metric tensor in $p \in M$ is a tensor $\mathbb{G}$ of type $\binom{0}{2}$, known also as bilinear form, such that satisfies the following properties:

1. $\mathbb{G}(\vec{X}, \vec{Y}) = \mathbb{G}(\vec{Y}, \vec{X}) \forall \vec{X}, \vec{Y} \in T_p(M)$.
2. $\mathbb{G}(\vec{X}, \vec{Y}) = 0 \forall \vec{Y} \in T_p \Leftrightarrow \vec{X} = \vec{0}$ this means the metric tensor is not degenerated.

In differential geometry we're always interested in a metric such that it is Riemannian this means *the metric has a signature mostly positive*, this means the metric tensor is positive-defined. In general relativity we're interested in Lorentizan metrics, they are those whose signature has the form $- + + \dots$ here the metric is not necessarily positive-defined.

Definition 17 A Riemannian manifold es a pair $(M, \mathbb{G})$ where M is a differentiable manifold and $\mathbb{G}$ is the metric tensor field, which can be Riemannian or not.

In general relativity such a pair is known as space-time.

In this way we can calculate a length curve L as

$$L = \int_a^b \left[\mathbb{G}(\vec{X}, \vec{X}) \right]_{\lambda(t)}^{1/2}, \quad (3.52)$$

and given a coordinate chart we can write the metric tensor as

$$\mathbb{G} = g_{\alpha\beta} dx^\alpha \otimes dx^\beta. \quad (3.53)$$

Definition 18 *The metric $\mathbb{G}$ is not degenerated, thus this must be invertible. The inverse metric is a symmetric tensor field of type $\binom{2}{0}$ denoted by $\mathbb{G}^{-1}$ such that*

$$g^{ac} g_{cb} = \delta_b^a. \quad (3.54)$$

Definition 19 *The Lorentzian signature is defined such that for any point p in the manifold we can choose an orthonormal basis $\{\mathbf{e}_\alpha\}$ such that*

$$\mathbb{G}(\mathbf{e}_\alpha, \mathbf{e}_\beta) = g_{\alpha\beta} \equiv \text{Diagonal}[-1, 1, 1, 1, \dots]. \quad (3.55)$$

This basis is not unique and we must set a relation between basis

$$\begin{aligned} \mathbf{e}_{\bar{\alpha}} &= \Lambda_{\bar{\alpha}}^\beta \mathbf{e}_\beta \rightarrow g_{\bar{\alpha}\bar{\beta}} = \mathbb{G}(\mathbf{e}_{\bar{\alpha}}, \mathbf{e}_{\bar{\beta}}) = \mathbb{G}(\Lambda_{\bar{\alpha}}^\mu \mathbf{e}_\mu, \Lambda_{\bar{\beta}}^\nu \mathbf{e}_\nu) \\ &= \Lambda_{\bar{\alpha}}^\mu \Lambda_{\bar{\beta}}^\nu \mathbb{G}(\mathbf{e}_\mu, \mathbf{e}_\nu) = \Lambda_{\bar{\alpha}}^\mu \Lambda_{\bar{\beta}}^\nu g_{\mu\nu}. \end{aligned}$$

All the basis are related by Lorentz transformations.

3.2.2 Proper time and an introduction to paths

Due to the nature of the space-time manifold $(\mathbb{R}^4, \mathbb{G})$ the vectors in this space have a particular behavior.

Definition 20 *On a Lorentzian manifold $(M, \mathbb{G})$ a non zero vector $\vec{X} \in T_p(M)$ is*

- A time-like vector $\mathbb{G}(\vec{X}, \vec{X}) < 0$.
- A null or light-like vector $\mathbb{G}(\vec{X}, \vec{X}) = 0$.
- A space-like vector $\mathbb{G}(\vec{X}, \vec{X}) > 0$.

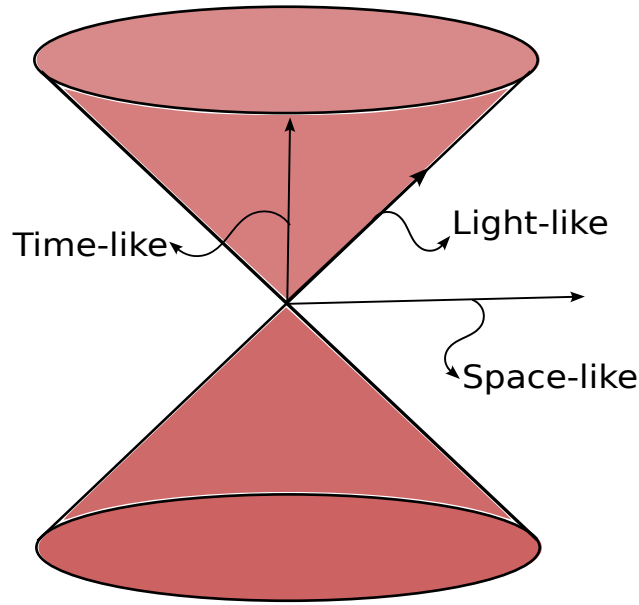


Figure 3.5: The light cone for the space-time structure, in the x -axis there is $\mathbb{R}^3$ and in the y axis there is the coordinate time t , a space-like vector is a vector which lives outwards the cone, a light-like lives on the border of the cone and a time-like lives inside the cone.

In the figure 3.5 there is a graphical representations of these three kinds of vectors, if we adopt a mostly positive signature, and from the postulates of the special relativity we can see the vectors with physical meaning are the time and light like vectors, because we can reach and not even get over the light speed so everything will be inside the cone and the objects that travel at the speed of light will be on the cone border, a space-link thus wont have any physical meaning.

We will see we can associate an observer with a time-like vector, therefore we'll focus on the properties of these vector, moreover on the characteristics of their tangent space $T_p(M)$, first we must see that if $\{\mathbf{e}_\mu\}$ is basis of orthonormal vectors in p , then the metric tensor has components

$$\mathbb{G}(\mathbf{e}_\alpha, \mathbf{e}_\mu) = \eta_{\alpha\beta} \quad (3.56)$$

such that $T_p(M)$ has exactly the same structure that the Minkowski space-time.

The time-like trajectory in a Lorentizan manifold $(M, \mathbb{G})$ is given by an integral curve such that $\vec{X}$ is always time-like or in a more formal way $\mathbb{G}(\vec{X}, \vec{X}) < 0$ see figure 3.6.

Lets see the behavior of this curve. Let $\lambda(v)$ a smooth time-like curve such that $\lambda(0) = p$ and we can find an expression for a tangent vector $\vec{X}^a$, which is time-like, therefore we can define a proper time

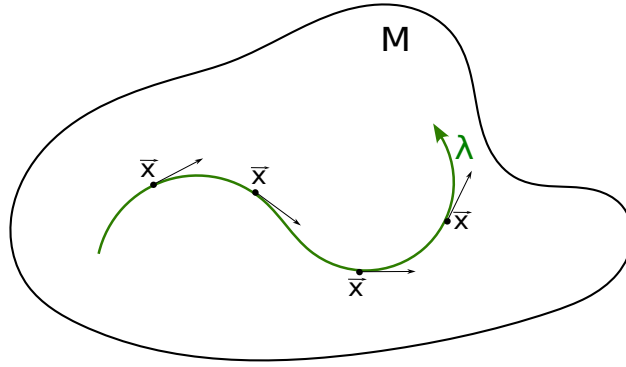


Figure 3.6: Graphical representation of an integral time-like curve on a manifold M .

$$\frac{d\tau}{dv} = -\sqrt{-(g_{ab}\vec{x}^a\vec{x}^b)|_{\lambda(v)}} \quad \& \quad \tau(0) = 0. \quad (3.57)$$

We must remember $ds^2 = d\vec{X} \cdot d\vec{X} = g_{\alpha\beta}dx^\alpha dx^\beta$ this is given a coordinate basis in a coordinate chart $\phi = \{x^0, x^1, x^2, x^3\} \in \mathbb{R}^4$ thus

$$\frac{dx^2}{dv^2} = g_{\alpha\beta} \frac{dx^\alpha}{dv} \frac{dx^\beta}{dv}, \quad (3.58)$$

using a Minkowski space-time we have

$$d\tau^2 = -g_{\mu\nu}dx^\mu dx^\nu = -ds^2, \quad (3.59)$$

this allows us to see that $\vec{X} = X^\alpha \frac{d}{dx^\alpha}$ therefore $X^\alpha = \frac{dx^\alpha}{dv}$ we can then integrate and find an expression for the proper time

$$\tau = \int_0^{v_q} \left[- \left(g_{\mu\nu} \frac{dx^\mu}{dv} \frac{dx^\nu}{dv} \right) \right]_{\lambda(v)}^{1/2} du. \quad (3.60)$$

We will see later that the time-like vectors can be parameterized from a proper time like 3.60, for the null-like ones we gotta chose an special curve, this is because the equation 3.60 ins related to geodesics. We're going to suppose $v = \tau$, the parameter is the proper time, then developing the equation 3.60

$$\begin{aligned} \tau &= \int_0^\tau \left[- \left(g_{\mu\nu} \frac{dx^\mu}{d\tau} \frac{dx^\nu}{d\tau} \right) \right]^{1/2} d\tau, \\ \tau &= \int_0^\tau [-U^\mu U_\mu]^{1/2} d\tau. \end{aligned}$$

For the expression 3.60 become the proper time, we gotta impose that the tangent quadri-vector has norm -1 for any coordinate chart.

In the study of mechanics there is an important question, what is the path a test particle will follow in certain conditions? And why, from an infinity family of trajectories, did the particle choose its trajectory? To answer this a mathematical theory was developed, what we in physics known as the variational principles, let M a manifold and $\lambda(\tau)$ a time-like integral curve on M and $\lambda(\tau')$ alternative integral curves, see figure 3.7, thus the proper time is given by

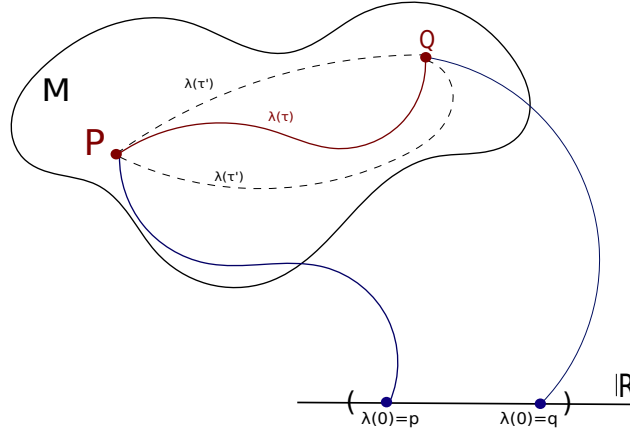


Figure 3.7: The real time-like trajectory a particle will follow is $\lambda(\tau)$ and the other two will be little different trajectories but with initial and final points fixed.

$$\tau[\lambda(v)] = \int_0^1 G(x(\lambda(v)), \dot{x}(\lambda(v))) du, \quad (3.61)$$

$$G = [-g_{\mu\nu}(x(\lambda(v))) \dot{x}^\mu(\lambda(v)) \dot{x}^\nu(\lambda(v))]^{1/2}, \quad (3.62)$$

Using the equations 3.61 and 3.62 we want to formulate the following problem, how must be the magnitude of the metric G such that the proper time is stationary this means, it is minimum, or maximum or a seat value. Lets find time-like curve $\lambda(v)$ to extreme the integral 3.61.

Let us denote the correct chart as $x(\lambda)$ and the incorrect one as

$$X(\lambda) = x(\lambda) + \eta(\lambda), \quad (3.63)$$

where $\eta(\lambda)$ is the difference between the real and the wrong path, and because the initial and end point are fixed, thus

$$\eta(\lambda(0)) = \eta(\lambda(1)) = 0. \quad (3.64)$$

The integral $\tau[\lambda]$ taken along the wrong curve $X(\lambda)$ must be larger than that along the right curve $x(\lambda)$, no matter how close the former is to the latter. To express this requirement, we will introduce a parameter α and redefine $X(\lambda)$ to be

$$X(\lambda) = x(\lambda) + \alpha\eta(\lambda), \quad (3.65)$$

The integral S taken along the curve $X(\lambda)$ now depends on the parameter α , so let's call it $\tau(\alpha)$. The right curve $x(\lambda)$ is obtained from 3.65 by setting $\alpha = 0$. Thus the requirement that τ is minimum for the right curve $x(\lambda)$ implies that $\tau(\alpha)$ is stationary at $\alpha = 0$. With this result, we have converted our problem to the traditional problem from elementary calculus of making sure that an ordinary function [namely $\tau(\alpha)$] has a minimum at α specified point $\alpha = 0$. To ensure this, we must just check that the derivative $\frac{d\tau}{d\alpha}$ is zero when $\alpha = 0$.

The integral $\tau(\alpha)$ is

$$\tau(\alpha) = \int_0^1 G(x(\lambda), \dot{x}(\lambda), \lambda) dv = \int_0^1 G(x + \alpha\eta, \dot{x} + \alpha\dot{\eta}) dv. \quad (3.66)$$

To differentiate 3.66 with respect to α , we note that α appears in the integrand G , so we need to evaluate $\frac{\partial G}{\partial \alpha}$. Since α appears in two of the arguments of G , this gives two terms, namely (using the chain rule)

$$\frac{\partial G(x + \alpha\eta, \dot{x} + \alpha\dot{\eta}, \lambda)}{\partial \alpha} = \eta \frac{\partial G}{\partial x} + \dot{\eta} \frac{\partial G}{\partial \dot{x}}, \quad (3.67)$$

and for $\frac{d\tau}{d\alpha}$ which has to be zero

$$\frac{d\tau}{d\alpha} = \int_0^1 \frac{\partial G}{\partial \alpha} dv = \int_0^1 \left(\eta \frac{\partial G}{\partial x^\mu} + \dot{\eta} \frac{\partial G}{\partial \dot{x}^\mu} \right) dv = 0. \quad (3.68)$$

We need to rewrite the second term on the right using integration by parts'

$$\int_0^1 \dot{\eta}(\lambda) \frac{\partial G}{\partial \dot{x}^\mu} = \left[\eta(\lambda) \frac{\partial G}{\partial \dot{x}^\mu} \right]_0^1 - \int_0^1 \eta(\lambda) \frac{d}{d\lambda} \left(\frac{\partial G}{\partial \dot{x}^\mu} \right) du, \quad (3.69)$$

Because η is zero in the initial and end point is zero, the second term goes to zero, thus

$$\int_0^1 \dot{\eta}(\lambda) \frac{\partial G}{\partial \dot{x}^\mu} du = - \int_0^1 \eta(\lambda) \frac{d}{d\lambda} \left(\frac{\partial G}{\partial \dot{x}^\mu} \right) du. \quad (3.70)$$

Inserting this equation into 3.68 we find that

$$\int_0^1 \eta(\lambda) \left(\frac{d}{dv} \left(\frac{\partial G}{\partial \dot{x}^\mu} \right) - \frac{\partial G}{\partial x^\mu} \right) du = 0, \quad (3.71)$$

thus we have arrived into the Euler- Lagrange equation for G :

$$\frac{d}{dv} \left(\frac{\partial G}{\partial \dot{x}^\mu} \right) - \frac{\partial G}{\partial x^\mu} = 0. \quad (3.72)$$

Computing the partial derivatives we will have

$$\frac{\partial G}{\partial \dot{x}^\mu} = -\frac{1}{G} g_{\mu\nu} \dot{x}^\nu, \quad (3.73)$$

$$\frac{\partial G}{\partial x^\mu} = -\frac{1}{2G} \partial_\mu g_{\nu D} \dot{x}^\nu \dot{x}^D. \quad (3.74)$$

Now, before solving the Euler-Lagrange equation for G lets give a deeper look into the relation between the curve, the proper time and G

$$G = \frac{d\tau}{d\lambda} \rightarrow \frac{d}{d\lambda} = \frac{d\tau}{d\lambda} \frac{d}{d\tau} = G \frac{d}{d\tau}. \quad (3.75)$$

Using this equation, the Euler lagrange equation thus we will have the following development. Multiplying the equation 3.72 by G we will have

$$G \frac{d}{d\tau} \left(\frac{\partial G}{\partial \dot{x}^\mu} \right) - G \frac{\partial G}{\partial x^\mu} = 0,$$

using the chain rule, therefore

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{d}{d\tau} \left[\frac{\partial}{\partial \dot{x}^\mu} \left(\frac{1}{2} G^2 \right) \right] - \frac{\partial}{\partial x^\mu} \left(\frac{1}{2} G^2 \right) &= 0, \\ \frac{1}{2} G^2 &= \frac{1}{2} g_{\alpha\beta} \dot{x}^\alpha \dot{x}^\beta = \mathcal{L}. \end{aligned}$$

$\mathcal{L}$ is in fact the Lagrangian of the system, thus the equation 3.72 becomes

$$\frac{d}{d\tau} \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial \dot{x}^\mu} \mathcal{L} \right) - \frac{\partial}{\partial x^\mu} \mathcal{L} = 0. \quad (3.76)$$

Now, we gotta calculate the partial derivatives

$$\frac{\partial}{\partial x^\mu} \mathcal{L} = \frac{1}{2} \frac{\partial}{\partial x^\mu} (g_{\alpha\beta} \dot{x}^\alpha \dot{x}^\beta) = \frac{1}{2} (\partial_\mu g_{\alpha\beta} \dot{x}^\alpha \dot{x}^\beta), \quad (3.77)$$

$$\frac{\partial}{\partial \dot{x}^\mu} \mathcal{L} = \frac{1}{2} \frac{\partial}{\partial \dot{x}^\mu} (g_{\alpha\beta} \dot{x}^\alpha \dot{x}^\beta) = \frac{1}{2} (g_{\alpha\beta} \delta^\alpha_\mu \dot{x}^\beta + g_{\alpha\beta} \dot{x}^\alpha \delta^\beta_\mu) = \frac{1}{2} (g_{\mu\beta} \dot{x}^\beta + g_{\alpha\mu} \dot{x}^\alpha). \quad (3.78)$$

Using both equation in the Euler-Lagrange equation then

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{d}{d\tau} \left[\frac{1}{2} (\partial_\mu g_{\alpha\beta} \dot{x}^\alpha \dot{x}^\beta) \right] &= \frac{1}{2} (g_{\mu\beta} \ddot{x}^\beta + \partial_l g_{\mu\beta} \dot{x}^\beta \dot{x}^\alpha + g_{\alpha\mu} \ddot{x}^\alpha + \partial_l g_{\alpha\mu} \dot{x}^\alpha \dot{x}^l), \\ \frac{1}{2} (g_{\mu\beta} \ddot{x}^\beta + \partial_l g_{\mu\beta} \dot{x}^\beta \dot{x}^\alpha + g_{\alpha\mu} \ddot{x}^\alpha + \partial_l g_{\alpha\mu} \dot{x}^\alpha \dot{x}^l) &- \frac{1}{2} (\partial_\mu g_{\alpha\beta} \dot{x}^\alpha \dot{x}^\beta), \end{aligned}$$

in the first two terms we can use the dummies indices $\alpha = \beta$ and in the third one $l = \alpha$, in the fourth $\beta = l$ thus

$$g_{\alpha\mu} \ddot{x}^\alpha + \frac{1}{2} (\partial_\alpha g_{\mu\beta} + \partial_\beta g_{\alpha\mu} - \partial_\mu g_{\alpha\beta}) \dot{x}^\alpha \dot{x}^\beta = 0. \quad (3.79)$$

Multiplying the equation 3.79 by $g^{\mu\lambda}$ we will have

$$\delta^\lambda_\alpha \ddot{x}^\alpha + \frac{1}{2} g^{\mu\lambda} (\partial_\alpha g_{\mu\beta} + \partial_\beta g_{\alpha\mu} - \partial_\mu g_{\alpha\beta}) \dot{x}^\alpha \dot{x}^\beta = 0, \quad (3.80)$$

$$\ddot{x}^\lambda + \frac{1}{2} g^{\mu\lambda} (\partial_\alpha g_{\mu\beta} + \partial_\beta g_{\alpha\mu} - \partial_\mu g_{\alpha\beta}) \dot{x}^\alpha \dot{x}^\beta = 0. \quad (3.81)$$

$$\frac{d^2 x^\lambda}{d\tau^2} + \Gamma^\lambda_{\alpha\beta} \frac{dx^\alpha}{d\tau} \frac{dx^\beta}{d\tau} = 0, \quad (3.82)$$

$$\Gamma^\lambda_{\alpha\beta} = \frac{1}{2} g^{\lambda\mu} (\partial_\alpha g_{\beta\mu} + \partial_\beta g_{\alpha\mu} - \partial_\mu g_{\alpha\beta}). \quad (3.83)$$

The equation 3.82 it is not more than the differential equation for the geodesics in the space-time, we will proof this in few for now, we must make some definitions. $\Gamma^\mu_{\alpha\beta}$ are known as the Cristoffel symbols, they need a kind of connection, that is because we have derivatives along the curve, but a curve at any point can have a different tangent space, so each tangent vector is different and we need something to connect those spaces, here that connection is the Levi-Civita connection, which one we will develop later. A particular case is when the Cristoffel symbols is zero, we will obtain that the quadri-acceleration is zero, this is the domain of the spetial relativity so we can see physically that *the presence of no Cristoffel symbols mean a zero quadri-acceleration, or a flat space-time, a Minkowski space, therefore the presence of accelerations or the presence of a non zero Cristoffel symbols means the presence of a curved space-time.*

3.2.3 Covariant derivative

In the Euler-Lagrange equation for the metric determinant G we used derivatives, but here the derivatives are kind of special, why? To answer this, first let's examine a vectorial field V^a and let's see if its gradient is or not a tensor

$$T^\alpha_\beta = \partial_\beta V^\alpha. \quad (3.84)$$

To see how does T^α_β transforms let's suppose two coordinate charts $\phi = \{x^0, x^1, x^2, x^3\}$ and $\bar{\phi} = \{\bar{x}^0, \bar{x}^1, \bar{x}^2, \bar{x}^3\}$, thus

$$T^{\bar{\alpha}}_{\bar{\beta}} = \partial_{\bar{\beta}} V^{\bar{\alpha}} = \partial_{\bar{\beta}} \left(\frac{\partial x^{\bar{\alpha}}}{\partial x^\mu} V^\mu \right) = \frac{\partial x^\nu}{\partial x^{\bar{\beta}}} \frac{\partial}{\partial x^\nu} \left(\frac{\partial x^{\bar{\alpha}}}{\partial x^\mu} V^\mu \right) = \frac{\partial x^{\bar{\alpha}}}{\partial x^\mu} \frac{\partial x^\nu}{\partial x^{\bar{\beta}}} \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x^\nu} V^\mu \right) + \left(\frac{\partial x^\nu}{\partial x^{\bar{\beta}}} V^\mu \right) \frac{\partial}{\partial x^\nu} \frac{\partial x^{\bar{\alpha}}}{\partial x^\mu},$$

$$T^{\bar{\alpha}}_{\bar{\beta}} \neq \frac{\partial x^{\bar{\alpha}}}{\partial x^\mu} \frac{\partial x^\nu}{\partial x^{\bar{\beta}}} T^\mu_\nu.$$

Thus T^α_β as we had defined does not transform as a tensor, therefore we must look carefully on how do we take derivatives. The problem is in the fact that T^α_β as we had defined is only the derivatives of the components, but how about the derivatives of the basis vectors? They are also changing along the manifold, thus their derivatives must have been taken on count, to solve this we must introduce the notion of the *covariant derivative*.

Definition 21 A covariant derivative $\vec{\nabla}$ on a manifold M is a map from two vector fields X, Y to a vector field with the following properties.

Let X, Y, Z three smooth vector fields and f, g two smooth functions, the covariant derivative satisfies the following properties:

1. $\vec{\nabla}_{fX+gY} Z = f \vec{\nabla}_X Z + g \vec{\nabla}_Y Z.$
2. $\vec{\nabla}_X (Y + Z) = \vec{\nabla}_X Y + \vec{\nabla}_X Z.$
3. $\vec{\nabla}_X (fY) = f \vec{\nabla}_X Y + (\vec{\nabla}_X f) Y.$

From these properties we can see that

$$\vec{\nabla} Y : X \rightarrow \vec{\nabla}_X Y \quad (3.85)$$

is a linear map from $T_p(M)$ to itself, and

$$\vec{\nabla} f : X \rightarrow \vec{\nabla}_X f = x(f) \quad (3.86)$$

which is the definition of gradient. Lets see an example, let $X = x^\mu \mathbf{e}_\mu$, $Y = y^\mu \mathbf{e}_\mu$, thus lets calculate the covariant derivative

$$\begin{aligned} \vec{\nabla}_X Y &= \vec{\nabla}_X (y^\mu \mathbf{e}_\mu) = X(y^\mu) \mathbf{e}_\mu + y^\mu \vec{\nabla}_X \mathbf{e}_\mu \\ &= x^\nu \mathbf{e}_\nu (y^\mu) \mathbf{e}_\mu + y^\mu \vec{\nabla}_{x^\nu \mathbf{e}_\nu} \mathbf{e}_\mu = x^\nu \mathbf{e}_\nu (y^\mu) \mathbf{e}_\mu + y^\mu x^\nu \vec{\nabla}_{\mathbf{e}_\nu} \mathbf{e}_\mu, \\ \vec{\nabla}_X Y &= x^\nu \left[\mathbf{e}_\nu (y^\mu) \mathbf{e}_\mu + y^\mu \vec{\nabla}_{\mathbf{e}_\nu} \mathbf{e}_\mu \right] = x^\nu \left[\mathbf{e}_\nu (y^\mu) \mathbf{e}_\mu + y^\rho \Gamma_{\nu\rho}^\mu \right] \mathbf{e}_\mu \end{aligned} \quad (3.87)$$

where

$$\Gamma_{\nu\mu}^\rho \mathbf{e}_\rho = \vec{\nabla}_{\mathbf{e}_\nu} \mathbf{e}_\mu. \quad (3.88)$$

From the equation 3.87 we see then the covariant derivative is a map from a tangent space to itself, and whose components are given by

$$\left[\vec{\nabla}_X Y \right]^\mu = x^\nu \left[\mathbf{e}_\nu (y^\mu) + \Gamma_{\nu\rho}^\mu y^\rho \right], \quad (3.89)$$

and if we choose a coordinate chart, the components of the covariant derivative will be denoted by $y^\mu_{;\nu}$ are

$$y^\mu_{;\nu} = \partial_\nu y^\mu + \Gamma_{\nu\rho}^\mu y^\rho. \quad (3.90)$$

Here we see the importance of the derivatives of the basis vectors and their direct relation with the Cristoffel symbols, therefore we gotta do a definition

Definition 22 In a basis $\{\mathbf{e}_\mu\}$ the components of the connections are given by $\Gamma_{\rho\nu}^\mu \mathbf{e}_\mu$ called the Cristoffel symbols and are defined by

$$\vec{\nabla}_{\mathbf{e}_\rho} \mathbf{e}_\nu = \Gamma_{\rho\nu}^\mu \mathbf{e}_\mu. \quad (3.91)$$

Now, lets generalize the covariant derivative to tensor fields. If T is a tensor field $\binom{r}{s}$ then $\vec{\nabla} T$ is a tensor field of kind $\binom{r}{s+1}$. To show this, lets start with the one-forms:

$$\begin{aligned} \left(\vec{\nabla}_X \eta \right) (Y) &= \vec{\nabla}_X (\eta(Y)) - \eta \vec{\nabla}_X Y = \vec{\nabla}_X (\eta_\mu y^\mu) - \eta_\mu \left(\vec{\nabla}_X Y \right)^\mu, \\ &= x(\eta_\mu) y^\mu + \eta_\mu X(y^\mu) - \eta_\mu (x^\nu \mathbf{e}_\nu (y^\mu) + \Gamma_{\nu\rho}^\mu y^\rho x^\nu), \end{aligned}$$

$$\left(\vec{\nabla}_X \eta\right)(Y) = [X(\eta_\mu) - \Gamma_{\mu\nu}^\rho X^\nu \eta_\rho] y^\mu. \quad (3.92)$$

Therefore $\vec{\nabla}_X \eta$ is a co-vector field, and the application $\vec{\nabla} \eta$ is a tensor field of rank $\binom{0}{2}$ such that

$$\left(\vec{\nabla}_X \eta\right)_\mu = X(\eta_\mu) - \Gamma_{\mu\nu}^\rho x^\nu = x^\nu \mathbf{e}_\nu(\eta_\mu) - \Gamma_{\mu\nu}^\rho x^\nu \eta_\rho, \quad (3.93)$$

and the covariant derivative of the one-form, denoted by $\eta_{\mu;\nu}$ is given by

$$\eta_{\mu;\nu} = \mathbf{e}_\nu(\eta_\mu) - \Gamma_{\mu\nu}^\rho \eta_\rho. \quad (3.94)$$

Now, lets generalize all this development for a tensor field T of rank $\binom{r}{s}$, so lets take the covariant derivative $\vec{\nabla} T$

$$\begin{aligned} \vec{\nabla}_\rho T^{\mu_1 \dots \mu_r}_{\nu_1 \dots \nu_s} &= \partial_\rho T^{\mu_1 \dots \mu_r}_{\nu_1 \dots \nu_s} + \Gamma_{\sigma\rho}^{\mu_1} T^{\sigma \mu_2 \dots \mu_r}_{\nu_1 \dots \nu_s} + \dots + \Gamma_{\sigma\rho}^{\mu_r} T^{\mu_1 \dots \sigma}_{\nu_1 \dots \nu_s} \\ &\quad - \Gamma_{\nu_1\rho}^\sigma T^{\mu_1 \dots \mu_r}_{\sigma \nu_2 \dots \nu_s} - \dots - \Gamma_{\nu_s\rho}^\sigma T^{\mu_1 \dots \mu_r}_{\nu_1 \dots \sigma}, \end{aligned}$$

where the positive sings represents the Cristoffel symbols for the covariant derivatives of the vectors that compose the tensor and the negative ones are for the derivatives of the one-form that compose the tensor, and we must note that *the covariant derivative is taking a vector and carry it along another one.*

The second Newton's law, the uncoupled Maxwell laws, the Navier-Stokes equation, almost all the equations in physics are written in terms of second derivatives, therefore we gotta study the properties of second covariant derivatives, the usual partial derivative has the following property

$$\partial_\nu \partial_\mu f = \partial_\mu \partial_\nu f, \quad (3.95)$$

and let f a smooth functions, lets calculate its covariant derivatives

$$\vec{\nabla}_\nu \vec{\nabla}_\mu f = \partial_\nu \partial_\mu f - \Gamma_{\mu\nu}^\rho \partial_\rho f, \quad (3.96)$$

$$\vec{\nabla}_\mu \vec{\nabla}_\nu f = \partial_\mu \partial_\nu f - \Gamma_{\nu\mu}^\rho \partial_\rho f. \quad (3.97)$$

From these equation we can calculate the anti-symmetric part of these second covariant derivatives given by

$$\vec{\nabla}_{[\nu} \vec{\nabla}_{\mu]} f = -\Gamma_{[\mu\nu]}^\rho \partial_\rho f. \quad (3.98)$$

Thus if we want the second derivative to commute the Cristoffel symbol must be symmetric in the lower indices, but in general for a vector or a tensor this is not generally true.

Definition 23 A connection $\vec{\nabla}$ is free of torsion, if $\vec{\nabla}_A \vec{\nabla}_B f = \vec{\nabla}_B \vec{\nabla}_A f$ for any smooth function f which is equivalent to $\Gamma_{[\mu\nu]}^\rho = 0$.

To have a first step on the understating of the torsion, for example think on a particle in a circular motion, we know there is a curvature factor, but the particle keeps in the circular motion, if there is any force which changes the angular momentum therefore a torque appears, such a system has torsion.

Theorem 4 For any two free of torsion conditions, if X, Y are two vector fields, then

$$[X, Y] = \vec{\nabla}_X Y - \vec{\nabla}_Y X. \quad (3.99)$$

Let $\phi = \{x^0, x^1, x^2, x^3\}$ a coordinate chart, thus

$$\begin{aligned} x^\nu \vec{\nabla}_\nu y^\mu - y^\nu \vec{\nabla}_\nu x^\mu &= x^\nu \partial_\nu y^\mu + \Gamma_{\sigma\nu}^\mu x^\nu y^\sigma - y^\nu \partial_\nu x^\mu - \Gamma_{\nu\sigma}^\mu y^\nu x^\sigma \\ &= (x^\nu \partial_\nu y^\mu - y^\nu \partial_\nu x^\mu) + \Gamma_{\sigma\nu}^\mu x^\nu y^\sigma - \Gamma_{\nu\sigma}^\mu y^\nu x^\sigma + (\Gamma_{\sigma\nu}^\mu x^\sigma y^\nu - \Gamma_{\nu\sigma}^\mu x^\sigma y^\nu) \\ &= [X, Y]^\mu + 2\Gamma_{[\sigma\nu]}^\mu x^\nu y^\sigma, \end{aligned}$$

now, if there is no torsion, therefore the Cristoffel symbol commutes in the lower indices, thus

$$x^\nu \vec{\nabla}_\nu y^\mu - y^\nu \vec{\nabla}_\nu x^\mu = [X, Y]^\mu. \quad (3.100)$$

We can also define a torsion tensor as follows

$$T(X, Y) = \vec{\nabla}_X Y - \vec{\nabla}_Y X - [X, Y]. \quad (3.101)$$

Even if the theory is free of torsion, the second derivatives don't commute for a tensor field. The torsion is analogous to the rotation plane of the particle, *we can have curvature but not torsion*.

3.2.4 Levi-Civita connection

Theorem 5 Let M a manifold with a metric $\mathbb{G}$ therefore there is a Riemannian manifold $(M, \mathbb{G})$, there exist a free of torsion connections $\vec{\nabla}$ such that the metric is covariantly constant $\vec{\nabla} \mathbb{G} = 0$ (this is known as the Levi-Civita connection of metric connection).

Demonstration: Let X, Y, Z three vector fields, thus using the Leibniz rule and assuming the metric is covariantly constant, then

$$X (\mathbb{G}(Y, Z)) = \vec{\nabla}_X [\mathbb{G}(Y, Z)] = \mathbb{G} (\vec{\nabla}_X Y, Z) + \mathbb{G} (Y, \vec{\nabla}_X Z), \quad (3.102)$$

$$Y (\mathbb{G}(Z, X)) = \mathbb{G} (\vec{\nabla}_Y Z, X) + \mathbb{G} (Z, \vec{\nabla}_Y X), \quad (3.103)$$

$$Z (\mathbb{G}(Y, Z)) = \mathbb{G} (\vec{\nabla}_Z X, Y) + \mathbb{G} (X, \vec{\nabla}_Z Y), \quad (3.104)$$

$$H = X (\mathbb{G}(Y, Z)) = \vec{\nabla}_X [\mathbb{G}(Y, Z)] + Y (\mathbb{G}(Z, X)) - Z (\mathbb{G}(Y, Z)) \quad (3.105)$$

and if we assume the theory is free of torsion, then

$$H = 2\mathbb{G} (\vec{\nabla}_X Y, Z) - \mathbb{G} ([X, Y], Z) - \mathbb{G} ([Z, X], Y) + \mathbb{G} ([Y, Z], X), \quad (3.106)$$

thus

$$\mathbb{G} (\vec{\nabla}_X Y, Z) = \frac{1}{2} [X (\mathbb{G}(Y, Z)) + Y (\mathbb{G}(Z, X)) - Z (\mathbb{G}(X, Z))] \quad (3.107)$$

$$+ \mathbb{G} ([X, Y], Z) + \mathbb{G} ([Z, X], Y) - \mathbb{G} ([Y, Z], X), \quad (3.108)$$

$$\mathbb{G} (\vec{\nabla}_{fX} Y, Z) = f\mathbb{G} (\vec{\nabla}_X Y, Z) = \mathbb{G} (f\vec{\nabla}_X Y, Z), \quad (3.109)$$

To finish the prove we must prove that $\mathbb{G}$ is in fact a metric tensor, therefore just rest to prove it is not degenerate, so lets do the following change of variable $X \rightarrow Xf$

$$\begin{aligned} \mathbb{G} (\vec{\nabla}_{Xf} Y, Z) &= \frac{1}{2} [fX (\mathbb{G}(Y, Z)) + Y (\mathbb{G}(Z, Xf)) - Z (\mathbb{G}(Xf, Y))] \\ &\quad + \mathbb{G} ([Xf, Y], Z) + \mathbb{G} ([Z, Xf], Y) - \mathbb{G} ([Y, Z], xf) \\ &= \frac{1}{2} [fX (\mathbb{G}(Y, Z)) + fY (\mathbb{G}(Z, X)) - fZ (\mathbb{G}(X, Y))] \\ &\quad + f\mathbb{G} ([X, Y], Z) + f\mathbb{G} ([Z, X], Y) - f\mathbb{G} ([Y, Z], x) = \mathbb{G} (f\vec{\nabla}_X Y, Z), \end{aligned}$$

$$\mathbb{G} (\vec{\nabla}_{fX} Y - f\vec{\nabla}_X Y, Z) = 0. \quad (3.110)$$

Lets calculate the components of the Levi-Civita connection respect to a coordinate basis

$$[\mathbf{e}_\mu, \mathbf{e}_\nu] = \Gamma_{\mu\nu}^\sigma \mathbf{e}_\sigma - \Gamma_{\nu\mu}^\sigma \mathbf{e}_\sigma = 0. \quad (3.111)$$

The equation 3.111 is valid when the theory is free of torsion, thus, lets calculate the following application

$$\mathbb{G}(\vec{\nabla}_{\mathbf{e}_\rho} \mathbf{e}_\nu, \mathbf{e}_\sigma) = \frac{1}{2} [\mathbf{e}_\rho(g_{\nu\sigma}) + \mathbf{e}_\nu(g_{\sigma\rho}) - \mathbf{e}_\sigma(g_{\rho\sigma})] = \frac{1}{2} [\partial_\rho(g_{\nu\sigma}) + \partial_\nu(g_{\sigma\rho}) - \partial_\sigma(g_{\rho\sigma})],$$

$$\mathbb{G}(\Gamma_{\rho\nu}^\tau \mathbf{e}_\tau, \mathbf{e}_\sigma) = \Gamma_{\rho\nu}^\tau g_{\tau\sigma}, \quad (3.112)$$

$$\Gamma_{\nu\rho}^\mu = \frac{1}{2} g^{\mu\sigma} (\partial_\rho g_{\sigma\nu} + \partial_\nu g_{\sigma\rho} - \partial_\sigma g_{\nu\rho}). \quad (3.113)$$

3.2.5 Geodesics

When there is only gravitational interaction the trajectories a test particle will follow are given by the geodesics of the space-time but, first of all, what is a geodesic? A **geodesic** is the shortest path between two points on a manifold. In this order of ideas lets recover the equation we obtained the expression 3.82

$$\frac{d^2 x^\mu}{d\tau^2} + \Gamma_{\nu\rho}^\mu (X(\tau)) \frac{dx^\nu}{d\tau} \frac{dx^\rho}{d\tau} = 0, \quad (3.114)$$

there $\frac{dx^\mu}{d\tau} = X^\mu$ the components of X . If we want to talk about geodesics and tangent vectors we must have something to relate different tangent vectors from one point to another on the manifold, we must make an isomorphism to be able to connect the tangent spaces, therefore lets work on the equation 3.82,

$$\frac{d^2 x^\mu}{d\tau^2} = \frac{d}{d\tau} X^\mu (X(\tau)) = \frac{dx^\nu}{d\tau} \frac{\partial x^\mu}{\partial x^\nu} = X^\nu \partial_\nu X^\mu, \quad (3.115)$$

$$X^\nu (\partial_\nu X^\mu + \Gamma_{\nu\rho}^\mu X^\rho) = 0, \quad (3.116)$$

$$X^\nu \vec{\nabla}_\nu X^\mu = 0. \quad (3.117)$$

Therefore to find the geodesic and a relation between the tangent spaces, we must take X^μ and project it along the connections over itself.

Definition 24 Let M a manifold with connection $\vec{\nabla}$, an affinely parameterized geodesic is an integral curve of a vector field X that satisfies:

$$\vec{\nabla}_X X = 0. \quad (3.118)$$

In geometry, an affine transformation or affine map (also called affinity) between two affine spaces (in particular, two vector spaces) consists of a linear transformation followed by a translation:

$$X \rightarrow \mathbb{A}X + b, \quad (3.119)$$

In the finite-dimensional case, every affine transformation can be represented by a matrix $\mathbb{A}$ and a vector b of the vector space. Geometrically, an affine transformation in a Euclidean space is a transformation that preserves:

- The collinearity (and coplanarity) relationships between points, that is, points that fell on the same line (or on the same plane) before the transformation, are preserved after an affine transformation.
- The ratios between distances along a line, that is, for three different aligned points P_1, P_2, P_3 the reasons $|P_2P_1| / |P_3P_2|$ before and after the transformation are the same.

An affine transformation $f : \mathbb{A} \rightarrow \mathbb{A}'$ between two affine spaces $(\mathbb{A}, E, \delta)$ and $(\mathbb{A}', E', \delta')$ is an application between two points that acts linearly on the vectors that join them. Formally, f is an affine transformation if there exists a linear map g such that $\forall p, q \in \mathbb{A}$

$$f(p)\vec{f}(q) = g(\vec{pq}). \quad (3.120)$$

Before going on, let's remember the usefulness of this kind of affine transformations.

3.2.5.1 Affine transformations in Galilean relativity

In the classical mechanics there is a really important group that rules the inertial frames and the mechanics, the well known as the Galilean group.

Definition 25 *The **Galilean group** is a group $G = \langle \mathbb{T}, \circ \rangle$ composed by the Galilean transformations under the compositions bilinear operation.*

The Galilean transformations are the following three

1. The displacement of the origin of the reference frame

$$T_d(\vec{r}, t) \rightarrow (\vec{r} + \vec{r}', t + t'). \quad (3.121)$$

2. The rotations of the coordinate axis of the reference frame

$$T_r(\vec{r}, t) \rightarrow (\mathbb{R}\vec{r}, t) : \mathbb{R} \in SU(3). \quad (3.122)$$

3. Motion at uniform velocity $\vec{V}$

$$T_M(\vec{r}, t) \rightarrow (\vec{r} + \vec{V}t, t). \quad (3.123)$$

It is easy to prove that the position of a particle can be determined using these three transformations, in the following form

$$(\vec{r}', t') = (T_d \circ T_r) \vec{r} + \vec{r}t, \quad (3.124)$$

we see it is naturally an affine transformation all the mechanics we studied in the school or in the first year of our degrees is written in terms of affine transformations between inertial reference frames which move one each other at constant velocity.

3.2.5.2 Affine transformations in special relativity

In the same way we're gonna deduce the affine transform for Minkowskian space-time, let $\vec{x}'$ a vector which obeys an affine transformation as:

$$\vec{x}' = \mathcal{L}(\vec{x}) = \Lambda \vec{x} + \vec{a} \quad : \quad \vec{x}, \vec{a} \in \mathbb{R}^4, \quad \Lambda \in G_L,$$

Where G_L is the Lorentz's group, but before doing that, lets discover the linear transform case:

$$\vec{x}' = \Lambda \vec{x} \quad (3.125)$$

The transform Λ must give invariant the light cone so let $\vec{v}, \vec{w} \in \mathbb{R}^4$:

$$\langle \Lambda \vec{v}, \Lambda \vec{w} \rangle = \langle \vec{v}, \vec{w} \rangle \rightarrow (\Lambda \vec{v})^T \eta (\Lambda \vec{w}) = \vec{v}^T \eta \vec{w}$$

$$\vec{v}^T \Lambda^T \eta \Lambda \vec{w} = \vec{v}^T \eta \vec{w}$$

$$\eta = \Lambda^T \eta \Lambda \quad (3.126)$$

The equation 3.126 is a similarity transform, is easily to see that Λ only could have two values for its determinant $|\Lambda| = \pm 1$.

Demonstration:

$$|\eta| = |\Lambda^T \eta \Lambda| = |\Lambda^T| * |\eta| * |\Lambda|, \quad (3.127)$$

We can see in 3.126 that $|\eta| = -1$ and using the properties $|A| = |A^T|$ we can rewrite the equation 3.127 as:

$$1 = |\Lambda|^2 \rightarrow |\Lambda| = \pm 1.$$

This is only possible in three cases:

1. Temporal or parity inversions:

$$\Lambda = \text{diag}[\mp 1, \pm 1, \pm 1, \pm 1]$$

Respectively

2. Unitary transformations:

$$\Lambda = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & \vec{O}^T \\ \vec{O} & R \end{bmatrix} : R \in SO(3)$$

3. Speed boosts, for example a x boost:

$$\Lambda = \begin{bmatrix} \gamma & -v_x \gamma & 0 & 0 \\ -v_x \gamma & \gamma & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix} : \gamma = \frac{1}{\sqrt{1 - v_x^2}} \quad C = 1 \quad (3.128)$$

If we are out from the natural coordinates γ changes to $\gamma = \frac{1}{\sqrt{1 - \frac{v^2}{C^2}}}$

As the Galilean group the Lorentz's group is made by 6 elements, 3 rotations and 3 speed boosts, but in general:

$$\mathcal{L}(\vec{x}) = \Lambda \vec{x} + \vec{a} : \vec{x}, \vec{a} \in \mathbb{R}^4$$

That general form is more general than the last one, we obtain it from the Lorentz's group G_L and 4 translations, we call it the *Poincaré's group* $G_{\mathcal{P}}$.

Let $\mathcal{O} \wedge \bar{\mathcal{O}}$ inertial observers such that there is a relative movement between them, thus: $\bar{\mathcal{O}} \rightarrow v : v < 1$ relative to $\mathcal{O} \wedge v > 1$ in the x direction, thus the coordinates transformed are:

$$\begin{aligned} \bar{t} &= At + Bx \\ \bar{x} &= Ct + Dx \\ \bar{y} &= y \\ \bar{z} &= z \end{aligned}$$

Now, because the light cone is invariant we've got the following equation:

$$\begin{aligned} -t^2 + x^2 + y^2 + z^2 &= -\bar{t}^2 + \bar{x}^2 + \bar{y}^2 + \bar{z}^2 \\ -t^2 + x^2 &= -(A^2 - C^2)t^2 + (D^2 - B^2)x^2 + 2(CD - AB)tx \end{aligned}$$

$$A^2 - C^2 = 1$$

$$D^2 - B^2 = 1$$

$$AB = CD$$

This is a inconsistent system of equations, we've only 3 equations and fourth variables! But there're some special function that satisfies that equations, look at this equation: $\cosh^2(\phi) - \sinh^2(\phi) = 1$ THAT'S IT! There is our solution, thus:

$$\begin{aligned} A &= D = \cosh(\phi) \\ C &= B = -\sinh(\phi) \end{aligned}$$

Thus our Lorentz's transformation becomes:

$$\begin{bmatrix} \bar{t} \\ \bar{x} \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} \cosh(\phi) & -\sinh(\phi) \\ -\sinh(\phi) & \cosh(\phi) \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} t \\ x \end{bmatrix} \quad (3.129)$$

That is a beautiful solution! Looks like a rotation! But it is not a rotation, we don't even know what in the hell is ϕ so lets find out what is ϕ .

Let $\bar{x} = 0$ thus $0 = -t\sinh(\phi) + vt\cosh(\phi)$ solving for v we've got:

$$v = \tanh(\phi) \rightarrow \tanh^2(\phi) + \operatorname{sech}^2(\phi) = 1 \rightarrow \operatorname{sech}(\phi) = \sqrt{1 - v^2}$$

$$\gamma = \cosh(\phi) = \frac{1}{\sqrt{1 - v^2}} \quad (3.130)$$

$$\sinh(\phi) = \frac{v}{\sqrt{1 - v^2}} = \gamma v \quad (3.131)$$

With all of this, we can get the final form of our Lorentz's tranformation:

$$\begin{aligned}
\bar{t} &= \gamma(t - vx) \\
\bar{x} &= \gamma(x - vt) \\
\bar{y} &= y \\
\bar{z} &= z
\end{aligned}$$

If we are not in natural coordinates, the transformation look like this:

$$\begin{aligned}
\bar{t} &= \gamma\left(t - \frac{v}{c^2}x\right) \\
\bar{x} &= \gamma(x - vt) \\
\bar{y} &= y \\
\bar{z} &= z
\end{aligned}$$

That is something really beautiful, only with the postulates easily we can get nature of the mechanics for high speeds, and easily see that the nature again follows a group's structure! Having all on count we can get the Lorentz's transform:

$$[\Lambda] = \begin{bmatrix} \gamma & -\gamma v_x & -\gamma v_y & -\gamma v_z \\ -\gamma v_x & 1 + (\gamma - 1)\frac{v_x^2}{v^2} & (\gamma - 1)\frac{v_x v_y}{v^2} & (\gamma - 1)\frac{v_x v_z}{v^2} \\ -\gamma v_y & (\gamma - 1)\frac{v_y v_x}{v^2} & 1 + (\gamma - 1)\frac{v_y^2}{v^2} & (\gamma - 1)\frac{v_y v_z}{v^2} \\ -\gamma v_z & (\gamma - 1)\frac{v_z v_x}{v^2} & (\gamma - 1)\frac{v_z v_y}{v^2} & 1 + (\gamma - 1)\frac{v_z^2}{v^2} \end{bmatrix} \quad (3.132)$$

Lets turn back on the geodesics in manifolds. Let t the affine parameter for $\vec{\nabla}_X X = 0$ and suppose another parameter u such that $t = t(u)$ and the following relatio is fulfilled

$$\frac{dt}{du} > 0, \quad (3.133)$$

this condition is someway like the convex property on the Legendre's transformation, the reason why the changing rate of the parameter t respect to u must be greater than zero is to guarantee that for two different values of u they wont have the same image, or the tame, the relation $t = t(u)$ is injective and well behaved.

Lets then find out the geodesics from this other parameterization and what relation must be between these two pictures to they represent the same geodesic see 3.8.

$$Y = hX, \quad h = \frac{dt}{du}, \quad (3.134)$$

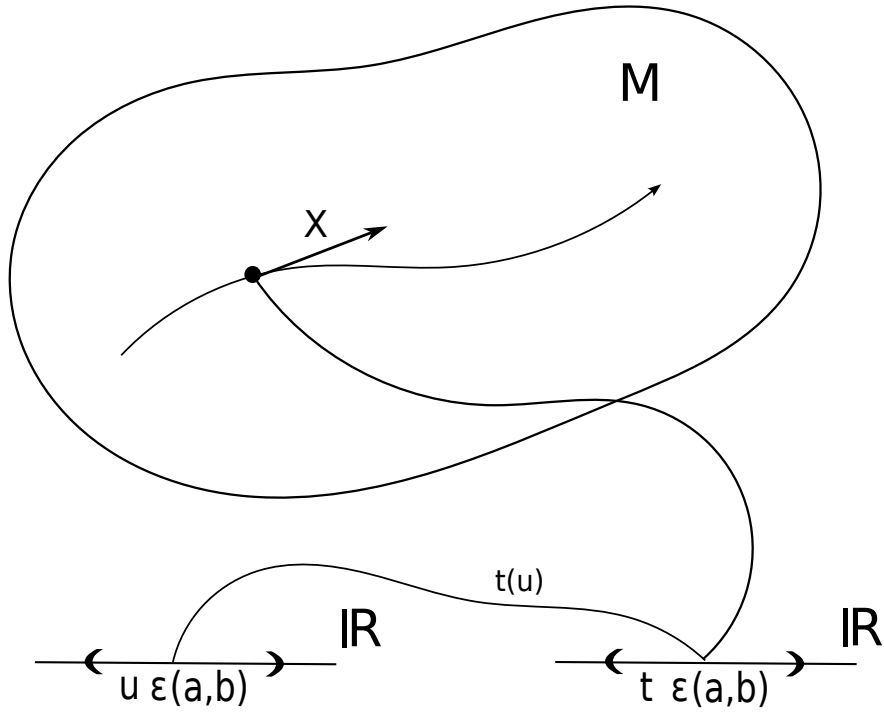


Figure 3.8: Affine parameterization of the geodesics, here we illustrate the path (geodesic) a free particle will follow which is parameterized with a parameter t but this is some application of the other parameter u .

$$\vec{\nabla}_Y Y = \vec{\nabla}_{hX}(hX) = h\vec{\nabla}_X(hX) = h^2\vec{\nabla}_X X + hX = h^2\vec{\nabla}_X X + hX\vec{\nabla}_X h, \quad (3.135)$$

$$\vec{\nabla}_Y Y = hX\vec{\nabla}_X h = fY. \quad (3.136)$$

Then we can see it is not parameterized affinely, the affine parameters are linear relations with the other parameters. Both are the same geodesic but the second one has not affine parameterization, but lets see how must be h to have such a parameterization

$$X(h) = 0 \equiv x^\alpha \partial_\alpha h = 0, \quad (3.137)$$

therefore h is covariantly constant and $\frac{dt}{du} = h$ or what is the same thing

$$u = at + b, a > 0. \quad (3.138)$$

Where this is fulfilled U is then either an affine parameter, thus its geodesics equation is

$$\vec{\nabla}_Y Y = 0. \quad (3.139)$$

In the general relativity the proper time τ is an affine parameters and it works to describe the time-like geodesics, *the free particles move on geodesics* this having on count the Levi-Civita connection.

3.3 Riemann's tensor

Here we're going to talk about the hearth of the general relativity, the hearth of the differential geometry (from a physical point of view hehe), the Riemann's tensor, inside this beautifull quantity there is the information of the curvature of our space-time the curvature of the geodesics? the curvature of the quantum vacuum? Yes, all this informations can be found inside this tensor, thus lets have fun on this topic.

3.3.1 Curvature of the Levi-Civita connection

Until here we haven't solved the problem of transporting a vector from a tangent space to another vector in another tangent space, here there is the solution of that, what is called the *parallel transport*.

Let X a tangent vector to a curve, a tensor field T is transported paralely along the curve if and only if

$$\vec{\nabla}_X T = 0. \quad (3.140)$$

This means the tensor field does not change along the vector, therefore we had already solved the problem of parallel transport implicitly! $\vec{\nabla}_X X = 0$ this a curve whose tangent vector is paralely transported along the same curve, but but but, we need it to be unique, lets see if this is or not unique. Let T be a tensor of rank $\binom{1}{1}$ we're going to define a coordinate chart such that

$$\phi = (x^1, \dots, x^n) \quad X^\mu = \frac{dx^\mu}{d\lambda} \quad (3.141)$$

where λ is the curve parameter;

$$\left(\vec{\nabla}_X T\right)_\nu^\mu = (X^\sigma \nabla_\sigma T_\nu^\mu) = X^\sigma \partial_\sigma T_\nu^\mu + \Gamma_{\rho\sigma}^\mu T_\nu^\rho X^\sigma - \Gamma_{\nu\sigma}^\rho T_{;\rho}^\mu X^\sigma \quad (3.142)$$

$$\left(\vec{\nabla}_X T\right)_\nu^\mu = \frac{dx^\sigma}{d\lambda} \partial_\sigma T_\nu^\mu + \Gamma_{\rho\sigma}^\mu T_\nu^\rho X^\sigma - \Gamma_{\nu\sigma}^\rho T_{rho}^\mu X^\sigma = 0. \quad (3.143)$$

We have then a first order equation of the form

$$\frac{dT^\mu_\nu}{d\lambda} + \dots = 0, \quad (3.144)$$

therefore there is a unique solution once we define the initial condition, then the tensor fields in q and p are isomorphic.

Definition 26 *The tensor of curvature of Riemann of a connection λ is defined by*

$$R^a_{bcd} Z^b X^c Y^d = (R(X, Y) Z)^a, \quad (3.145)$$

where X, Y, Z are vector fields and $R(X, Y) Z$ is also a vector field defined by

$$R(X, Y) Z = \vec{\nabla}_X \vec{\nabla}_Y Z - \vec{\nabla}_Y \vec{\nabla}_X Z - \vec{\nabla}_{[X, Y]} Z. \quad (3.146)$$

The Riemann's tensor has the following properties

$$1. \ R(X, Y) Z = -R(Y, X) Z.$$

2.

$$R(fX, Y) Z = \vec{\nabla}_{fX} \vec{\nabla}_Y Z - \vec{\nabla}_Y \vec{\nabla}_{fX} Z - \vec{\nabla}_{[fX, Y]} Z \quad (3.147)$$

$$= f \vec{\nabla}_X \vec{\nabla}_Y Z - \vec{\nabla}_Y (f \vec{\nabla}_X Z) - \vec{\nabla}_{f[X, Y] - Y(f)X} Z \quad (3.148)$$

$$= f \vec{\nabla}_X \vec{\nabla}_Y Z - f \vec{\nabla}_Y \vec{\nabla}_X Z - Y(f) \vec{\nabla}_X Z - f \vec{\nabla}_{[X, Y]} Z + Y(f) \vec{\nabla}_X Z = f R(X, Y) Z. \quad (3.149)$$

This means the Riemann's curvature tensors is multilinear in his two arguments, the demonstrations for the second argument is trivial therefore.

$$R(X, fY) Z = f R(X, Y) Z. \quad (3.150)$$

3.

$$\begin{aligned} R(X, Y) fZ &= \vec{\nabla}_X \vec{\nabla}_Y (fZ) - \vec{\nabla}_Y \vec{\nabla}_X (fZ) - \vec{\nabla}_{X, Y} fZ \\ &= f \vec{\nabla}_X \vec{\nabla}_Y Z - f \vec{\nabla}_Y \vec{\nabla}_X Z + \vec{\nabla}_X Z \vec{\nabla}_Y f + \vec{\nabla}_X f \vec{\nabla}_Y Z + Z \vec{\nabla}_X \vec{\nabla}_Y f \\ &\quad - \vec{\nabla}_Y Z \vec{\nabla}_X f - \vec{\nabla}_Y f \vec{\nabla}_X Z - Z \vec{\nabla}_Y \vec{\nabla}_X f - \vec{\nabla}_{X, Y} fZ \\ &= f (\vec{\nabla}_X \vec{\nabla}_Y Z - \vec{\nabla}_Y \vec{\nabla}_X Z - f \vec{\nabla}_{X, Y} Z), \end{aligned}$$

$$R(X, Y) fZ = f R(X, Y) Z. \quad (3.151)$$

In this way, the Riemann's tensor fulfills all those properties and correctly it defines a tensor, lets see how looks the Riemann's tensor given a coordinate chart and a basis $\{\mathbf{e}_\mu = \frac{\partial}{\partial x^\mu}\}$ and assuming a free of torsion theory

$$[\mathbf{e}_\mu, \mathbf{e}_\nu] = 0, \quad (3.152)$$

$$R(\mathbf{e}_\rho, \mathbf{e}_\sigma)\mathbf{e}_\mu = \vec{\nabla}_{\mathbf{e}_\rho} \vec{\nabla}_{\mathbf{e}_\sigma} \mathbf{e}_\mu - \vec{\nabla}_{\mathbf{e}_\sigma} \vec{\nabla}_{\mathbf{e}_\rho} \mathbf{e}_\mu, \quad (3.153)$$

$$\begin{aligned} R(\mathbf{e}_\rho, \mathbf{e}_\sigma) &= \vec{\nabla}_{\mathbf{e}_\rho} (\Gamma^\tau_{\mu\sigma} \mathbf{e}_\tau) - \vec{\nabla}_{\mathbf{e}_\sigma} (\Gamma^\tau_{\rho\mu} \mathbf{e}_\tau) \\ &= \vec{\nabla}_{\mathbf{e}_\rho} \Gamma^\tau_{\mu\sigma} \mathbf{e}_\tau + \Gamma^\tau_{\mu\sigma} \vec{\nabla}_{\mathbf{e}_\rho} \mathbf{e}_\tau - \vec{\nabla}_{\mathbf{e}_\sigma} \Gamma^\tau_{\rho\mu} \mathbf{e}_\tau - \Gamma^\tau_{\rho\mu} \vec{\nabla}_{\mathbf{e}_\sigma} \mathbf{e}_\tau, \end{aligned}$$

$$\begin{aligned} R(\mathbf{e}_\rho, \mathbf{e}_\sigma)\mathbf{e}_\mu &= \partial_\rho \Gamma^\tau_{\mu\sigma} \mathbf{e}_\tau + \Gamma^\tau_{\mu\sigma} \Gamma^\nu_{\tau\rho} \mathbf{e}_\nu - \partial_\sigma \Gamma^\tau_{\mu\rho} \mathbf{e}_\tau - \Gamma^\tau_{\mu\rho} \Gamma^\nu_{\sigma\tau} \mathbf{e}_\nu \\ &= \{\partial_\rho \Gamma^\nu_{\mu\sigma} + \Gamma^\tau_{\mu\sigma} \Gamma^\nu_{\tau\rho} - \partial_\sigma \Gamma^\tau_{\mu\rho} - \Gamma^\tau_{\mu\rho} \Gamma^\nu_{\sigma\tau}\} \mathbf{e}_\nu, \end{aligned}$$

$$R^\nu_{\mu\rho\sigma} = \partial_\rho \Gamma^\nu_{\mu\sigma} + \Gamma^\tau_{\mu\sigma} \Gamma^\nu_{\tau\rho} - \partial_\sigma \Gamma^\tau_{\mu\rho} - \Gamma^\tau_{\mu\rho} \Gamma^\nu_{\sigma\tau}. \quad (3.154)$$

Definition 27 The Ricci's curvature tensor, is a tensor of rank $\binom{0}{2}$ is defined by

$$R_{ab} = R^c_{acb}. \quad (3.155)$$

With this tensor we can construct the Einstein's field equations, under the assumption of a free of torsion theory, and we can define the *Ricci's identity* as

$$R^a_{bcd} Z^b = \vec{\nabla}_c \vec{\nabla}_d Z^a - \vec{\nabla}_d \vec{\nabla}_c Z^a, \quad (3.156)$$

lets prove it

$$\begin{aligned} [R(X, Y)Z]^a &= X^c \vec{\nabla}_c (Y^d \vec{\nabla}_d Z^a) - Y^d \vec{\nabla}_d (X^c \vec{\nabla}_c Z^a) - [X, Y]^c \vec{\nabla}_c Z^a \\ &= X^c Y^d \vec{\nabla}_c \vec{\nabla}_d Z^a + X^c (\vec{\nabla}_c Y^d) \vec{\nabla}_d Z^a - Y^d X^c \vec{\nabla}_d \vec{\nabla}_c Z^a - Y^d (\vec{\nabla}_d X^c) \vec{\nabla}_c Z^a - [X, Y]^c \vec{\nabla}_c Z^a, \end{aligned}$$

$$[R(X, Y)Z]^a = X^c Y^d [\vec{\nabla}_c \vec{\nabla}_d Z^a - \vec{\nabla}_d \vec{\nabla}_c Z^a] + X^c (\vec{\nabla}_c Y^d) \vec{\nabla}_d Z^a - Y^d (\vec{\nabla}_d X^c) \vec{\nabla}_c Z^a - [X, Y]^c \vec{\nabla}_c Z^a. \quad (3.157)$$

and for a free of torsion theory we can develop the commutator

$$[X, Y]^c = \left[\vec{\nabla}_X Y - \vec{\nabla}_Y X \right]^c = X^e \vec{\nabla}_e Y^c - Y^e \vec{\nabla}_e X^c, \quad (3.158)$$

$$[X, Y] \vec{\nabla}_c Z^a = X^e \left(\vec{\nabla}_e Y^c \right) \left(\vec{\nabla}_c Z^a \right) - Y^e \left(\vec{\nabla}_e Y^c \right) \left(\vec{\nabla}_c Z^a \right), \quad (3.159)$$

$$X^c \left(\vec{\nabla}_c Y^d \right) \left(\vec{\nabla}_d Z^a \right) - Y^d \left(\vec{\nabla}_d X^c \right) \left(\vec{\nabla}_c Z^a \right) - [X, Y]^c \vec{\nabla}_c Z^a = 0, \quad (3.160)$$

$$[R(X, Y)Z]^a = \left(\vec{\nabla}_c \vec{\nabla}_d Z^a - \vec{\nabla}_d \vec{\nabla}_c Z^a \right) X^c Y^d = R^a_{bcd} Z^b X^c Y^d. \quad (3.161)$$

By comparison it only rests that

$$\vec{\nabla}_c \vec{\nabla}_d Z^a - \vec{\nabla}_d \vec{\nabla}_c Z^a = R^a_{bcd} Z^b. \quad (3.162)$$

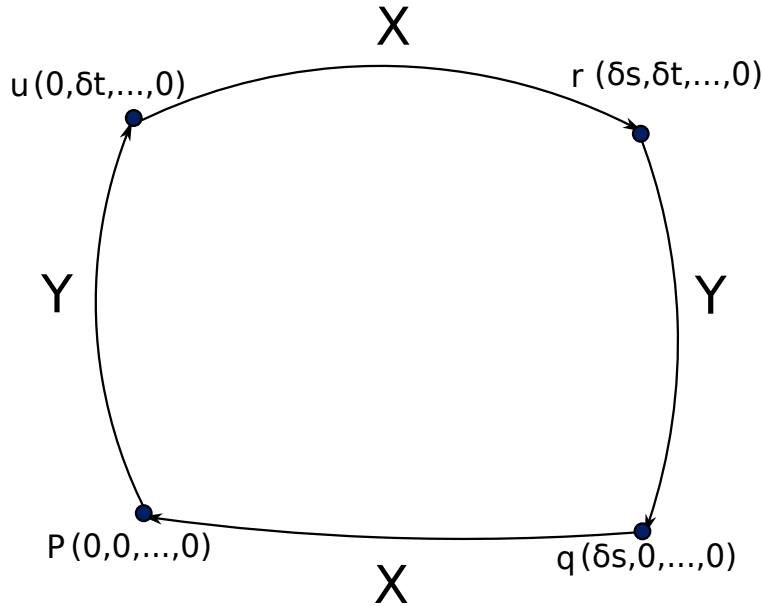


Figure 3.9: Connection between q and p with a curve along a variation of s with X as tangent vector, in the same way q and r can be connected by a curve with Y as tangent vector, p and u can be connected with a curve with Y as tangent vector and same with u and r but with X as tangent vector.

Now, let's turn back to the relation between the Riemann's tensor and the dependence of the path of the parallel transport. Let X and Y vector fields which are linearly independent everywhere such that $[X, Y] = 0$. Let $(s, t, \dots)$ a coordinate chart such that

$$X = \frac{\partial}{\partial s} \text{ \& } Y = \frac{\partial}{\partial t}. \quad (3.163)$$

Let $p \in M$ and given a coordinate chart p is represented as $(0, \dots, 0)$. Let q, r, u points with coordinates $(\delta s, 0, 0, \dots)$, $(\delta s, \delta t, 0, \dots)$, $(0, \delta L, 0, \dots)$, respectively, where $\delta s, \delta t$ are little displacement of that coordinate, we can connect the fourth point as is illustrated in the figure 3.9.

Now, let $Z_p \in T_p(M)$. Lets transport parallelly Z_p along pqr to obtain a vector $Z_r \in T_r(M)$, the same thing but to transport Z_p along pur to obtain the vector $Z'_r \in T_r(M)$ and lets calculate the difference $Z'_r - Z_r$ for a free of torsion connection. it is convenient to introduce a new coordinate chart known as *normal coordinates* in p , $(\Gamma^\mu_{\nu\rho}(p) = 0)$. The indices μ, ν will refer to this chart. S and t will be used as parameters along the curves whose tangent vectors are X and Y , respectively.

pq is an integral curve whose tangent vector is X and parameter S . Along of pq , Z is transported parallelly: $\vec{\nabla}_X Z = 0$, therefore

$$\frac{dZ^\mu}{ds} = -\Gamma^\mu_{\nu\rho} Z^\nu X^\rho, \quad (3.164)$$

and in this way

$$\frac{d^2 Z^\mu}{ds^2} = -(\Gamma^\mu_{\nu\rho} Z^\nu X^\rho)_{,\sigma} X^\sigma. \quad (3.165)$$

Now using Taylor's expansion theorem we get:

$$Z^\mu_q = Z^\mu_q + \left(\frac{dZ^\mu}{ds} \right)_p \delta s + \frac{1}{2} \left(\frac{d^2 Z^\mu}{ds^2} \right)_p \delta s^2 + \mathcal{O}(\delta s^3). \quad (3.166)$$

We must note that:

$$\frac{d^2 Z^\mu}{ds^2} = -\Gamma^\mu_{\nu\rho,\sigma} Z^\nu X^\rho X^\sigma - \Gamma^\mu_{\nu\rho} Z^\nu_{,\sigma} X^\rho X^\sigma - \Gamma^\mu_{\nu\rho} Z^\nu X^\rho_{,\sigma} X^\sigma, \quad (3.167)$$

$$Z^\mu_q = Z^\mu_p - \frac{1}{2} (\Gamma^\mu_{\nu\rho,\sigma} Z^\nu X^\rho X^\sigma)_p \delta s^2 + \mathcal{O}(\delta s^3), \quad (3.168)$$

where we had used $\Gamma^\mu_{\nu\rho}(p) = 0$ in normal coordinates at p . Now consider the parallel transport along qr :

$$\frac{dZ^\mu}{dt} = -\Gamma_{\nu\rho}^\mu Z^\nu Y^\rho, \quad (3.169)$$

$$\frac{d^2 Z^\mu}{dt^2} = -(\Gamma_{\nu\rho}^\mu Z^\nu Y^\rho)_{,\sigma} Y^\sigma, \quad (3.170)$$

$$Z_r^\mu = Z_q^\mu - (\Gamma_{\nu\rho}^\mu Z^\nu Y^\rho)_q \delta t - \frac{1}{2} [(\Gamma_{\nu\rho}^\mu Z^\nu Y^\rho)_{,\sigma} Y^\sigma]_q \delta t^2 + \mathcal{O}(\delta t^3). \quad (3.171)$$

$$(\Gamma_{\nu\rho}^\mu Z^\nu Y^\rho)_Q = (\Gamma_{\nu\rho}^\mu Z^\nu Y^\rho)_p + \left[\frac{d}{ds} (\Gamma_{\nu\rho}^\mu Z^\nu Y^\rho) \right]_p \delta s + \mathcal{O}(\delta s^2) \quad (3.172)$$

$$= [(\Gamma_{\nu\rho}^\mu Z^\nu Y^\rho)_{,\sigma} X^\sigma]_p \delta s + \mathcal{O}(\delta s^2) \quad (3.173)$$

$$= (\Gamma_{\nu\rho}^\mu z^\nu Y^\rho X^\sigma)_p \delta s + \mathcal{O}(\delta s^2) \quad (3.174)$$

$$[(\Gamma_{\nu\rho}^\mu Z^\nu Y^\rho)_{,\sigma}]_q = [(\Gamma_{\nu\rho}^\mu Z^\nu Y^\rho)_{,\Sigma} Y^\sigma]_p + \mathcal{O}(\delta s) = (\Gamma_{\nu\rho,\sigma}^\mu Z^\nu Y^\rho Y^\sigma)_p + \mathcal{O}(\delta s), \quad (3.175)$$

$$Z_r^\mu = Z_q^\mu - [(\Gamma_{\nu\rho}^\mu Z^\nu Y^\rho X^\sigma)_p \delta s + \mathcal{O}(\delta s^2)] \delta t - \frac{1}{2} [(\Gamma_{\nu\rho}^\mu Z^\nu Y^\rho X^\sigma)_p \delta s + \mathcal{O}(\delta s^2)] \delta t^2 + \mathcal{O}(\delta t^2), \quad (3.176)$$

$$Z_r^\mu = Z_p^\mu - \frac{1}{2} (\Gamma_{\nu\rho,\sigma}^\mu)_p [Z^\nu (X^\rho X^\sigma \delta s^2 + Y^\rho Y^\sigma \delta t^2 + 2Y^\rho X^\sigma \delta s \delta t)]_p + \mathcal{O}(\delta^3). \quad (3.177)$$

Now, consider the parallel transport along pur . The result can be obtained from the last expression interchanging X with Y and s with t

$$Z_r'^\mu = Z_p^\mu - \frac{1}{2} (\Gamma_{\nu\rho,\sigma}^\mu)_p [Z^\nu (Y^\rho Y^\sigma \delta t^2 + X^\rho X^\sigma \delta s^2 + 2X^\rho Y^\sigma \delta t \delta s)]_p + \mathcal{O}(\delta^3) \quad (3.178)$$

in this way the difference between the two parallel transport is

$$\Delta Z_r^\mu = Z_r'^\mu - Z_r^\mu \quad (3.179)$$

$$= [\Gamma_{\nu\rho,\sigma}^\mu Z^\nu (Y^\rho X^\sigma - X^\rho Y^\sigma)]_p \delta t \delta s + \mathcal{O}(\delta^3) \quad (3.180)$$

$$= [(\Gamma_{\nu\sigma,\rho}^\mu - \Gamma_{\nu\rho,\sigma}^\mu) Z^\nu X^\rho Y^\sigma]_p \delta s \delta t \mathcal{O}(\delta^3) \quad (3.181)$$

$$= [(R_{\nu\rho\sigma}^\mu - \Gamma_{\nu\sigma}^\tau \Gamma_{\tau\rho}^\mu + \Gamma_{\nu\rho}^\tau \Gamma_{\tau\sigma}^\mu) Z^\nu X^\rho X^\sigma]_p \delta t \delta s + \mathcal{O}(\delta^3), \quad (3.182)$$

$$\Delta Z_r^\mu = (R^\mu_{\nu\rho\sigma} Z^\nu X^\rho X^\sigma)_p \delta s \delta t + \mathcal{O}(\delta^3), \quad (3.183)$$

$$\Delta Z_r^\mu = (R^\mu_{\nu\rho\sigma} Z^\nu X^\rho X^\sigma)_r \delta s \delta t + \mathcal{O}(\delta^3). \quad (3.184)$$

In the last equality is used that the quantities in p and r are different by $\mathcal{O}(\delta)$. this result is derived in a coordinate basis defined using normal coordinates in p but now both side take on count tensors in r therefore our equations is independent of the basis, thus

$$\left(R^a_{bcd} Z^b X^c Y^d \right)_r = \lim_{\delta \rightarrow 0} \frac{\Delta Z_r^\mu}{\delta s \delta t}. \quad (3.185)$$

The Riemann's tensor measures the dependence of the path of the parallel transport. The last result can be reinterpreted describing the effect of the parallel transport of a vector Z_r^a along a closed curved $qpur$, see figure 3.9, to obtain the vector $Z_r'^a$. In this way ΔZ_r^a measures the change in Z_r^a when it is transported parallel y around a closed curve.

Lets see the symmetries of the Riemann's tensor

1. $R^a_{bcd} = -R^a_{bdc}$ it is anti symmetric.
2. If $\vec{\nabla}$ is a free of torsion connections then

$$R^a_{[bcd]} = \frac{1}{3!} (R^a_{bcd} + R^a_{cdb} + R^a_{dbc} - R^a_{cbd} - R^a_{bdc} - R^a_{dcb}) = 0. \quad (3.186)$$

3. If $\vec{\nabla}$ is a free of torsion connection then

$$R^a_{b[cd;e]} = 0. \quad (3.187)$$

Thanks to the fact the metric tensor is covariantly constant, then it will allow us to raise and low indices and using these we can see the following properties

1. $R_{abcd} = R_{cdab}$.
2. $R_{ab} = R_{ba}$.

Definition 28 The Ricci's scalar is

$$R = g^{ab} R_{ab}. \quad (3.188)$$

Definition 29 *The Einstein's tensor, is a symmetric tensor of rank $\binom{0}{2}$ and is defined as*

$$G_{ab} = R_{ab} - \frac{1}{2}g_{ab}R. \quad (3.189)$$

Proposition: the covariant derivative of the Einstein's tensor is zero

$$\vec{\nabla}_a G^{ab} = 0. \quad (3.190)$$

Demonstration:

$$\begin{aligned} \vec{\nabla}_a G^{ab} &= \vec{\nabla}_a \left[R^{ab} - \frac{1}{2}g^{ab}R \right] = \vec{\nabla}_a R^{ab} - \frac{1}{2}\vec{\nabla}_a g^{ab}R - \frac{1}{2}g^{ab}\vec{\nabla}_a R \\ &= \vec{\nabla}_a R^{ab} - \frac{1}{2}\vec{\nabla}_a g^{ab} \left(g^{cd}R_{cd} \right) - \frac{1}{2}g^{ab} \left[\vec{\nabla}_a g^{cd}R_{cd} + g^{cd}\vec{\nabla}_a R_{cd} \right] \\ &= \vec{\nabla}_a R^{ab} - \frac{1}{2}\vec{\nabla}_a g^{ab} \left(g^{cd}R_{cd} \right) - \frac{1}{2}\vec{\nabla}_a g^{cd}g^{ab}R_{cd} - \frac{1}{2}g^{ab}g^{cd}\vec{\nabla}_a R_{cd} \\ &= \vec{\nabla}_a R^{ab} - \frac{1}{2}\vec{\nabla}_a g^{ab} \left(g^{cd}R_{cd} \right) - \frac{1}{2}\vec{\nabla}_a g^{cd}g^{ab}R_{cd} - \frac{1}{2}g^{ab}g^{cd}\vec{\nabla}_a R_{cd}, \end{aligned}$$

and using the Leibniz rule is easy to see that

$$\vec{\nabla}_a \left[g^{ab}g^{cd}R_{cd} \right] = \vec{\nabla}_a g^{ab} \left[g^{cd}R_{cd} \right] + g^{ab}R_{cd}\vec{\nabla}_a g^{cd} + g^{ab}g^{cd}\vec{\nabla}_a R_{cd}, \quad (3.191)$$

thus

$$\vec{\nabla}_a G^{ab} = \vec{\nabla}_a R^{ab} + \frac{1}{2}g^{ab}g^{cd}\vec{\nabla}_a R_{cd} - \vec{\nabla}_a R^{ab} - \frac{1}{2}g^{ab}g^{cd}\vec{\nabla}_a R_{cd} = 0. \quad (3.192)$$

3.3.1.1 Einstein's equations

These equations holds under some postulates, the known as the general relativity postulates which are

1. The space-time is a pseudo-Riemannian manifold equipped with a Levi-Civita connection $(M, \mathbb{G}, \vec{\nabla})$.
2. The free particles follows geodesics.
3. The energy-momentum tensor T_{ab} is conserved: $\vec{\nabla}_a T^{ab} = 0$.

4. The Einstein's tensor satisfies that

$$G_{ab} = R_{ab} - \frac{1}{2}g_{ab}R = \frac{8\pi G}{C^4}T_{ab}. \quad (3.193)$$

We can see that there is no matter thus $T_{ab} = 0 \rightarrow R = 0 \rightarrow R_{ab} = 0$ lets see this

$$g^{ab} \left(R_{ab} - \frac{1}{2}g_{ab}R \right) = \alpha g^{ab}T_{ab},$$

$$R - 2R = \alpha T \rightarrow T = -\frac{1}{\alpha}R,$$

$$R_{ab} = \alpha T_{ab} + \frac{1}{2}g_{ab}R = \alpha \left(T_{ab} - \frac{1}{2}g_{ab}T \right), \quad (3.194)$$

we can see easily that if there is no matter the Ricci's tensor is zero.

The Einstein's equations are ten second order, non linear and copuled equations of the metric tensor, but this form is not unique. Lets think about a symmetric tensor H_{ab} , which is covariantly constant, the space-time must be a pseudo-Riemannian manifold of four dimensions, with a levi-civita connections, thus by the **Lovelack theorem**

$$H_{ab} = \alpha G_{ab} + \beta g_{ab}, \quad (3.195)$$

$$G_{\alpha\beta} + \Lambda g_{\alpha\beta} = \frac{8\pi G}{C^4}T_{\alpha\beta}. \quad (3.196)$$

Λ is known as the cosmologic constant and it was first rejected by Einstein but reintroduced by himself to explain the accelerated expansion of the universe, this constant is nowadays studied in relation with the dark energy and dark matter.

3.3.2 Properties related to the Riemann's tensor

In this part we're going to study tensor equations related to the Riemann's tensor and some really important identities as the Jacobi and Bianchi's identities, which are really important in the development of general relativity and will guide us to the Einstein's tensor. Let $\{\mathbf{e}_\alpha\} = \left\{ \frac{\partial}{\partial x^\alpha} \right\}$ a coordinate basis, then in this basis the components of the Riemann's tensor become

$$R^\alpha_{\beta\mu\nu} = \partial_\nu \Gamma^\alpha_{\beta\mu} - \partial_\mu \Gamma^\alpha_{\beta\nu} + \Gamma^\alpha_{\sigma\mu} \Gamma^\sigma_{\beta\nu} - \Gamma^\alpha_{\sigma\nu} \Gamma^\sigma_{\beta\mu}. \quad (3.197)$$

We're going to consider the components of the Riemann's tensor in a locally inertial reference frame known as *normal coordinates*, these are special such that

$$\Gamma_{\sigma\mu}^{\alpha}(p) = 0, \quad \partial_{\mu}\Gamma_{\beta\nu}^{\alpha}(p) \neq 0, \quad (3.198)$$

from these point of view the Riemann's tensor takes the following form:

$$R_{\beta\mu\nu}^{\alpha} = \partial_{\mu}\Gamma_{\beta\nu}^{\alpha} - \partial_{\nu}\Gamma_{\beta\mu}^{\alpha}, \quad (3.199)$$

and we gotta calculate the Cristoffel's symbol, thus

$$\begin{aligned} \Gamma_{\mu\nu}^{\alpha} &= \frac{1}{2}g^{\alpha\beta}(\partial_{\nu}g_{\beta\mu} + \partial_{\mu}g_{\beta\nu} - \partial_{\beta}g_{\mu\nu}). \\ \partial_{\sigma}\Gamma_{\mu\nu}^{\alpha} &= \frac{1}{2}g^{\alpha\beta}(\partial_{\sigma}\partial_{\nu}g_{\beta\mu} + \partial_{\sigma}\partial_{\mu}g_{\beta\nu} - \partial_{\sigma}\partial_{\beta}g_{\mu\nu}) \\ &\quad + \frac{1}{2}(\partial_{\nu}g_{\beta\mu} + \partial_{\mu}g_{\beta\nu} - \partial_{\beta}g_{\mu\nu})\partial_{\sigma}g^{\alpha\beta} \end{aligned}$$

$$\partial_{\sigma}\Gamma_{\mu\nu}^{\alpha} = \frac{1}{2}g^{\alpha\beta}(\partial_{\sigma}\partial_{\nu}g_{\beta\mu} + \partial_{\sigma}\partial_{\mu}g_{\beta\nu} - \partial_{\sigma}\partial_{\beta}g_{\mu\nu}) + \frac{1}{2}[\beta, \mu\nu]\partial_{\sigma}g^{\alpha\beta}, \quad (3.200)$$

$$\partial_{\sigma}\Gamma_{\mu\nu}^{\alpha} = \frac{1}{2}g^{\alpha\beta}(\partial_{\sigma}\partial_{\nu}g_{\beta\mu} + \partial_{\sigma}\partial_{\mu}g_{\beta\nu} - \partial_{\sigma}\partial_{\beta}g_{\mu\nu}). \quad (3.201)$$

we're going to use the equation 3.201 on the Riemman's tensor on the point $p \in M$ in the following way

$$R_{\beta\mu\nu}^{\alpha}|_p = \frac{1}{2}g^{\alpha\sigma}(\partial_{\mu}\partial_{\nu}g_{\sigma\beta} + \partial_{\mu}\partial_{\beta}g_{\sigma\nu} - \partial_{\mu}\partial_{\sigma}g_{\beta\nu})|_p - \frac{1}{2}g^{\alpha\sigma}(\partial_{\nu}\partial_{\mu}g_{\sigma\beta} + \partial_{\nu}\partial_{\beta}g_{\sigma\mu} - \partial_{\mu}\partial_{\sigma}g_{\mu\beta})|_p,$$

$$R_{\beta\mu\nu}^{\alpha}|_p = \frac{1}{2}g^{\alpha\sigma}(\partial_{\beta}\partial_{\mu}g_{\sigma\nu} - \partial_{\nu}\partial_{\beta}g_{\sigma\mu} + \partial_{\nu}\partial_{\sigma}g_{\mu\beta} - \partial_{\mu}\partial_{\sigma}g_{\beta\nu})|_p, \quad (3.202)$$

$$R_{\alpha\beta\mu\nu}|_p = g_{\alpha\lambda}R_{\beta\mu\nu}^{\lambda} = \frac{1}{2}(\partial_{\beta}\partial_{\mu}g_{\alpha\nu} - \partial_{\nu}\partial_{\beta}g_{\alpha\mu} + \partial_{\nu}\partial_{\alpha}g_{\mu\beta} - \partial_{\mu}\partial_{\alpha}g_{\beta\nu})|_p \quad (3.203)$$

From here on we can see the following relations, which are tensor equations and do not depend on the coordinate chart

$$R_{\alpha\beta\mu\nu} = -R_{\beta\alpha\mu\nu}, \quad (3.204)$$

$$R_{\alpha\beta\mu\nu} = -R_{\alpha\beta\nu\mu}, \quad (3.205)$$

$$R_{\alpha\beta\mu\nu}R_{\mu\nu\alpha\beta}, \quad (3.206)$$

$$R_{\alpha\beta\mu\nu} + R_{\alpha\nu\beta\mu} + R_{\alpha\mu\nu\beta} = R_{\alpha[\beta\mu\nu]} = 0. \quad (3.207)$$

These relations and symmetries on the Riemann's tensor will allow us to reduce a system of 256 equations to 18 equations. There are more relations beyond theses, the known as the *Bianchi identities* which will be worth to define and arrive the Einstein's tensor. In normal coordinates we have got

$$\vec{\nabla}_\lambda R_{\alpha\beta\mu\nu} = \partial_\lambda R_{\alpha\beta\mu\nu} = \frac{1}{2} (\partial_\lambda \partial_\beta \partial_\mu g_{\alpha\nu} - \partial_\lambda \partial_\nu \partial_\beta g_{\alpha\mu} + \partial_\lambda \partial_\nu \partial_\alpha g_{\mu\beta} - \partial_\lambda \partial_\mu \partial_\alpha g_{\beta\nu})|_p, \quad (3.208)$$

We can find an analogous to the Jacobi's identity with covariant derivatives

$$\vec{\nabla}_\lambda R_{\alpha\beta\mu\nu} + \vec{\nabla}_\nu R_{\alpha\beta\lambda\mu} + \vec{\nabla}_\mu R_{\alpha\beta\nu\lambda} = 0, \quad (3.209)$$

$$R_{\alpha\beta[\mu\nu;\lambda]} = \vec{\nabla}_{[\lambda} R_{\mu\nu]\alpha\beta} = 0. \quad (3.210)$$

All this geometrical developement was done by Riemann with the intention of generalizing the Gauss work on curvature. Lets find out the contracted Bianchi's identities, therefore

$$\left[\vec{\nabla}_e R_{abbc} + \vec{\nabla}_d R_{abec} + \vec{\nabla}_c R_{abde} = 0 \right] g^{ac}, \quad (3.211)$$

$$\vec{\nabla}_e R_{bd} + \vec{\nabla}_d (g^{ac} R_{abec}) + g^{ac} \vec{\nabla}_c R_{abdc} = 0, \quad (3.212)$$

$$\vec{\nabla}_e R_{bd} - \vec{\nabla}_d R_{be} + \vec{\nabla}^a R_{abde} = 0, \quad (3.213)$$

$$\vec{\nabla}_e R_{bd} - \vec{\nabla}_d R_{be} + \vec{\nabla}^a R_{abde} = 0. \quad (3.214)$$

From the Bianchi's identity for the Riemann's tensor we've found the repective identity for the Ricci's tensor also known as the *contracted Bianchi identity* given in the equations 3.214 but we can contract it one more time and obtaint the Bhianchi identity for the Ricci's scalar wich is related with the Einstein's tensor and also is a clue to the Einstein's equations, so contracting the equation 3.214 we'll then have

$$g^{bd} \left[\vec{\nabla}_e R_{bd} - \vec{\nabla}_d R_{be} + \vec{\nabla}^a R_{abde} = 0 \right], \quad (3.215)$$

$$\vec{\nabla}_e R - \vec{\nabla}^b R_{be} - \vec{\nabla}^a R_{ae} = 0, \quad (3.216)$$

$$\vec{\nabla}^a R_{ae} = \frac{1}{2} \vec{\nabla}_e R. \quad (3.217)$$

The equation 3.217 is known as the Bianchi's identity twice contracted and playing a bit with this equations we will find something special, lets find out it

$$\begin{aligned} \vec{\nabla}^a R_{ae} - \frac{1}{2} \vec{\nabla}_e R &= 0, \\ \vec{\nabla}^a R_{ae} \frac{1}{2} g_{ae} \vec{\nabla}^a R &= 0, \\ \vec{\nabla}^a \left(R_{ae} - \frac{1}{2} g_{ae} R \right) &= 0, \end{aligned}$$

$$\vec{\nabla}^a G_{ab} = 0 \quad ; \quad G_{ab} = R_{ab} - \frac{1}{2} g_{ab} R, \quad (3.218)$$

There appears naturally the Einstein's tensor! Now, in the curved spaces the geodesics aren't always parallel there are some separation between one or another geodesic but how can we measure or have an idea of how far or deviated is a geodesic from other.

3.3.3 Geodesic deviation

Definition 30 Let M a manifold with a Levi-Civita connection $\vec{\nabla}$. A monoparametric family of geodesics is a map

$$\gamma : I \times I' \rightarrow M, \quad (3.219)$$

where I, I' are two open intervals on the $\mathbb{R}$ such that

1. For a S constant, $\gamma(s, t) = \gamma_s(t)$ is a geodesic with affine parameters t , therefore S would be a parameter that tags the geodesic.
2. The collection of these curves define a 2D smooth surface and is a subset of the manifold $\Sigma \subset M$ as is represented in the figure 3.10

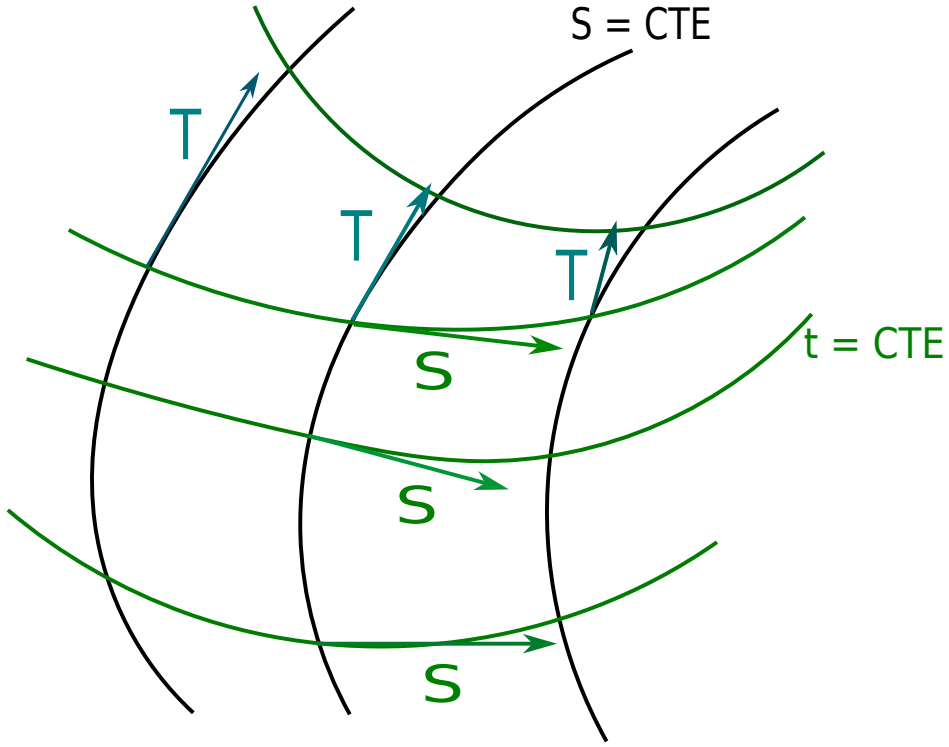


Figure 3.10: Representation of all the possible subsets of S constant and t constant, this is an analogous to what is done in the formulation $3 + 1$ where we separate the space-time and folds as a Cauchy space.

To quantify the deviation between to adjacent geodesics, lets first, suppose a coordinate chart $x^\mu(s, t) \in M$, therefore

$$T^\mu = \frac{\partial x^\mu}{\partial t}, \quad S^\mu = \frac{\partial x^\mu}{\partial s}. \quad (3.220)$$

The first vectors T^μ are called the tangent vectors to the geodesics, and the other ones S^μ are named the deviation vectors. We're going to express the vectors of the chart in terms of the vectors of deviation.

$$x^\mu(s + \delta s, t) = x^\mu(s, t) + \left(\frac{\partial x^\mu}{\partial s} \right) \delta s + \mathcal{O}(\delta s^2). \quad (3.221)$$

We're going to analyze the vector S and its changing along the geodesic T . To do it, we can define a relative speed between geodesics

$$V^a = \left(\vec{\nabla}_T S \right)^a = T^b \vec{\nabla}_b S^a, \quad (3.222)$$

if we can talk about the relative speed between geodesics, we can also talk about the acceleration relative between geodesics, then

$$a^a = (\nabla_T V)^a = T^b \vec{\nabla}_b V^a = T^c \vec{\nabla}_c (T^b \vec{\nabla}_b S^a) = a^a = \vec{\nabla}_T \vec{\nabla}_T S^a, \quad (3.223)$$

we can introduce the coordinate basis on Σ as $S = \partial_s$ and $T = \partial_t$ and because we're having a theory free of torsion so from the commutator we have

$$[T, S](f) = T[S(f)] - S[T(f)] = \partial_t[S(f)] - \partial_s[T(f)] = 0, \quad (3.224)$$

under these conditions and without torsion then

$$\vec{\nabla}_T S = \vec{\nabla}_S T \rightarrow T^b \nabla_b S^a = S^b \nabla_b T^a, \quad (3.225)$$

$$\vec{\nabla}_T \vec{\nabla}_T S = R(T, S)T. \quad (3.226)$$

Using 3.226 into the acceleration relative into geodesics, then we have

$$a^a = [\vec{\nabla}_T \vec{\nabla}_T S]^a = (R(T, S)T)^a = R^a_{bcd} T^b T^c S^d, \quad (3.227)$$

$$a^a = R^a_{bcd} T^b T^c S^d. \quad (3.228)$$

The equation 3.228 implies something really, really amazing and important ***The acceleration is curvature*** but we gotta read this equations correctly, as cause and effect, the presence of curvature produces and effect we call acceleration, we can denotate the equation 3.228 in other way, as

$$a^a = \frac{D^2}{Dt^2} S^a = R^a_{bcd} T^b T^c S^d. \quad (3.229)$$

3.4 Gravitation and the Einstein's field equation

We have found a relation between the curvature tensor and the relative acceleration between geodesics, and knowing a particle test has a geodesics as a path, then different curvatures produces different accelerations, and from the experiments we've talk about in the first part acceleration is indistinguishable from gravity.

Well then, how are going to relate the acceleration to curvature? To do this, we're going to solve the Einsteins field equations in the Newtonian limit to interpret this physically and see if the Newton's theory was plane or curved of if it was, from the beginning a geometrical theory. First we're going to set some properties of the manifolds to set the space-time and use it to develop this theory.

1. The set of all the events in a $4D$ manifold with pseudo-Riemannian metric and a Levi-Civita connections is a differential manifold called *space-time* denoted by $(M, \mathbb{G}, \vec{\nabla})$.
2. The Manifold is Lorentzian.
3. The weak equivalence principle is fulfilled.
4. The Einstein's equivalence principle is fulfilled.

3.4.1 Newtonian limit

We gotta then talk about particles whose speed is a lot less than the speed of light C and the gravitational field is stationary and weak, using geometrical coordinates $C = 1$ then

$$\frac{d\vec{X}}{d\tau} \ll \frac{dt}{d\tau}, \quad (3.230)$$

$$\frac{d\vec{X}}{d\tau} = \frac{d\vec{X}}{dt} \frac{dt}{d\tau} \ll \frac{dt}{d\tau} \rightarrow \left| \frac{d\vec{X}}{dt} \right| \ll 1. \quad (3.231)$$

Having on count all of this, we're going to see the geodesic equation

$$\frac{d^2 x^\mu}{d\tau^2} + \Gamma^\mu_{\alpha\beta} \frac{dx^\alpha}{d\tau} \frac{dx^\beta}{d\tau} = 0, \quad (3.232)$$

because we've low speed all the components related to spatial ones when multiplied are really low valued so those terms are going to be ignored, thus

$$\frac{d^2 x^\mu}{d\tau^2} + \Gamma^\mu_{00} \frac{dx^0}{d\tau} \frac{dx^0}{d\tau} = 0, \quad (3.233)$$

$$\Gamma^\mu_{00} = \frac{1}{2} g^{\mu\sigma} (\partial_0 g_{\sigma 0} + \partial_0 g_{0\sigma} - \partial_\sigma g_{00}) \quad (3.234)$$

and because the gravitational field is stationary, the zeroth derivatives are then zero, thus

$$\Gamma^\mu_{00} = -\frac{1}{2} g^{\mu\sigma} \partial_\sigma g_{00}. \quad (3.235)$$

Then the geodesic equation becomes

$$\frac{d^2 x^\mu}{d\tau^2} - \frac{1}{2} g^{\mu\sigma} \partial_\sigma g_{00} \left(\frac{dt}{d\tau} \right)^2 = 0. \quad (3.236)$$

If the gravitational field is then weak, then physically we've got is a plane Minkowskian space-time which in a local region has a perturbation or tensor, then the global metric can be set as

$$g_{\alpha\beta} = \eta_{\alpha\beta} + h_{\alpha\beta}; \quad |h_{\alpha\beta}| \ll 1 \quad (3.237)$$

with this we can calculate the Cristoffel symbol:

$$\Gamma_{00}^{\mu} = -\frac{1}{2} (\eta^{\mu\sigma} + h^{\mu\sigma}) \partial_{\sigma} (\eta_{00} + h_{00}) = -\frac{1}{2} (\eta^{\mu\sigma} + h^{\mu\sigma}) \partial_{\sigma} h_{00} \approx \frac{1}{2} \eta^{\mu\sigma} \partial_{\sigma} h_{00}. \quad (3.238)$$

$$\frac{d^2 x^{\mu}}{d\tau^2} = \frac{1}{2} \eta^{\mu\sigma} \partial_{\sigma} h_{00} \left(\frac{dt}{d\tau} \right)^2. \quad (3.239)$$

Because the Minkowski metric is a diagonal metric then we can split it into two equations

1. $\mu = \sigma = 0$ we find that *in the Newton's theory t is an affine parameter* and t and τ are related affinely

$$\frac{d^2 t}{d\tau^2} = 0. \quad (3.240)$$

2. $\mu = \sigma = i$

$$\frac{d^2 x^i}{dt^2} = \frac{1}{2} \partial_i h_{00} \quad (3.241)$$

In the right hand side of the last equation we see a gradient, this is looking like a Newton's second law, let's find out what is h_{00} , therefore

$$\frac{d^2 \vec{X}}{dt^2} = -\vec{\nabla} \left(-\frac{GM}{r} \right), \quad (3.242)$$

$$h_{00} = -\frac{2GM}{r} + cte. \quad (3.243)$$

And far from the source it must be asymptotically plane, or Minkowski then the constant we add to h_{00} is then zero, thus the metric becomes

$$g_{00} = -(1 + 2\phi), \quad (3.244)$$

$$g_{ii} = (1 + 2\phi). \quad (3.245)$$

Thanks to these we can introduce the *covariance principle* which sets that if we develop a theory in a locally plane vicinity we can generalize it changing the usual derivatives by covariant derivatives.

3.4.2 Einstein's field equations

Using the covariance principle we can generalize the following electrodynamic equations

$$\partial_\alpha T^{\alpha\beta} = 0 \rightarrow \vec{\nabla}_\alpha T^{\alpha\beta} = 0, \quad (3.246)$$

$$\partial_\beta F^{\alpha\beta} = 4\phi J^\alpha \rightarrow \vec{\nabla}_\beta F^{\alpha\beta} = 4\pi J^\alpha, \quad (3.247)$$

$$\partial_\beta^* F^{\alpha\beta} = 0 \rightarrow \vec{\nabla}_\beta^* F^{\alpha\beta} = 0. \quad (3.248)$$

We see from one side the matter and the other the geometry, the presence of matter implies a change in geometry? We will turn back to this question later. Now, we're going to start from the Einstein's equations in the Newtonian limit

$$\nabla^2 \phi = 4\phi G\rho, \quad \nabla^2 = \delta^{ij} \partial_i \partial_j, \quad (3.249)$$

and introducing the energy-momentum tensor which contains the information of the energy density, momentum flux and strains then the first component of that tensor is the mass density (remembering from the mass-energy equivalence) is $T^{00} = \rho$, and in some point in the Newtonian limit then

$$\nabla^2 h_{00} = -8\phi GT_{00}. \quad (3.250)$$

But we've using usual derivatives and we must work with tensor equations, then to solve this problem with the Laplacian we are going to introduce the D'Alembertian $\square = \nabla^a \nabla_a$ and because we've got a second order equation we gotta use a second order geometry equation, therefore the Riemann's tensor must be introduced but this has a rank $\binom{1}{3}$ then the Ricci's tensor is a better option. Einstein's proposed the Ricci's tensor is directly proportional to the energy-momentum tensor $R_{ab} = kT_{ab}$ but from the conservation law we've go

$$\vec{\nabla}^a T_{ab} = 0 \rightarrow \vec{\nabla}^a R_{ab} = 0, \quad (3.251)$$

but

$$\vec{\nabla}^a R_{ab} = \frac{1}{2} \vec{\nabla}_b R, \quad (3.252)$$

$$\vec{\nabla}^a R_{ab} = \frac{1}{2} \vec{\nabla}_b R = \frac{k}{2} \vec{\nabla}_b T = \frac{k}{2} \partial_b T = 0. \quad (3.253)$$

This implies then T is a constant along the space-time, but this is not always true, thus this assumptions between the Ricci's tensor and the energy-momentum tensor is discarded, then we're going to propose the Einstein's tensor (which is covariantly constant), then

$$\vec{\nabla}^a \left(R_{ab} - \frac{1}{2} g_{ab} R \right) = 0 \rightarrow R_{ab} - \frac{1}{2} g_{ab} R = k T_{ab}, \quad (3.254)$$

$$g^{ab} \left(R_{ab} - \frac{1}{2} g_{ab} R \right) = k g^{ab} T_{ab} \rightarrow R = -k T, \quad (3.255)$$

then finally the relation between the curvature and the matter is

$$R_{ab} = k \left(T_{ab} - \frac{1}{2} g_{ab} T \right) \quad (3.256)$$

we're going to see what happens in the Newtonian limit, then the greatest interaction is due to the component T_{00} or what is the same, due to the mass density.

$$\begin{aligned} R_{00} &= k \left(T_{00} - \frac{1}{2} g_{00} T \right), \\ T &= g^{ab} T_{ab} = g^{00} T_{00} = -(1 + h_{00}) \rho = -T_{00}, \\ R_{00} &= k \left(T_{00} - \frac{1}{2} g_{00} T_{00} \right) = k \left(T_{00} + \frac{1}{2} (h_{00} - 1) T_{00} \right) = \frac{1}{2} k T_{00} = R_{00}. \end{aligned}$$

Now, we are going to calculate the Ricci's tensor

$$\begin{aligned} R_{\mu k} &= \partial_\lambda \Gamma_{\mu k}^\lambda - \partial_k \Gamma_{\mu \lambda}^\lambda + \Gamma_{\mu k}^\rho \Gamma_{\lambda \rho}^\lambda - \Gamma_{\mu \lambda}^\rho \Gamma_{k \rho}^\lambda, \\ R_{00} &= \partial_\lambda \Gamma_{00}^\lambda - \partial_0 \Gamma_{0 \lambda}^\lambda + \Gamma_{00}^\rho \Gamma_{\lambda \rho}^\lambda - \Gamma_{0 \lambda}^\rho \Gamma_{0 \rho}^\lambda, \end{aligned}$$

$$R_{00} = \partial_\lambda \Gamma_{00}^\lambda, \quad (3.257)$$

$$R_{00} = R^i_{0i0} = \partial_i \Gamma^i_{00} = \partial_i \left[-\frac{1}{2} g^{i\sigma} \partial_\sigma g_{00} \right] = \partial_i \left[-\frac{1}{2} g^{ij} \partial_j g_{00} \right] \quad (3.258)$$

$$= -\frac{1}{2} \partial_i \left[(\eta^{ij} + h^{ij}) \partial_j (\eta_{00} + h_{00}) \right] \quad (3.259)$$

$$= -\frac{1}{2} \eta^{ij} \partial_i \partial_j h_{00} = -\frac{1}{2} \nabla^2 h_{00}, \quad (3.260)$$

$$\nabla^2 h_{00} = -k T_{00}. \quad (3.261)$$

3.4.2.1 Einstein-Hilbert action

Can we deduce the Einstein's equations from a variational principle? from a Hamiltonian formulation? To solve these Einstein and Hilbert arrived to a object called the Einstein-Hilbert action.

Lets define an action and a Lagrangian density as

$$S_H[g] = \int_M \mathcal{L}_H \sqrt{-g} d^4x, \quad \mathcal{L}_H = \frac{1}{16\pi} R, \quad (3.262)$$

$$S_H[g] = \frac{1}{16\pi} \int_M R \sqrt{-g} d^4x = \int L dt. \quad (3.263)$$

In fact, for a general system, we can split the action into a geometrical part and a material part as

$$S = S_H + S_m. \quad (3.264)$$

Now, lets develop more this

$$S_H[g] = \frac{1}{16\pi} \int_M g^{ab} R_{ab} \sqrt{-g} d^4x, \quad (3.265)$$

now we are going to variate the action thus

$$\delta S_H[g] = \frac{1}{16\pi} \int_M [\sqrt{-g} g^{\mu\nu} \delta R_{\mu\nu} + \sqrt{-g} R_{\mu\nu} \delta g^{\mu\nu} + R \delta \sqrt{-g}] d^4x \quad (3.266)$$

applying a variation of the gravitational field $g_{\mu\nu} \rightarrow g_{\mu\nu} + \delta g_{\mu\nu}$ we can expand each term of the integrand, thus first lets solve for $\sqrt{-g} g^{\mu\nu} \delta R_{\mu\nu}$

$$\begin{aligned} \sqrt{-g} g^{\mu\nu} \delta R_{\mu\nu} &= \sqrt{-g} g^{\mu\nu} \delta [\partial_\alpha \Gamma_{\mu\nu}^\alpha - \partial_\nu \Gamma_{\mu\alpha}^\alpha + \Gamma_{\mu\nu}^\tau \Gamma_{\tau\alpha}^\alpha - \Gamma_{\mu\alpha}^\tau \Gamma_{\nu\tau}^\alpha] \\ &= \sqrt{-g} g^{\mu\nu} [\partial_\alpha \delta \Gamma_{\mu\nu}^\alpha - \partial_\nu \delta \Gamma_{\mu\alpha}^\alpha + \delta \Gamma_{\mu\nu}^\tau \Gamma_{\tau\alpha}^\alpha + \Gamma_{\mu\nu}^\tau \delta \Gamma_{\tau\alpha}^\alpha - \delta \Gamma_{\mu\alpha}^\tau \Gamma_{\nu\tau}^\alpha - \Gamma_{\mu\alpha}^\tau \delta \Gamma_{\nu\tau}^\alpha], \end{aligned}$$

remebering the definition of the Cristoffel symbols

$$\Gamma_{\nu\rho}^\mu = \frac{1}{2} g^{\mu\sigma} (\partial_\rho g_{\sigma\nu} + \partial_\nu g_{\sigma\rho} - \partial_\sigma g_{\nu\rho}), \quad (3.267)$$

$$\begin{aligned} \delta \Gamma_{\nu\rho}^\mu &= \frac{1}{2} \delta g^{\mu\sigma} (\partial_\rho g_{\sigma\nu} + \partial_\nu g_{\sigma\rho} - \partial_\sigma g_{\nu\rho}) + \frac{1}{2} g^{\mu\sigma} (\partial_\rho \delta g_{\sigma\nu} + \partial_\nu \delta g_{\sigma\rho} - \partial_\sigma \delta g_{\nu\rho}) \\ &= \frac{1}{2} \delta g^{\mu\sigma} (g_{\sigma\nu,\rho} + g_{\sigma\rho,\nu} - g_{\nu\rho,\sigma}) + \frac{1}{2} g^{\mu\sigma} [(\delta g_{\sigma\nu})_{,\rho} + (\delta g_{\sigma\rho})_{,\nu} - (\delta g_{\nu\rho})_{,\sigma}]. \end{aligned}$$

We are going to focus on the term $\delta g^{\mu\sigma}$ then

$$\begin{aligned}\delta g^{\mu\sigma} &= \delta \left(g^{\mu k} g_k^\sigma \right) = \delta \left(g^{\mu k} g^{l\sigma} g_{kl} \right) \\ &= \delta g^{\mu k} g^{l\sigma} g_{kl} + g^{\mu k} \delta g^{l\sigma} g_{kl} + g^{\mu k} g^{l\sigma} \delta g_{kl} \\ &= \delta g^{\mu k} \delta_k^\sigma + \delta g^{l\sigma} \delta_l^\mu + g^{\mu k} g^{l\sigma} \delta g_{kl} = -g^{\mu k} g^{l\sigma} \delta g_{kl}.\end{aligned}$$

Using this in the variation of the Crystoffel symbol, then

$$\begin{aligned}\delta \Gamma_{\nu\rho}^\mu &= -\frac{1}{2} g^{\mu k} g^{l\sigma} \delta g_{kl} (g_{\sigma\nu,\rho} + g_{\sigma\rho,\nu} - g_{\nu\rho,\sigma}) + \frac{1}{2} g^{\mu\sigma} [(\delta g_{\sigma\nu})_{,\rho} + (g_{\sigma\rho})_{,\nu} - (\delta g_{\nu\rho})_{,\sigma}] \\ &= -g^{\mu k} \delta g_{kl} \Gamma_{\nu\rho}^l + \frac{1}{2} g^{\mu\sigma} [(\delta g_{\sigma\nu})_{,\rho} + (g_{\sigma\rho})_{,\nu} - (\delta g_{\nu\rho})_{,\sigma}],\end{aligned}$$

$$\begin{aligned}(\delta g_{\alpha\beta})_{,\gamma} &= (\delta g_{\alpha\beta})_{,\gamma} - \Gamma_{\alpha\gamma}^l \delta g_{l\beta} - \Gamma_{\beta\gamma}^l \delta g_{l\alpha}, \\ &(\delta g_{\sigma\nu})_{,\rho} + (\delta g_{\sigma\rho})_{,\nu} - (\delta g_{\nu\rho})_{,\sigma} \\ &= (\delta g_{\sigma\nu})_{;\rho} + (\delta g_{\sigma\rho})_{;\nu} - (\delta g_{\nu\rho})_{;\sigma} + \Gamma_{\sigma\rho}^l \delta g_{l\nu} + \Gamma_{\nu\rho}^l \delta g_{l\sigma} + \Gamma_{\sigma\nu}^l \delta g_{l\rho} + \Gamma_{\rho\nu}^l \delta g_{l\sigma} - \Gamma_{\nu\sigma}^l \delta g_{l\rho} - \Gamma_{\rho\sigma}^l \delta g_{l\nu}.\end{aligned}$$

Because we have got a connection free of torsion is fulfilled the Cristoffel symbols commute in their lower indices $\Gamma_{\beta\gamma}^\alpha = \Gamma_{\gamma\beta}^\alpha$ then

$$(\delta g_{\sigma\nu})_{,\rho} + (\delta g_{\sigma\rho})_{,\nu} - (\delta g_{\nu\rho})_{,\sigma} = (\delta g_{\sigma\nu})_{;\rho} + (g_{\sigma\rho})_{;\nu} - (\delta g_{\nu\rho})_{;\sigma} + 2\Gamma_{\nu\rho}^l \delta g_{l\sigma}, \quad (3.268)$$

$$\begin{aligned}\delta \Gamma_{\nu\rho}^\mu &= -g^{\mu k} \delta g_{kl} \Gamma_{\nu\rho}^l + \frac{1}{2} g^{\mu\sigma} [(\delta g_{\sigma\nu})_{;\rho} + (\delta g_{\sigma\rho})_{;\nu} - (\delta g_{\nu\rho})_{;\sigma} + 2\Gamma_{\nu\rho}^l \delta g_{l\sigma}] \\ &= \frac{1}{2} g^{\mu\sigma} [(\delta g_{\sigma\nu})_{;\rho} + (\delta g_{\sigma\rho})_{;\nu} - (\delta g_{\nu\rho})_{;\sigma}]\end{aligned}$$

$$\delta \Gamma_{\nu\rho}^\mu = \frac{1}{2} g^{\mu\sigma} [(\delta g_{\sigma\nu})_{;\rho} + (\delta g_{\sigma\rho})_{;\nu} - (\delta g_{\nu\rho})_{;\sigma}], \quad (3.269)$$

now, lest calculate the following covariant derivatives

$$(\delta \Gamma_{\nu\rho}^\mu)_{;\alpha} = (\delta \Gamma_{\nu\rho}^\mu)_{,\alpha} + \Gamma_{\sigma\alpha}^\mu (\delta \Gamma_{\nu\rho}^\sigma) - \Gamma_{\nu\alpha}^\sigma (\delta \Gamma_{\sigma\rho}^\mu) - \Gamma_{\rho\alpha}^\sigma (\delta \Gamma_{\sigma\nu}^\mu) \quad (3.270)$$

$$(\delta \Gamma_{\nu\alpha}^\mu)_{;\rho} = (\delta \Gamma_{\nu\alpha}^\mu)_{,\rho} + \Gamma_{\sigma\rho}^\mu (\delta \Gamma_{\nu\alpha}^\sigma) - \Gamma_{\nu\rho}^\sigma (\delta \Gamma_{\sigma\alpha}^\mu) - \Gamma_{\alpha\rho}^\sigma (\delta \Gamma_{\sigma\nu}^\mu) \quad (3.271)$$

we are going to, in both equation a contraction of μ with α then

$$(\delta\Gamma_{\nu\rho}^{\mu})_{;\mu} = (\delta\Gamma_{\nu\rho}^{\mu})_{,\mu} + \Gamma_{\sigma\mu}^{\mu}(\delta\Gamma_{\nu\rho}^{\sigma}) - \Gamma_{\nu\mu}^{\sigma}(\delta\Gamma_{\sigma\rho}^{\mu}) - \Gamma_{\rho\mu}^{\sigma}(\delta\Gamma_{\sigma\nu}^{\mu}), \quad (3.272)$$

$$(\delta\Gamma_{\nu\mu}^{\mu})_{\rho} = (\delta\Gamma_{\nu\mu}^{\mu})_{,\rho} + \Gamma_{\sigma\rho}^{\mu}(\delta\Gamma_{\nu\mu}^{\sigma}) - \Gamma_{\nu\rho}^{\sigma}(\delta\Gamma_{\sigma\mu}^{\mu}) - \Gamma_{\mu\rho}^{\sigma}(\delta\Gamma_{\sigma\nu}^{\mu}). \quad (3.273)$$

Subtracting both equations then

$$(\delta\Gamma_{\nu\rho}^{\mu})_{;\mu} - (\delta\Gamma_{\nu\mu}^{\mu})_{;\rho} = (\delta\Gamma_{\nu\rho}^{\mu})_{,\mu} - (\delta\Gamma_{\nu\mu}^{\mu})_{,\rho} + \Gamma_{\sigma\mu}^{\mu}(\delta\Gamma_{\nu\rho}^{\sigma}) + \Gamma_{\nu\rho}^{\sigma}(\delta\Gamma_{\sigma\mu}^{\mu}) - \Gamma_{\nu\mu}^{\sigma}(\delta\Gamma_{\sigma\rho}^{\mu}) - \Gamma_{\sigma\rho}^{\mu}(\delta\Gamma_{\nu\mu}^{\sigma}) \quad (3.274)$$

If $\mu = \alpha$, $\nu = \mu$, $\rho = \mu$ then

$$\delta R_{\mu\nu} = (\delta\Gamma_{\mu\nu}^{\alpha})_{;\alpha} - (\delta\Gamma_{\mu\alpha}^{\alpha})_{;\nu}, \quad (3.275)$$

thus

$$\sqrt{-g}g^{\mu\nu}\delta R_{\mu\nu} = \sqrt{-g}[(\delta\Gamma_{\mu\nu}^{\alpha})_{;\alpha} - (\delta\Gamma_{\mu\alpha}^{\alpha})_{;\nu}]. \quad (3.276)$$

Now, for the second term in the integrand

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{1}{\sqrt{-g}}\delta\sqrt{-g} &= \delta L n(\sqrt{-g}) = \frac{1}{2}\delta L n(-g_{\mu\nu}\dot{x}^{\mu}\dot{x}^{\nu}) = \frac{1}{2}\frac{\delta(-g_{\mu\nu}\dot{x}^{\mu}\dot{x}^{\nu})}{-g_{\mu\nu}\dot{x}^{\mu}\dot{x}^{\nu}} \\ &= -\frac{1}{2}\frac{1}{-g_{\mu\nu}\dot{x}^{\mu}\dot{x}^{\nu}}[-\delta g_{\mu\nu}]\dot{x}^{\mu}\dot{x}^{\nu}, \end{aligned}$$

$$\delta(g^{\mu\nu}g_{\mu\nu}) = 0 = g^{\mu\nu}\delta g_{\mu\nu} + g_{\mu\nu}\delta g^{\mu\nu}, \quad (3.277)$$

$$\frac{1}{\sqrt{-g}}\delta\sqrt{-g} = \frac{1}{2}g^{\mu\nu}\delta g_{\mu\nu} = -\frac{1}{2}g_{\mu\nu}\delta g^{\mu\nu}. \quad (3.278)$$

Lets define the following quantity

$$W^{\lambda} = g^{\mu k}\delta\Gamma_{\mu k}^{\lambda} - g^{\mu\lambda}\delta\Gamma_{\mu k}^k \quad (3.279)$$

we're going to interpret this quantity later, from now it will be a useful variable change to work on the algebra, if we contract over λ its covariant derivative we get

$$W^{\lambda}_{;\lambda} = g^{\mu k}\delta R_{\mu k}, \quad (3.280)$$

using these equation on the variation of the Einstein-Hilbert action we got

$$\delta S_H[g] = \frac{1}{16\pi} \int_M \left[R_{ab} \delta g^{ab} - \frac{R}{2} g_{ab} \delta g^{ab} + \vec{\nabla}_a W^a \right] \sqrt{-g} d^4x, \quad (3.281)$$

$$\delta S_H[g] = \frac{1}{16\pi} \int \left(R_{ab} - \frac{1}{2} R g_{ab} \right) \sqrt{-g} d^4x + \frac{1}{16\pi} \vec{\nabla}_a W^a \sqrt{-g} d^4x. \quad (3.282)$$

We gotta focus on the second term, to do it, first look at the figure 3.11 where the integrand is being integrated on M but the second term is in fact a divergence over a $4D$ volume thus in analogy to the $3D$ Gauss's theorem of divergence, this becomes the following integral

$$\int_M \vec{\nabla}_a W^a \sqrt{-g} d^4x = \oint_{\Sigma M} W^a dS_a. \quad (3.283)$$

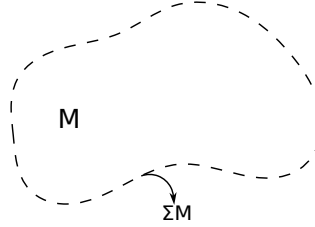


Figure 3.11: Representation of the region (manifold M) of integration and its surrounding surface ΣM .

The integral 3.283 is completely analogous to that in electrodynamics where we integrate the divergence of the Poinyng's vector, so we can extend the integration surface ΣM to infinity or what is the same *our manifold is asimptotically plane* and the second integral goes to zero, in analogy to electrodynamics we can interpreted the vector W^λ as a generalyzed four-momentum or heat or losses vector. The variation of the Einstein-Hilbert action then becomes

$$\delta S_H[g] = \frac{1}{16\pi} \int_M \left(R_{ab} - \frac{1}{2} R g_{ab} \right) \delta g^{ab} d^4x, \quad (3.284)$$

$$\frac{\delta S_H[g]}{\delta g^{ab}} = \frac{G_{ab}}{16\pi}. \quad (3.285)$$

If we extremalize it we find immediately $G_{ab} = 0$ which are the Einstein's equations in the vacuum.

3.4.2.2 Energy-momentum tensor

Here we are going to build up the Energy-momentum tensor the hearth of the Einstein's equations and most of the electrodynamics too, to do it we are going to use the Einstein-Hilbert action and a matter action as follows

$$S = S_H[g] + S_{matter}, \quad (3.286)$$

then lets see how changes the variation of the action

$$\frac{1}{\sqrt{-g}} \frac{\delta S}{\delta g^{ab}} = \frac{1}{\sqrt{-g}} \left[\frac{\delta S_H}{\delta g^{ab}} + \frac{\delta S_m}{\delta g^{ab}} \right], \quad (3.287)$$

$$\frac{1}{\sqrt{-g}} \frac{\delta S}{\delta g^{ab}} = \frac{1}{\sqrt{-g}} \left(\frac{G_{ab}}{16\pi} + \frac{\delta S_m}{\delta g^{ab}} \right) = 0, \quad (3.288)$$

$$\frac{1}{\sqrt{-g}} \frac{\delta S_m}{\delta g^{ab}} = -\frac{T_{ab}}{2} \rightarrow T_{ab} = -\frac{2}{\sqrt{-g}} \frac{\delta S_m}{\delta g^{ab}}, \quad (3.289)$$

$$\delta S_m = -\frac{1}{2} \int_M \sqrt{-g} T_{ab} \delta g^{ab} d^4x, \quad (3.290)$$

applying variational principles we then arrive to

$$R_{ab} - \frac{1}{2} g_{ab} R = 8\pi T_{ab}. \quad (3.291)$$

Thus we've arrived to the Einstein's field equations from variational principles, now we're going to solve this equations but only under the assumption that *the gravitational field is weak but not stationary*. To do it we have to suppose the metric of our manifold is plane with a certain perturbation in a region, so the global metric will be

$$g_{\alpha\beta} = \eta_{\alpha\beta} + h_{\alpha\beta} \quad |h_{\alpha\beta}| \ll 1. \quad (3.292)$$

Before going further we must prove the tensor 3.292 is a metric, lets then prove it. The contravariant components of the metric are given by

$$g^{\alpha\beta} = \eta^{\alpha\beta} - h^{\alpha\beta} \quad (3.293)$$

and given a coordinate chart $\phi = \{x^i\}$ $i = 0, 1, 2, 3$ and another coordinate chart $\bar{\phi} = \{\bar{x}^i\}$; $i = 0, 1, 2, 3$ thus the transformation rule for the metric is

$$g_{\bar{\alpha}\bar{\beta}} = \Lambda_{\bar{\alpha}}^{\mu} \Lambda_{\bar{\beta}}^{\nu} g_{\mu\nu} \quad (3.294)$$

where $\Lambda_{\bar{\beta}}^{\alpha}$ is a Lorentz Boost then what we see is that the transformation rule is a similarity or translation transformation then

$$g_{\bar{\alpha}\bar{\beta}} = \Lambda_{\bar{\alpha}}^{\mu} \Lambda_{\bar{\beta}}^{\nu} \eta_{\mu\nu} + \Lambda_{\bar{\alpha}}^{\mu} \Lambda_{\bar{\beta}}^{\nu} h_{\mu\nu} = \eta_{\bar{\alpha}\bar{\beta}} + h_{\bar{\alpha}\bar{\beta}}. \quad (3.295)$$

Then $g_{\alpha\beta}$ is effectively a tensor and having a theory invariant under Lorentz transformations implies having at least a special relativistic theory. In the Einstein's equations there is the Ricci's number and tensor, but to calculate them we first have to calculate the Riemann's tensor and the Cristoffel symbols, therefore

$$\begin{aligned} \Gamma_{\nu\rho}^{\mu} &= \frac{1}{2} g^{\mu\sigma} (g_{\sigma\nu,\rho} + g_{\rho\sigma,\nu} - g_{\nu\rho,\sigma}) \\ &= \frac{1}{2} (\eta^{\mu\sigma} - h^{\mu\sigma}) [h_{\sigma\nu,\rho} + h_{\rho\sigma,\nu} - h_{\nu\rho,\sigma}] \\ &= \frac{1}{2} \eta^{\mu\sigma} (h_{\sigma\nu,\rho} + h_{\rho\sigma,\nu} - h_{\nu\rho,\sigma}), \end{aligned}$$

$$R_{\nu\rho\sigma}^{\alpha} = \Gamma_{\nu\sigma,\rho}^{\alpha} - \Gamma_{\nu\rho,\sigma}^{\alpha} + \mathcal{O}(\Gamma^2), \quad (3.296)$$

$$\begin{aligned} \eta_{\mu\alpha} R_{\nu\rho\sigma}^{\alpha} = R_{\mu\nu\rho\sigma} &= \frac{\eta_{\mu\alpha}}{2} \left[\eta^{\alpha\beta} (h_{\beta\nu,\rho} + h_{\rho\beta,\nu} - h_{\rho\nu,\beta}) \right] - \frac{\eta^{\alpha\beta}}{2} \left[\eta^{\alpha\beta} (h_{\beta\nu,\sigma} + h_{\sigma\beta,\nu} - h_{\sigma\nu,\beta})_{,\rho} \right. \\ &\quad \left. - \eta^{\alpha\beta} (h_{\beta\nu,\rho} + h_{\rho\beta,\nu} - h_{\rho\nu,\beta})_{,\sigma} \right], \end{aligned}$$

$$R_{\mu\nu\rho\sigma} = \frac{1}{2} \delta_{\mu}^{\beta} (h_{\beta\sigma,\nu\rho} + h_{\rho\nu,\beta\sigma} - h_{\sigma\nu,\beta\rho} - h_{\rho'\beta\sigma,\nu\sigma}), \quad (3.297)$$

$$R_{\mu\nu\rho\sigma} = \frac{1}{2} (h_{\mu\sigma,\nu\rho} + h_{\rho\nu,\mu\sigma} - h_{\sigma\nu,\mu\rho} - h_{\rho\mu,\nu\sigma}) \quad (3.298)$$

There the Ricci's curvature tensor is given by

$$R_{\mu\nu} = \eta_{\alpha}^{\rho} \eta^{\alpha\beta} R_{\alpha\mu\rho\nu} = \frac{1}{2} [\partial_{\mu} \partial_{\rho} h_{\nu}^{\rho} + \partial^{\rho} \partial_{\nu} h_{\rho\mu} - \partial^{\rho} \partial_{\rho} h_{\nu\mu} - \partial_{\mu} \partial_{\nu} h_{\mu}^{\mu}] \quad (3.299)$$

$$R_{\mu\nu} = \frac{1}{2} (\partial_{\rho} \partial_{\mu} h_{\nu}^{\rho} + \partial_{\rho} \partial_{\nu} h_{\mu}^{\rho} - \partial_{\mu} \partial_{\nu} h - \square h_{\mu\nu}), \quad (3.300)$$

where $\square = \vec{\nabla}_a \vec{\nabla}^a$ is the D'Alembertian and in a Minkowski space it corresponds to $\square = \partial_\alpha \partial^\alpha$. Well then the Ricci's number is given by

$$R = \eta^{\mu\nu} R_{\mu\nu} = \frac{1}{2} \eta^{\mu\nu} (\partial_\rho \partial_\mu h^\rho_\nu + \partial_\rho \partial_\nu h^\rho_\mu - \partial_\mu \partial_\nu h - \square h_{\mu\nu}) = \partial_\rho \partial_\mu h^{\rho\mu} - \square h. \quad (3.301)$$

Now, introducing all of this on the Einstein's field equation we will have the following equation

$$\frac{1}{2} (\partial_\rho \partial_\mu h^\rho_\nu + \partial_\rho \partial_\nu h^\rho_\mu - \partial_\mu \partial_\nu h - \square h_{\mu\nu}) - \frac{1}{2} \eta_{\mu\nu} [\partial_\rho \partial_\sigma h^{\rho\sigma} - \square h] = 8\pi T_{\mu\nu}. \quad (3.302)$$

Before going further there is the need of introducing a special kind of tensor, called the *inverted trace tensor* which are really useful in the general relativity and in fact, the Einstein's tensor is one of this tensor and we are going to prove it in a moment, the inverted trace tensor for the perturbation tensor is given by

$$\bar{h}_{\mu\nu} = h_{\mu\nu} - \frac{1}{2} h_{\mu\nu} h, \quad (3.303)$$

it is easy to see that if we calculated the inverted trace tensor for the Ricci's curvature tensor we get the Einstein's tensor like this:

$$\bar{R}_{\alpha\beta} = R_{\alpha\beta} - \frac{1}{2} g_{\alpha\beta} R. \quad (3.304)$$

We can then rewrite the perturbation tensor in term of its inverted trace tensor and also its trace as follows

$$h_{\mu\nu} = \bar{h}_{\mu\nu} - \frac{1}{2} \eta_{\mu\nu} \bar{h}, \quad (3.305)$$

$$\eta^{\mu\nu} \bar{h}_{\mu\nu} = h - 2h = -h = \bar{h}. \quad (3.306)$$

Then the Einstein's field equations in terms of the inverted trace tensor becomes

$$\begin{aligned} & \partial_\rho \partial_\mu \left(\bar{h}^\rho_\nu - \frac{1}{2} \delta^\rho_\nu \bar{h} \right) + \partial_\rho \partial_\nu \left(\bar{h}^\rho_\mu - \frac{1}{2} \delta^\rho_\mu \bar{h} \right) + \partial_\mu \partial_\nu \bar{h} \\ & - \square \left(\bar{h}_{\mu\nu} - \frac{1}{2} \eta_{\mu\nu} \bar{h} \right) - \eta_{\mu\nu} \partial_\rho \partial_\sigma \left(\bar{h}^{\rho\sigma} - \frac{1}{2} \eta^{\rho\sigma} \bar{h} \right) - \eta_{\mu\nu} \square \bar{h} = 16\pi T_{\mu\nu} \end{aligned}$$

$$\begin{aligned}
& \partial_\rho \partial_\mu \bar{h}^\rho_\nu - \frac{1}{2} \delta^\rho_\nu \partial_\rho \partial_\mu \bar{h} + \partial_\rho \partial_\nu \bar{h}^\rho_\mu - \frac{1}{2} \delta^\rho_\mu \partial_\rho \partial_\nu \bar{h} + \partial_\mu \partial_\nu \bar{h} - \square \bar{h}_{\mu\nu} + \frac{1}{2} \eta_{\mu\nu} \square \bar{h} \\
& \quad - \eta_{\mu\nu} \partial_\rho \partial_\sigma \bar{h}^{\rho\sigma} + \frac{1}{2} \eta_{\mu\nu} \eta^{\rho\sigma} \partial_\rho \partial_\sigma \bar{h} - \eta_{\mu\nu} \square \bar{h} = 16\pi T_{\mu\nu}, \\
& = \partial_\rho \partial_\mu \eta^{\rho\alpha} \bar{h}_{\alpha\nu} + \partial_\rho \partial_\nu \eta^{\rho\alpha} \bar{h}_{\alpha\mu} - \frac{1}{2} \delta^\rho_\nu \partial_\rho \partial_\mu \bar{h} - \frac{1}{2} \delta^\rho_\mu \partial_\rho \partial_\nu \bar{h} + \partial_\mu \partial_\nu \bar{h} \\
& \quad - \square \bar{h}_{\mu\nu} + \frac{1}{2} \eta_{\mu\nu} \square \bar{h} + \frac{1}{2} \eta_{\mu\nu} \eta^{\rho\sigma} \partial_\rho \partial_\sigma \bar{h} - \eta_{\mu\nu} \partial_\rho \partial_\sigma \eta^{\rho\alpha} \eta^{\sigma\beta} \bar{h}_{\alpha\beta} - \eta_{\mu\nu} \square \bar{h}, \\
& = \partial_\rho \partial_\mu \eta^{\rho\alpha} \bar{h}_{\alpha\nu} + \partial_\rho \partial_\nu \eta^{\rho\alpha} \bar{h}_{\alpha\mu} - \frac{1}{2} \partial_\nu \partial_\mu \bar{h} - \frac{1}{2} \partial_\mu \partial_\nu \bar{h} + \partial_\mu \partial_\nu \bar{h} - \square \bar{h}_{\mu\nu} \\
& \quad + \frac{1}{2} \eta_{\mu\nu} \square \bar{h} + \frac{1}{2} \eta_{\mu\nu} \partial_\rho \partial^\rho \bar{h} - \eta_{\mu\nu} \eta^{\rho\alpha} \eta^{\sigma\beta} \partial_\rho \partial_\sigma \bar{h}_{\alpha\beta} - \eta_{\mu\nu} \square \bar{h}, \\
& = \partial_\rho \partial_\mu \eta^{\rho\alpha} \bar{h}_{\alpha\nu} + \partial_\rho \partial_\nu \eta^{\rho\alpha} \bar{h}_{\alpha\mu} - \square \bar{h}_{\mu\nu} - \eta_{\mu\nu} \eta^{\rho\alpha} \eta^{\sigma\beta} \partial_\rho \partial_\sigma \bar{h}_{\alpha\beta} \\
& = \partial_\mu [\partial_\rho (\eta^{\rho\alpha} \bar{h}_{\nu\alpha})] + \partial_\nu [\partial_\rho (\eta^{\rho\alpha} \bar{h}_{\mu\alpha})] - \square \bar{h}_{\mu\nu} - \eta_{\mu\nu} \eta^{\rho\alpha} \eta^{\sigma\beta} \partial_\rho \partial_\sigma \bar{h}_{\alpha\beta} \\
& \quad = \partial_\mu W_\nu + \partial_\nu W_\mu - \square \bar{h}_{\mu\nu} - \eta_{\mu\nu} \eta^{\rho\alpha} \eta^{\sigma\beta} \partial_\rho \partial_\sigma \bar{h}_{\alpha\beta} \\
& \quad = \partial_\mu W_\nu + \partial_\nu W_\mu - \square \bar{h}_{\mu\nu} - \eta_{\mu\nu} \eta^{\rho\alpha} \partial_\rho \left[\partial_\sigma (\eta^{\sigma\beta} \bar{h}_{\alpha\beta}) \right], \\
& \quad - \left[\square \bar{h}_{\mu\nu} - \partial_\mu W_\nu - \partial_\nu W_\mu + \eta_{\mu\nu} \eta^{\alpha\beta} \partial_\alpha W_\beta \right] = 16\pi T_{\mu\nu} \tag{3.307}
\end{aligned}$$

Multiplying both sides by -1 and changing $\mu \rightarrow \alpha$ and $\nu \rightarrow \beta$ then we have finally

$$\square \bar{h}_{\alpha\beta} - \partial_\beta W_\alpha - \partial_\alpha W_\beta + \eta_{\alpha\beta} \eta^{\mu\nu} \partial_\nu W_\mu = -16\pi T_{\alpha\beta}; \quad W_\alpha = \partial_\mu (\eta^{\mu\nu} \bar{h}_{\alpha\nu}). \tag{3.308}$$

The equation 3.308 is the Einstein's equations and they are really similar to the Maxwell's equations, the terms with W_α are like heat or losses fluxes on the borders of the manifold. Our intention now is to convert the equation 3.308 into a wave equation, but how do we do it? In the same way we do it in electromagnetism! We work with a Gauge theory, a calibration theory, there we use the Lorenz's Gauge, here we have to find and use this Lorenz's Gauge and later also find out the called *transverse Gauge*.

Chapter 4

Gravitational Waves

*A century after Einstein first wrote them down,
the ripples of space-time finally reached our
instruments.*

“Ladies and gentlemen, we have detected gravitational waves. We did it.”

– David Reitze

4.1 Lorenz Gauge and gravitational waves

Lets remember how are the conditions of the gravitational field we're working on (there is only one v:) which is a *theory of weak field* this means we have a plane (Minkowski) space-time but there is a certain perturbation on a region we represent it as $g_{\alpha\beta} = \eta_{\alpha\beta} + h_{\alpha\beta}$ $|h_{\alpha\beta}| \ll 1$. We can do these perturbations on the coordinate charts as $x'^\alpha = x^\alpha + \xi^\alpha$ where $\xi^\alpha = \xi^\alpha(x^\alpha)$ are infinitesimal transformations such that

$$\left| \frac{\partial \xi^\alpha}{\partial x^\beta} \right| \approx |h_{\alpha\beta}| \rightarrow \left| \frac{\partial \xi^\alpha}{\partial x^\beta} \right| \ll 1. \quad (4.1)$$

We are looking for a gauge theory that leaves invariant certain quantity, in our case such quantity is the Riemann's tensor, to do it we gotta see how is the behavior of our space-time

$$g'_{\alpha\beta} = g_{\mu\nu} \frac{\partial x^\mu}{\partial x'^\alpha} \frac{\partial x^\nu}{\partial x'^\beta}, \quad (4.2)$$

$$\frac{\partial x^\mu}{\partial x'^\alpha} = \delta^\mu_\alpha - \frac{\partial \xi^\mu}{\partial x^\alpha} \frac{\partial x^\nu}{\partial x'^\alpha} = \delta^\mu_\alpha - \frac{\partial \xi^\mu}{\partial x^\alpha} \left(\delta^\nu_\alpha - \frac{\partial \xi^\nu}{\partial x^\rho} \frac{\partial x^\rho}{\partial x'^\alpha} \right), \quad (4.3)$$

$$\frac{\partial x^\mu}{\partial x'^\alpha} = \delta^\mu_\alpha - \frac{\partial \xi^\mu}{\partial x^\alpha}, \quad (4.4)$$

$$g'_{\alpha\beta} = g_{\mu\nu} \left(\delta^\mu_\alpha - \frac{\partial \xi^\mu}{\partial x^\alpha} \right) \left(\delta^\nu_\beta - \frac{\partial \xi^\nu}{\partial x^\beta} \right) = g_{\alpha\beta} - g_{\alpha\nu} \frac{\partial \xi^\nu}{\partial x^\beta} - g_{\beta\mu} \frac{\partial \xi^\mu}{\partial x^\alpha}, \quad (4.5)$$

$$g'_{\alpha\beta} = (\eta_{\alpha\beta} + h_{\alpha\beta}) - \eta_{\alpha\nu} \frac{\partial \xi^\nu}{\partial x^\beta} - \eta_{\beta\mu} \frac{\partial \xi^\mu}{\partial x^\alpha}, \quad (4.6)$$

$$g'_{\alpha\beta} = \eta_{\alpha\beta} + h'_{\alpha\beta} \rightarrow; h'_{\alpha\beta} = h_{\alpha\beta} - \eta_{\alpha\nu} \frac{\partial \xi^\nu}{\partial x^\beta} - \eta_{\beta\mu} \frac{\partial \xi^\mu}{\partial x^\alpha}. \quad (4.7)$$

AQUÍ DEBERÍA AGREGAR ALGO SOBRE TEORÍA DE GAUGE EN EL ELECTROMAGNETISMO COMO ANEXO O COMO NO SÉ XD

In analogy to see how transforms the Riemann's tensor, lets first calculate the following transform of the tensor $R'^{\alpha\beta}_{\mu\nu}$ this because it will be easier mathematically calculate in this form and in the end using the Minkowski's metric tensor we can lower one index, therefore

$$R'^{\alpha\beta}_{\mu\nu} = \frac{\partial x'^\alpha}{\partial x^\alpha} \frac{\partial x'^\beta}{\partial x^\beta} \frac{\partial x^c}{\partial x'^\mu} \frac{\partial x^d}{\partial x'^\nu} R^{ab}_{cd} \quad (4.8)$$

we gotta calculate the derivative of the prime coordinates respect to the non prime , then

$$\frac{\partial x'^{\alpha}}{\partial x^{\mu}} = \delta_{\mu}^{\alpha} + \frac{\partial \xi^{\alpha}}{\partial x^{\mu}}. \quad (4.9)$$

Using the equation 4.4 and 4.9 into the equation 4.8 we then have

$$\begin{aligned} R'^{\alpha\beta}_{\mu\nu} &= \left[\delta_a^{\alpha} + \frac{\partial \xi^{\alpha}}{\partial x^a} \right] \left[\delta_b^{\beta} + \frac{\partial \xi^{\beta}}{\partial x^b} \right] \left[\delta_{\mu}^c - \frac{\partial \xi^c}{\partial x^{\mu}} \right] \left[\delta_{\nu}^d - \frac{\partial \xi^d}{\partial x^{\nu}} \right] R^{ab}_{cd} \\ &= \left[\delta_a^{\alpha} \delta_b^{\beta} + \delta_a^{\alpha} \frac{\partial \xi^{\beta}}{\partial x^b} + \delta_b^{\beta} \frac{\partial \xi^{\alpha}}{\partial x^a} \right] \left[\delta_{\mu}^c \delta_{\nu}^d - \delta_{\mu}^c \frac{\partial \xi^d}{\partial x^{\nu}} - \delta_{\nu}^d \frac{\partial \xi^c}{\partial x^{\mu}} \right] R^{ab}_{cd} \\ &= \left[\delta_a^{\alpha} \delta_b^{\beta} \delta_{\mu}^c \delta_{\nu}^d - \delta_a^{\alpha} \delta_b^{\beta} \delta_{\mu}^c \frac{\partial \xi^d}{\partial x^{\nu}} - \delta_a^{\alpha} \delta_b^{\beta} \delta_{\nu}^d \frac{\partial \xi^c}{\partial x^{\mu}} + \delta_a^{\alpha} \delta_{\mu}^c \delta_{\nu}^d \frac{\partial \xi^{\beta}}{\partial x^b} + \delta_b^{\beta} \delta_{\mu}^c \delta_{\nu}^d \frac{\partial \xi^{\alpha}}{\partial x^a} \right] R^{ab}_{cd} \\ &= R^{\alpha\beta}_{\mu\nu} + \left\{ \delta_b^{\beta} \delta_{\mu}^c \left[\delta_{\nu}^d \frac{\partial \xi^{\alpha}}{\partial x^a} - \delta_a^{\alpha} \frac{\partial \xi^d}{\partial x^{\nu}} \right] + \delta_a^{\alpha} \delta_{\nu}^d \left[\delta_{\mu}^c \frac{\partial \xi^{\beta}}{\partial x^b} - \delta_b^{\beta} \frac{\partial \xi^c}{\partial x^{\mu}} \right] \right\} R^{ab}_{cd} \\ &= R^{\alpha\beta}_{\mu\nu} + \left\{ \delta_b^{\beta} \delta_{\mu}^c \left[\delta_{\nu}^d \delta_a^{\alpha} \frac{\partial \xi^{\alpha}}{\partial x^{\nu}} - \delta_a^{\alpha} \delta_{\alpha}^d \frac{\partial \xi^{\alpha}}{\partial x^{\nu}} \right] + \delta_a^{\alpha} \delta_{\nu}^d \left[\delta_{\mu}^c \delta_b^{\beta} \frac{\partial \xi^{\beta}}{\partial x^{\mu}} - \delta_b^{\beta} \delta_{\beta}^c \frac{\partial \xi^{\beta}}{\partial x^{\mu}} \right] \right\} R^{ab}_{cd} \\ &= R^{\alpha\beta}_{\mu\nu} + \left\{ \delta_b^{\beta} \delta_{\mu}^c \delta_a^{\alpha} \left[\frac{\partial \xi^{\alpha}}{\partial x^{\nu}} - \frac{\partial \xi^{\alpha}}{\partial x^{\nu}} \right] + \delta_a^{\alpha} \delta_{\nu}^d \delta_b^{\beta} \left[\frac{\partial \xi^{\beta}}{\partial x^{\mu}} - \frac{\partial \xi^{\beta}}{\partial x^{\mu}} \right] \right\} R^{ab}_{cd}, \end{aligned}$$

$$R'^{\alpha\beta}_{\mu\nu} = R^{\alpha\beta}_{\mu\nu} \quad (4.10)$$

$$\eta_{b\beta} R'^{\alpha\beta}_{\mu\nu} = R'^{\alpha}_{b\mu\nu} = \eta_{b\beta} R^{\alpha\beta}_{\mu\nu} = R^{\alpha}_{b\mu\nu} \quad (4.11)$$

Doing the variable change $b = \beta$ we then arrive that the Riemann's tensor keep invariant under these infinitesimal transformations:

$$R'^{\alpha}_{\beta\mu\nu} = R^{\alpha}_{\beta\mu\nu}, \quad (4.12)$$

and thus

$$R'_{\alpha\beta} = R_{\alpha\beta} \quad (4.13)$$

and the Lorenz Gauge is

$$\vec{\nabla}_{\alpha} \left(\eta^{\alpha\beta} A_{\beta} \right) = 0 \quad (4.14)$$

and then by analogy with the electromagnetism $\bar{h}_{\alpha\beta}$ fulfil a Lorenz Gauge as follows

$$\frac{\partial}{\partial x^{\mu}} \left(\eta^{\mu\nu} \bar{h}_{\alpha\nu} \right) = 0. \quad (4.15)$$

Well then, in the Einstein's equation 3.308 there is the trace and the tensors of the trace inverted tensors, so we have to calculate they transformed versions too, in this way lets do it

$$h' = h - 2\partial_\mu \xi^\mu, \quad (4.16)$$

$$\bar{h}'_{\alpha\beta} = h'_{\alpha\beta} - \frac{1}{2}\eta_{\alpha\beta}h' = h_{\alpha\beta} - \frac{\partial\xi_\alpha}{\partial x^\beta} - \frac{\partial\xi_\beta}{\partial x^\alpha} - \frac{1}{2}\eta_{\alpha\beta}\left(h - 2\frac{\partial\xi^\alpha}{\partial x^\mu}\right), \quad (4.17)$$

$$\bar{h}'_{\alpha\beta} = \bar{h}_{\alpha\beta} - \frac{\partial\xi_\alpha}{\partial x^\beta} - \frac{\partial\xi_\beta}{\partial x^\alpha} + \eta_{\alpha\beta}\frac{\partial\xi^\mu}{\partial x^\mu}, \quad (4.18)$$

$$W'_\alpha = \frac{\partial}{\partial x^\mu} \left(\eta^{\mu\nu} \bar{h}'_{\alpha\nu} \right), \quad (4.19)$$

$$W'_\alpha = \partial_\mu \left[\eta^{\mu\nu} \left(\bar{h}_{\alpha\nu} - \partial_\nu \xi_\alpha - \partial_\alpha \xi_\nu + \eta_{\alpha\nu} \partial_\mu \xi^\mu \right) \right], \quad (4.20)$$

$$W'_\alpha = \partial_\mu \left[\eta^{\mu\nu} \bar{h}_{\alpha\nu} - \eta^{\mu\nu} \partial_\nu \xi_\alpha - \partial_\alpha \xi^\mu + \delta_\alpha^\mu \partial_\mu \xi^\mu \right] \quad (4.21)$$

$$W'_\alpha = W_\alpha - \eta^{\mu\nu} \frac{\partial^2 \xi}{\partial x^\mu \partial x^\nu} \rightarrow; W'_\alpha = W_\alpha - \square \xi_\alpha, \quad (4.22)$$

$$W'_\alpha = 0 \iff W_\alpha = \square \xi_\alpha. \quad (4.23)$$

We have got a little freedom to choose our W_α keeping invariant the Riemann's tensor fulfilling then

$$\square \bar{h}_{\alpha\beta} = -16\pi T_{\alpha\beta}, \quad (4.24)$$

and turning back the unities therefore

$$\square \bar{h}_{\alpha\beta} = -\frac{16\pi G}{C^4} T_{\alpha\beta}. \quad (4.25)$$

The equation 4.25 is the wave equation for gravitational waves! Lets see how are their solutions, first we are going to analyze the vacuum case $T_{\alpha\beta} = 0$ and the simplest solution would be a traveling monochromatic plane wave as

$$\bar{h}_{\alpha\beta}(x^\mu) = A_{\alpha\beta} e^{ik_\mu x^\mu}, \quad (4.26)$$

using this solution in the equation 4.25 we find that $k_\alpha k^\alpha = 0$ this means the vector $\mathbb{K}$ is a null-like or light-like vector, this implies that *the gravitational waves travels at the speed of light in vacuum* and from the Lorenz Gauge we find this

$$\frac{\partial}{\partial x^\mu} \left(\eta^{\mu\nu} A_{\alpha\nu} e^{ik_\sigma x^\sigma} \right) = 0, \quad (4.27)$$

$$\eta^{\mu\nu} A_{\alpha\nu} \frac{\partial}{\partial x^\mu} e^{ik_\sigma x^\sigma} = 0, \quad (4.28)$$

$$\eta^{\mu\nu} A_{\alpha\nu} e^{ik_\sigma x^\sigma} i k_\beta \frac{\partial x^\beta}{\partial x^\mu} = 0, \quad (4.29)$$

$$\eta^{\mu\nu} A_{\alpha\nu} i k_\mu e^{ik_\sigma x^\sigma} = 0. \quad (4.30)$$

The equation 4.30 means that the wave vector is orthogonal to the amplitude tensor.

4.2 Gravitational waves

Here we are going to keep developing the wave equation for the perturbation $h_{\alpha\beta}$ see how are the equations for the perturbations of the coordinates components and we will work with a new Gauge, the called *traceless transverse gauge* and we will find out the gravitational waves have got polarization properties.

From our Lorentz gauge we had found that $W'_\alpha = 0$ but this also means that the perturbations of the coordinates satisfies a wave equation $W_\alpha = \square \xi_\alpha$ so we can suppose the most basic solution to this equation is a plane wave, therefore

$$\xi^\alpha = B^\alpha e^{ik_\sigma x^\sigma}, \quad (4.31)$$

where B^α are four infinitesimal constants, and we gotta find them to have a complete solution for the wave equation to do it lets start from the primed and bar perturbation

$$\bar{h}'_{\alpha\beta} = \bar{h}_{\alpha\beta} - \frac{\partial \xi_\alpha}{\partial x^\beta} - \frac{\partial \xi_\beta}{\partial x^\alpha} + \eta_{\alpha\beta} \frac{\partial \xi_\mu}{\partial x^\mu}, \quad (4.32)$$

$$\bar{h}'_{\alpha\beta} = A_{\alpha\beta} e^{ik_\sigma x^\sigma} - i B_\alpha k_\beta e^{ik_\sigma x^\sigma} - i B_\beta k_\alpha e^{ik_\sigma x^\sigma} + i \eta_{\alpha\beta} k_\sigma B^\sigma e^{ik_\sigma x^\sigma} = A'_{\alpha\beta} e^{ik_\sigma x^\sigma}, \quad (4.33)$$

thus

$$A'_{\alpha\beta} = A_{\alpha\beta} - i B_\alpha k_\beta - i B_\beta k_\alpha + i \eta_{\alpha\beta} k_\sigma B^\sigma. \quad (4.34)$$

4.2.1 Traceless transverse gauge

Here we are going to choose a new gauge, the *traceless transverse gauge* which will allow us to work as well with $\bar{h}_{\alpha\beta}$ as $h_{\alpha\beta}$ because, we will see it in a moment, both satisfies the same wave equations. The traceless transverse Gauge is:

$$\eta^{\mu\nu} A'_{\mu\nu} = 0, \quad (4.35)$$

$$A'_{0i} = 0. \quad (4.36)$$

Calculating the Gauge of the equation 4.34 we have

$$\eta^{\mu\nu} A'_{\mu\nu} = \eta^{\mu\nu} A_{\mu\nu} - i\eta^{\mu\nu} B_\mu k_\nu - i\eta^{\mu\nu} B_\nu k_\mu + i\eta^{\mu\nu} \eta_{\mu\nu} k_\sigma B^\sigma = 0, \quad (4.37)$$

$$A'_{0i} = A_{0i} - iB_0 k_i - iB_i k_0 + \eta_{0i} i k_\sigma B^\sigma = 0, \quad (4.38)$$

$$\eta^{\mu\nu} A'_{\mu\nu} = \eta^{\mu\nu} A_{\mu\nu} + 2ik_\mu B^\mu = 0, \quad (4.39)$$

$$A_{0i} - ik_0 B_i - iB_i k_0 = 0. \quad (4.40)$$

Or we can rewrite them in a more comfortable way as

$$\eta^{\mu\nu} A_{\mu\nu} = -2ik_\mu B^\mu, \quad (4.41)$$

$$k_0 B_i + B_0 k_i = -ia_{0i}. \quad (4.42)$$

Now, from the orthogonality condition 4.30 we can calculate how are the componentes of $A_{\mu\nu}$ therefore

$$A_{0\beta} k^\beta = A_{00} k^0 + A_{0i} k^i = A_{00} k^0 = 0 \rightarrow A_{00} = 0 \rightarrow A_{0\alpha} = 0, \quad (4.43)$$

$$A_{i\beta} k^\beta = A_{i0} k^0 + A_{ij} k^j = 0 \rightarrow A_{ij} = 0. \quad (4.44)$$

Before going further it will be worth to calculate the trace of the perturbation under these gauge, thus

$$\bar{h}_{0\alpha} = 0, \quad \bar{h} = \eta^{\alpha\beta} h_{\alpha\beta} = \eta^{\alpha\beta} A_{\alpha\beta} = 0 = -h = 0, \quad (4.45)$$

$$\bar{h}_{\alpha\beta} = h_{\alpha\beta}. \quad (4.46)$$

Here we can see that using this gauge the wave equation for $h_{\alpha\beta}$ is the same that for $\bar{h}_{\alpha\beta}$ lets write the perturbation in a matrix form under the assumption the wave vector has the following form $k_\alpha = [\omega/C, 0, 0, -\omega/C]$ thus

$$A_{\alpha\beta}k^\beta = A_{\alpha 0}k^0 + A_{\alpha i}k^i = A_{\alpha 0}\frac{\omega}{C} - A_{\alpha z}\frac{\omega}{C} = 0, \quad (4.47)$$

$$\eta^{\mu\nu}A_{\mu\nu} = 0 \rightarrow A_{xx} + A_{yy} = 0. \quad (4.48)$$

We are going to set that $A_{xx} = a_+$ called *plus mode* and $A_{xy} = A_{yx} = a_\times$ called the *crux mode*, there the perturbation written under the traceless transverse gauge is

$$h_{\alpha\beta}^{TT} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & h_+ & h_\times & 0 \\ 0 & h_\times & -h_+ & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix} \quad (4.49)$$

then we can define now the **gravitational polarization modes** as

$$h_+ = a_+ e^{i\omega(t - \frac{z}{C})}, \quad (4.50)$$

$$h_\times = a_\times e^{i\omega(t - \frac{z}{C})}. \quad (4.51)$$

4.2.1.1 Polarization and Stokes parameters for gravitational waves

We are going to start from the perturbation under the influence of a traceless transverse gauge 4.49 this because it has got a really familiar form so we have to ask ourselves, *what is the difference between light's polarization and gravitational polarization?* Well, lets figure it out.

First, we have to use the fact there is an isomorphism between the vector space $\mathbb{M}_{n \times n}$ (square $n \times n$ matrices) and $\mathbb{R}^n$, therefore from the perturbation matrix 4.49 we can define our *perturbation state vector*

$$\mathbf{h}^{TT} = \begin{bmatrix} h_+ \\ h_\times \\ h_\times \\ -h_+ \end{bmatrix}. \quad (4.52)$$

This vector will tell us the polarization mode state where our space-time is under the perturbation 4.49 but before going further we must take on count an important fact, a_+, a_x must have their own spatial phase because not always h_+ and h_x will be on phase or will represent the same oscillation but with different amplitude, both are different, in general, polarization modes, then if A_+, ϕ_+, A_x, ϕ_x are their amplitudes and phases respectively then the polarization mode state vector will be

$$\mathbf{h}^{TT} = \begin{bmatrix} A_+ e^{i\phi_+} \\ A_x e^{i\phi_x} \\ A_x e^{i\phi_x} \\ -A_+ e^{i\phi_+} \end{bmatrix} e^{i(\omega t - kz)}. \quad (4.53)$$

We have got only two degrees of freedom in the state vector 4.53 one for the $+$ modes and the other for the x modes, lets see how are they related geometrically. We can see easily the following two equations

$$\frac{a_+}{A_+} e^{-i\phi_x} = e^{i(\omega t - kz)} e^{i\Delta\phi}, \quad \frac{a_x}{A_x} e^{-i\phi_x} = e^{i(\omega t - kz)} e^{-i\Delta\phi} \quad (4.54)$$

where $\Delta\phi = \phi_+ - \phi_x$ having all of this on count lets calculate the following product

$$\left(\frac{a_+}{A_+} e^{-i\phi_x} - \frac{a_x}{A_x} e^{-i\phi_+} \right) \left(\frac{a_+}{A_+} e^{-i\phi_x} - \frac{a_x}{A_x} e^{-i\phi_+} \right)^*, \quad (4.55)$$

$$\begin{aligned} & \left(\frac{a_+}{A_+} e^{-i\phi_x} - \frac{a_x}{A_x} e^{-i\phi_+} \right) \left(\frac{a_+}{A_+} e^{-i\phi_x} - \frac{a_x}{A_x} e^{-i\phi_+} \right)^* \\ &= \frac{a_+^2}{A_+^2} - \frac{a_+ a_x^*}{A_+ A_x} e^{i\Delta\phi} - \frac{a_x a_+^*}{A_+ A_x} e^{-i\Delta\phi} + \frac{a_x^2}{A_x^2} \\ &= \frac{a_+^2}{A_+^2} + \frac{a_x^2}{A_x^2} - 2 \frac{\text{Real}\{a_+ a_x^*\}}{A_+ A_x} \cos\Delta\phi, \end{aligned}$$

$$\left(\frac{a_+}{A_+} e^{-i\phi_x} - \frac{a_x}{A_x} e^{-i\phi_+} \right) \left(\frac{a_+}{A_+} e^{-i\phi_x} - \frac{a_x}{A_x} e^{-i\phi_+} \right)^* = \sin^2 \Delta\phi \quad (4.56)$$

or joining all

$$\frac{a_+^2}{A_+^2} + \frac{a_x^2}{A_x^2} - 2 \frac{\text{Real}\{a_+ a_x^*\}}{A_+ A_x} \cos\Delta\phi = \sin^2 \Delta\phi. \quad (4.57)$$

The polarization modes describe an hyper-ellipse in the complex plane $\mathbb{C}^2$ in the same way as the light's polarization! Then this implies the polarization mode state vector 4.53 lives, in someway as a vector of this ellipse. Now, we haven't got stationary perturbations, this in the real life usually

oscillates very fast and has some kind of time-dependence, under the same calculation we can arrive to an ellipse in the real space (this time taking its real part and ignoring the imaginary part)

$$\frac{a_+^2(t)}{A_+^2(t)} + \frac{a_x^2(t)}{A_x^2(t)} - 2\frac{a_+(t)a_x(t)}{A_x(t)A_+(t)}\cos\Delta\phi = \sin^2\Delta\phi. \quad (4.58)$$

To solve this problem of the time dependence we can take time averages, why? Because we in fact measure time averages and we, for simplicity, we have suppose monochromatic waves thus

$$\frac{\langle a_+^2(t) \rangle}{A_+^2} + \frac{\langle a_x^2(t) \rangle}{A_x^2} - 2\frac{\langle a_+(t)a_x^*(t) \rangle}{A_x A_+}\cos\Delta\phi = \sin^2\Delta\phi \quad (4.59)$$

where

$$\langle a_i(t)a_j(t) \rangle = \lim_{T \rightarrow \infty} \frac{1}{T} \int_0^T a_i(t)a_j(t)dt \quad i, j = +, x. \quad (4.60)$$

Multiplying the equation 4.59 by $4A_+^2A_x^2$ we can see that

$$4A_x^2 \langle A_+^2(t) \rangle + 4A_+^2 \langle A_x^2(t) \rangle - 8A_x A_+ \langle a_+(t)a_x(t) \rangle \cos\Delta\phi = (2A_+ A_x \sin\Delta\phi)^2. \quad (4.61)$$

Because in the perturbation 4.49 we have plane and harmonic waves, is easy to see the time averages are

$$\langle a_+(t)^2 \rangle = \frac{1}{2}A_+^2 \quad (4.62)$$

$$\langle a_x(t)^2 \rangle = \frac{1}{2}A_x^2 \quad (4.63)$$

$$\langle a_+(t)a_x(t) \rangle = \frac{1}{2}A_+ A_x \cos\Delta\phi, \quad (4.64)$$

substituting these equation in 4.59 yields to

$$2A_+^2 A_x^2 + 2A_+^2 A_x^2 - (2A_+ A_x \cos\Delta\phi)^2 = (2A_+ A_x \sin\Delta\phi)^2, \quad (4.65)$$

Since we want to express the result in terms of a *gravitational intensity* then we can add to both sides of the equation 4.65 the term $A_+^4 + A_x^4$ to have then perfect squares thus we arrive to

$$(A_+^2 + A_x^2)^2 - (A_+^2 - A_x^2)^2 - (2A_+ A_x \cos\Delta\phi)^2 = (2A_+ A_x \sin\Delta\phi)^2, \quad (4.66)$$

or defining the following quantities

$$S_0^G = A_+^2 + A_x^2, \quad (4.67)$$

$$S_1^G = A_+^2 - A_x^2, \quad (4.68)$$

$$S_2^G = 2A_+A_x\cos\Delta\phi, \quad (4.69)$$

$$S_3^G = 2A_+A_x\sin\Delta\phi \quad (4.70)$$

letting us to write the equation 4.66 as

$$(S_0^G)^2 = (S_1^G)^2 + (S_2^G)^2 + (S_3^G)^2 \quad (4.71)$$

this is the same equation for the Stokes parameters for a well polarized light beam.

4.2.2 Effects of the gravitational radiation on the matter

To study the effects of the gravitational radiation under the traceless transverse gauge we are going to suppose a particle A which interacts only gravitationally and follows a geodesic parameterized with its proper time τ this particle will stay quite in the origin of coordinates, this means its world line will be a vertical line, therefore given a coordinate chart its coordinates are

$$X_{;A}^0(\tau) = ct, \text{ \& } X_A^i(\tau) = 0, \quad (4.72)$$

lets solve its geodesic equation

$$\frac{d^2 X_A^\alpha}{d\tau^2} + \Gamma_{\mu\nu}^\alpha \dot{x}_A^\mu \dot{x}_A^\nu = 0 \quad (4.73)$$

where

$$\Gamma_{\beta\gamma}^0 = -\frac{1}{2} (h_{0\gamma,\beta} + h_{0\beta,\gamma} - h_{\gamma\beta,0}), \quad (4.74)$$

$$\Gamma_{\beta\gamma}^i = \frac{1}{2} (h_{i\gamma,\beta} + h_{i\beta,\gamma} - h_{\gamma\beta,i}). \quad (4.75)$$

Using the TTG

$$\Gamma^0_{\beta\gamma} = \frac{1}{2C} h^{TT}_{\gamma\beta,t}, \quad (4.76)$$

$$\Gamma^0_{0\alpha} = 0, \quad (4.77)$$

$$\Gamma^0_{ij} = \frac{1}{2C} h^{TT}_{ij,t}, \quad (4.78)$$

$$\Gamma^i_{00} = 0, \quad (4.79)$$

$$\Gamma^i_{0j} = \frac{1}{2C} h^{TT}_{ij,t}, \quad (4.80)$$

$$\Gamma^i_{jk} = \frac{1}{2} (h^{TT}_{ik,j} + h^{TT}_{ji,k} - h^{TT}_{jk,i}). \quad (4.81)$$

When we replace with $\alpha = 0$ we have got the equations keeps equal, *the gravitational wave does not affect the observer* we will see later this is due that the gravitational waves have a quadru-polar behavior.

Poincaré Sphere

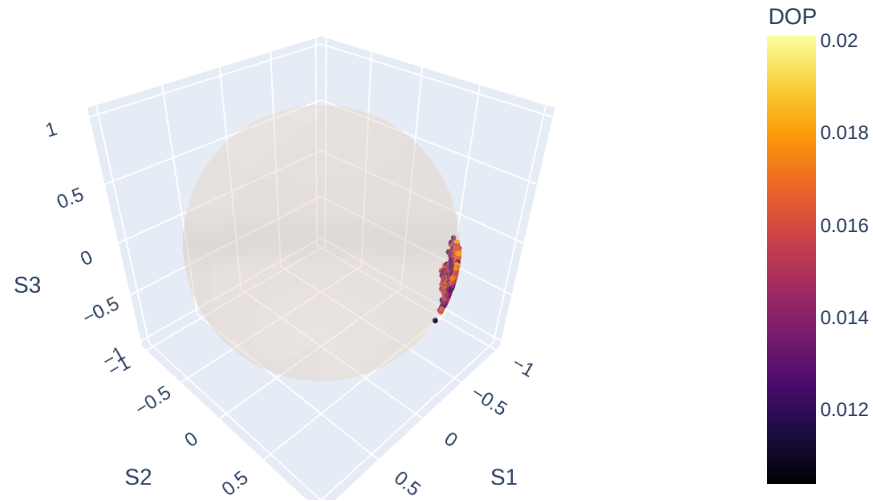


Figure 4.1: Caption

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